CHAPTER

4 Real Vector Spaces

In Sections 1.2, 1.3, and 1.6, we have given brief glimpses of 2-vectors and 3-vectors and of some of their properties from an intuitive, somewhat informal point of view. In this chapter we first develop the notion of 2-vectors and 3-vectors along with their properties very carefully and systematically. A good mastery of this basic material will be helpful in understanding n-vectors and in the study of Section 4.2, where a more general notion of vector will be introduced. Moreover, n-vectors and this more general concept of vector will be used in many parts of the book.

4.1 Vectors in the Plane and in 3-Space

In many applications we deal with measurable quantities such as pressure, mass, and speed, which can be completely described by giving their magnitude. They are called **scalars** and will be denoted by lowercase *italic* letters such as c, d, r, s, and t. There are many other measurable quantities, such as velocity, force, and acceleration, which require for their description not only magnitude, but also a sense of direction. These are called **vectors**, and their study comprises this chapter. Vectors will be denoted by lowercase **boldface** letters, such as **u**, **v**, **x**, **y**, and **z**. The reader may already have encountered vectors in elementary physics and in calculus.

■ Vectors in the Plane

We draw a pair of perpendicular lines intersecting at a point O, called the **origin**. One of the lines, the ***x*-axis**, is usually taken in a horizontal position. The other line, the ***y*-axis**, is then taken in a vertical position. The x- and y-axes together are called **coordinate axes** (Figure 4.1), and they form a **rectangular coordinate system**, or a **Cartesian** (after René Descartes*) **coordinate system**. We now choose a point

*René Descartes (1596–1650) was one of the best-known scientists and philosophers of his day; he was considered by some to be the founder of modern philosophy. After completing a university degree in law, he turned to the private study of mathematics, simultaneously pursuing interests in Parisian

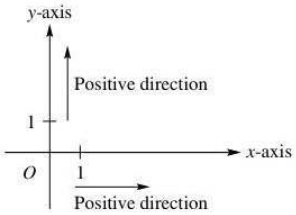


FIGURE 4.1

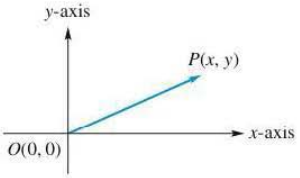


FIGURE 4.2

on the x-axis to the right of O and a point on the y-axis above O to fix the units of length and positive directions on the x- and y-axes. Frequently, but not always, these points are chosen so that they are both equidistant from O—that is, so that the same unit of length is used for both axes.

With each point P in the plane we associate an ordered pair (x, y) of real numbers, its **coordinates**. Conversely, we can associate a point in the plane with each ordered pair of real numbers. Point P with coordinates (x, y) is denoted by $P(x, y)$, or simply by (x, y). The set of all points in the plane is denoted by R^2; it is called **2-space**.

Consider the 2×1 matrix

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix},$$

where x and y are real numbers. With $\mathbf{x}$ we associate the directed line segment with the initial point the origin and terminal point $P(x, y)$. The directed line segment from O to P is denoted by $\overrightarrow{OP}$; O is called its **tail** and P its **head**. We distinguish tail and head by placing an arrow at the head (Figure 4.2). A directed line segment has a **direction**, indicated by the arrow at its head. The **magnitude** of a directed line segment is its length. Thus a directed line segment can be used to describe force, velocity, or acceleration. Conversely, with the directed line segment $\overrightarrow{OP}$ with tail $O(0, 0)$ and head $P(x, y)$ we can associate the matrix

$$\begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix}.$$

DEFINITION 4.1

A **vector in the plane** is a 2×1 matrix

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix},$$

where x and y are real numbers, called the **components** (or **entries**) of $\mathbf{x}$. We refer to a vector in the plane merely as a **vector** or as a **2-vector**.

Thus, with every vector, we can associate a directed line segment and, conversely, with every directed line segment we can associate a vector. Frequently, the notions of directed line segment and vector are used interchangeably, and a directed line segment is called a **vector**.



RENÉ DESCARTES

night life and in the military, volunteering for brief periods in the Dutch, Bavarian, and French armies. The most productive period of his life was 1628–1648, when he lived in Holland. In 1649 he accepted an invitation from Queen Christina of Sweden to be her private tutor and to establish an Academy of Sciences there. Unfortunately, he did not carry out this project, since he died of pneumonia in 1650.

In 1619 Descartes had a dream in which he realized that the method of mathematics is the best way for obtaining truth. However, his only mathematical publication was *La Géométrie*, which appeared as an appendix to his major philosophical work, *Discours de la méthode pour bien conduire sa raison, et chercher la vérité dans les sciences* (*Discourse on the Method of Reasoning Well and Seeking Truth in the Sciences*). In *La Géométrie* he proposes the radical idea of doing geometry algebraically. To express a curve algebraically, one chooses any convenient line of reference and, on the line, a point of reference. If y represents the distance from any point of the curve to the reference line and x represents the distance along the line to the reference point, there is an equation relating x and y that represents the curve. The systematic use of "Cartesian" coordinates described in this section was introduced later in the seventeenth century by mathematicians carrying on Descartes's work.

Since a vector is a matrix, the vectors

$$\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ y_1 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} x_2 \\ y_2 \end{bmatrix}$$

are said to be **equal** if $x_1 = x_2$ and $y_1 = y_2$. That is, two vectors are equal if their respective components are equal.

EXAMPLE 1

The vectors

$$\begin{bmatrix} a+b \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ a-b \end{bmatrix}$$

are equal if

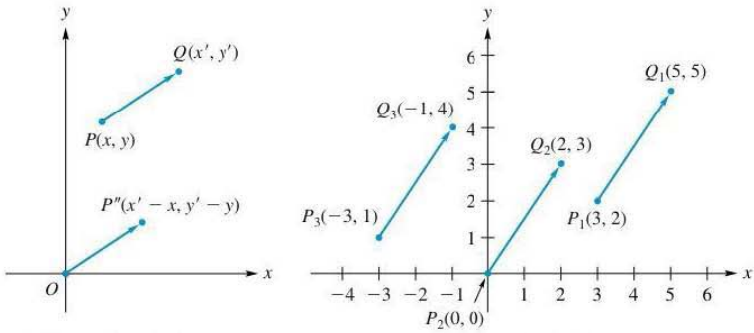
$$\begin{aligned} a + b &= 3 \\ a - b &= 2, \end{aligned}$$

which means (verify) that $a = \frac{5}{2}$ and $b = \frac{1}{2}$. ■

Frequently, in physical applications it is necessary to deal with a directed line segment $\overrightarrow{PQ}$ from the point $P(x, y)$ (not the origin) to the point $Q(x', y')$, as shown in Figure 4.3(a). Such a directed line segment will also be called a **vector in the plane**, or simply a **vector** with **tail** $P(x, y)$ and **head** $Q(x', y')$. The **components** of such a vector are $x' - x$ and $y' - y$. Thus the vector $\overrightarrow{PQ}$ in Figure 4.3(a) can also be represented by the vector

$$\begin{bmatrix} x' - x \\ y' - y \end{bmatrix}$$

with tail O and head $P''(x' - x, y' - y)$. Two such vectors in the plane will be called **equal** if their respective components are equal. Consider the vectors $\overrightarrow{P_1Q_1}$, $\overrightarrow{P_2Q_2}$, and $\overrightarrow{P_3Q_3}$ joining the points $P_1(3, 2)$ and $Q_1(5, 5)$, $P_2(0, 0)$ and $Q_2(2, 3)$, $P_3(-3, 1)$ and $Q_3(-1, 4)$, respectively, as shown in Figure 4.3(b). Since they all have the same components, they are equal.



(a) Different directed line segments representing the same vector.

(b) Vectors in the plane.

FIGURE 4.3

Moreover, the head $Q_4(x_4', y_4')$ of the vector

$$\overrightarrow{P_4Q_4} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix} = \overrightarrow{P_2Q_2}$$

with tail $P_4(-5, 2)$ can be determined as follows. We must have $x_4' - (-5) = 2$ and $y_4' - 2 = 3$, so that $x_4' = 2 - 5 = -3$ and $y_4' = 3 + 2 = 5$. Similarly, the tail $P_5(x_5, y_5)$ of the vector

$$\overrightarrow{P_5Q_5} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$$

with head $Q_5(8, 6)$ is determined as follows. We must have $8 - x_5 = 2$ and $6 - y_5 = 3$, so that $x_5 = 8 - 2 = 6$ and $y_5 = 6 - 3 = 3$.

With each vector

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix}$$

we can also associate the unique point $P(x, y)$; conversely, with each point $P(x, y)$ we associate the unique vector

$$\begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix}.$$

Hence we also write the vector $\mathbf{x}$ as (x, y). Of course, this association is carried out by means of the directed line segment $\overrightarrow{OP}$, where O is the origin and P is the point with coordinates (x, y) (Figure 4.2).

Thus the plane may be viewed both as the set of all points or as the set of all vectors. For this reason, and depending upon the context, we sometimes take R^2 as the set of all ordered pairs (x, y) and sometimes as the set of all 2×1 matrices

$$\begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix}.$$

DEFINITION 4.2

Let

$$\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} u_1 \\ u_2 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \end{bmatrix}$$

be two vectors in the plane. The **sum** of the vectors $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ is the vector

$$\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} u_1 + v_1 \\ u_2 + v_2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Remark Observe that vector addition is a special case of matrix addition.

EXAMPLE 2

Let $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$ and $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ -4 \end{bmatrix}$. Then

$$\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 + 3 \\ 3 + (-4) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 5 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

See Figure 4.4. ■

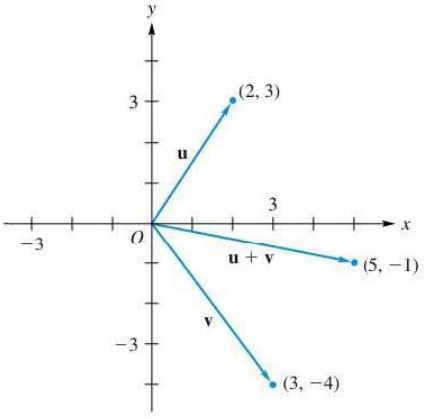


FIGURE 4.4

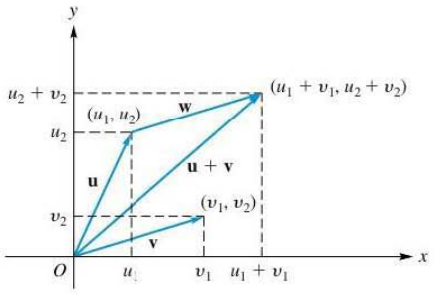


FIGURE 4.5 Vector addition.

We can interpret vector addition geometrically, as follows. In Figure 4.5 the directed line segment **w** is parallel to **v**, it has the same length as **v**, and its tail is the head (u_1, u_2) of **u**, so its head is $(u_1 + v_1, u_2 + v_2)$. Thus the vector with tail O and head $(u_1 + v_1, u_2 + v_2)$ is $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}$. We can also describe $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}$ as the diagonal of the parallelogram defined by **u** and **v**, as shown in Figure 4.6.

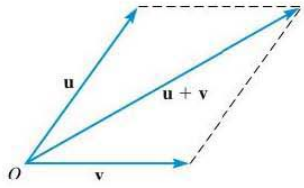


FIGURE 4.6 Vector addition.

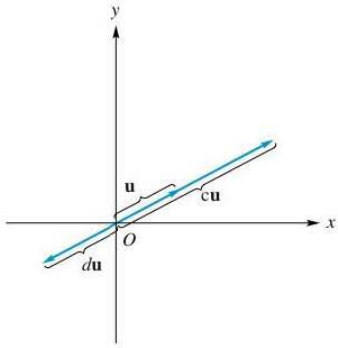


FIGURE 4.7 Scalar multiplication.

DEFINITION 4.3 If $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} u_1 \\ u_2 \end{bmatrix}$ is a vector and c is a scalar (a real number), then the **scalar multiple** $c\mathbf{u}$ of **u** by c is the vector $\begin{bmatrix} cu_1 \\ cu_2 \end{bmatrix}$. Thus the scalar multiple $c\mathbf{u}$ is obtained by multiplying each component of **u** by c. If $c > 0$, then $c\mathbf{u}$ is in the same direction as **u**, whereas if $d < 0$, then $d\mathbf{u}$ is in the opposite direction (Figure 4.7).

EXAMPLE 3 If $c = 2$, $d = -3$, and $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -3 \end{bmatrix}$, then

$$c\mathbf{u} = 2\begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 2(2) \\ 2(-3) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ -6 \end{bmatrix}$$

and

$$d\mathbf{u} = -3\begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} (-3)(2) \\ (-3)(-3) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -6 \\ 9 \end{bmatrix},$$

which are shown in Figure 4.8. ■

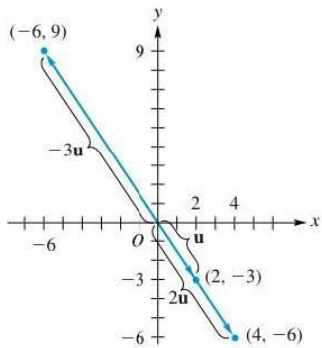
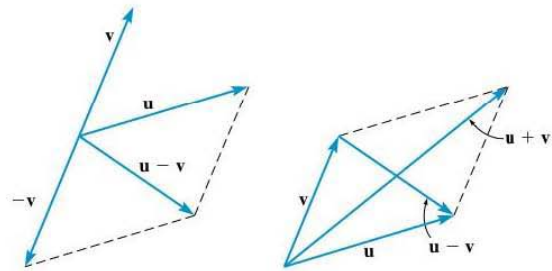


FIGURE 4.8



(a) Difference between vectors. (b) Vector sum and vector difference.

FIGURE 4.9

The vector

$$\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

is called the **zero vector** and is denoted by $\mathbf{0}$. If $\mathbf{u}$ is any vector, it follows that (Exercise 21)

$$\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{u}.$$

We can also show (Exercise 22) that

$$\mathbf{u} + (-1)\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{0},$$

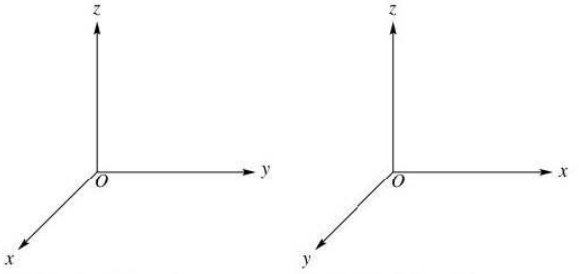
and we write $(-1)\mathbf{u}$ as $-\mathbf{u}$ and call it the **negative** of $\mathbf{u}$. Moreover, we write $\mathbf{u} + (-1)\mathbf{v}$ as $\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}$ and call it the **difference between u and v**. It is shown in Figure 4.9(a). Observe that while vector addition gives one diagonal of a parallelogram, vector subtraction gives the other diagonal [see Figure 4.9(b)].

■ Vectors in Space

The foregoing discussion of vectors in the plane can be generalized to vectors in space, as follows. We first fix a **coordinate system** by choosing a point, called the **origin**, and three lines, called the **coordinate axes**, each passing through the origin

so that each line is perpendicular to the other two. These lines are individually called the x-, y-, and z-axes. On each of these axes we choose a point fixing the units of length and positive directions on the coordinate axes. Frequently, but not always, the same unit of length is used for all the coordinate axes. In Figure 4.10 we show two of the many possible coordinate systems.

The coordinate system shown in Figure 4.10(a) is called a **right-handed coordinate system**; the one in Figure 4.10(b) is called **left-handed**. A right-handed system is characterized by the following property: If we curl the fingers of the right hand in the direction of a 90° rotation from the positive x-axis to the positive y-axis, then the thumb will point in the direction of the positive z-axis. (See Figure 4.11.)



(a) Right-handed coordinate system. (b) Left-handed coordinate system.

FIGURE 4.10

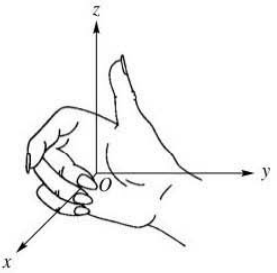


FIGURE 4.11

If we rotate the x-axis counterclockwise toward the y-axis, then a right-hand screw will move in the positive z-direction (see Figure 4.11).

With each point P in space we associate an ordered triple (x, y, z) of real numbers, its coordinates. Conversely, we can associate a point in space with each ordered triple of real numbers. The point P with coordinates x, y, and z is denoted by $P(x, y, z)$, or simply by (x, y, z). The set of all points in space is called **3-space** and is denoted by R^3.

A **vector in space**, or **3-vector**, or simply a **vector**, is a 3×1 matrix

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \\ z \end{bmatrix},$$

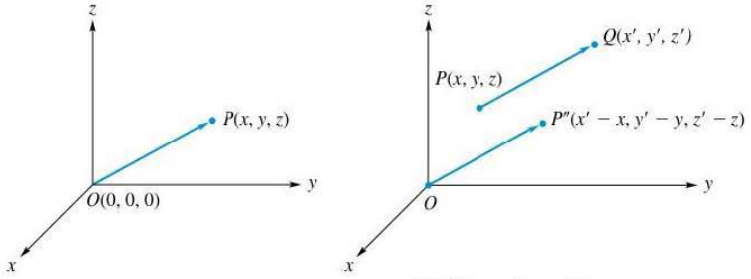
where x, y, and z are real numbers, called the **components** of vector $\mathbf{x}$. Two vectors in space are said to be **equal** if their respective components are equal.

As in the plane, with the vector

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \\ z \end{bmatrix}$$

we associate the directed line segment $\overrightarrow{OP}$, whose tail is $O(0, 0, 0)$ and whose head is $P(x, y, z)$; conversely, with each directed line segment we associate the

vector $\mathbf{x}$ [see Figure 4.12(a)]. Thus we can also write the vector $\mathbf{x}$ as (x, y, z). Again, as in the plane, in physical applications we often deal with a directed line segment $\overrightarrow{PQ}$, from the point $P(x, y, z)$ (not the origin) to the point $Q(x', y', z')$, as shown in Figure 4.12(b). Such a directed line segment will also be called a **vector in R^3**, or simply a **vector** with tail $P(x, y, z)$ and head $Q(x', y', z')$. The components of such a vector are $x' - x$, $y' - y$, and $z' - z$. Two such vectors in R^3 will be called **equal** if their respective components are equal. Thus the vector $\overrightarrow{PQ}$ in Figure 4.12(b) can also be represented by the vector $\begin{bmatrix} x' - x \\ y' - y \\ z' - z \end{bmatrix}$ with tail O and head $P''(x' - x, y' - y, z' - z)$.



(a) A vector in R^3

(b) Different directed line segments representing the same vector.

FIGURE 4.12

If $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} u_1 \\ u_2 \\ u_3 \end{bmatrix}$ and $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ v_3 \end{bmatrix}$ are vectors in R^3 and c is a scalar, then the **sum** $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}$ and the **scalar multiple** $c\mathbf{u}$ are defined, respectively, as

$$\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} u_1 + v_1 \\ u_2 + v_2 \\ u_3 + v_3 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad c\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} cu_1 \\ cu_2 \\ cu_3 \end{bmatrix}.$$

The sum is shown in Figure 4.13, which resembles Figure 4.5, and the scalar multiple is shown in Figure 4.14, which resembles Figure 4.8.

EXAMPLE 4

Let

$$\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ -4 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Compute: (a) $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}$; (b) $-2\mathbf{u}$; (c) $3\mathbf{u} - 2\mathbf{v}$.

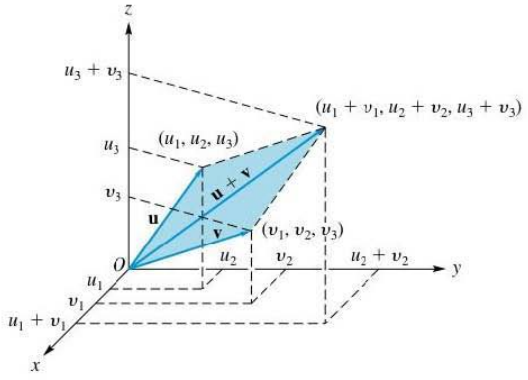


FIGURE 4.13 Vector addition.

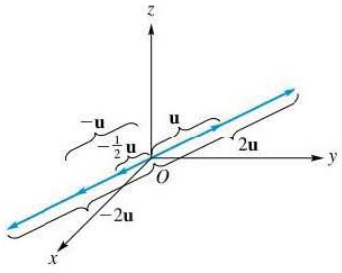


FIGURE 4.14 Scalar multiplication.

Solution

(a) $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 2+3 \\ 3+(-4) \\ -1+2 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 5 \\ -1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $-2\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} -2(2) \\ -2(3) \\ -2(-1) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -4 \\ -6 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$

(c) $3\mathbf{u} - 2\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 3(2) \\ 3(3) \\ 3(-1) \end{bmatrix} - \begin{bmatrix} 2(3) \\ 2(-4) \\ 2(2) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 17 \\ -7 \end{bmatrix}$ ■

The **zero** vector in R^3 is denoted by $\mathbf{0}$, where

$$\mathbf{0} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

The vector $\mathbf{0}$ has the property that if $\mathbf{u}$ is any vector in R^3, then

$$\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{u}.$$

The **negative** of the vector $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} u_1 \\ u_2 \\ u_3 \end{bmatrix}$ is the vector $-\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} -u_1 \\ -u_2 \\ -u_3 \end{bmatrix}$, and

$$\mathbf{u} + (-\mathbf{u}) = \mathbf{0}.$$

Observe that we have defined a vector in the plane as an ordered pair of real numbers, or as a 2×1 matrix. Similarly, a vector in space is an ordered triple of real numbers, or a 3×1 matrix. However, in physics we often treat a vector as a directed line segment. Thus we have three very different representations of a

vector, and we can then ask why all three are valid. That is, why are we justified in referring to an ordered pair of real numbers, a 2×1 matrix, and a directed line segment by the same name, "vector"?

To answer this question, we first observe that, mathematically speaking, the only thing that concerns us is the behavior of the object we call "vector." It turns out that all three objects behave, from an algebraic point of view, in exactly the same manner. Moreover, many other objects that arise naturally in applied problems behave, algebraically speaking, as do the aforementioned objects. To a mathematician, this is a perfect situation. For we can now abstract those features that all such objects have in common (i.e., those properties that make them all behave alike) and define a new structure. The great advantage of doing this is that we can now talk about properties of all such objects at the same time without having to refer to any one object in particular. This, of course, is much more efficient than studying the properties of each object separately. For example, the theorem presented next summarizes the properties of addition and scalar multiplication for vectors in the plane and in space. Moreover, this theorem will serve as the model for the generalization of the set of all vectors in the plane or in space to a more abstract setting.

Theorem 4.1 If $\mathbf{u}$, $\mathbf{v}$, and $\mathbf{w}$ are vectors in R^2 or R^3, and c and d are real scalars, then the following properties are valid:

(a) $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v} + \mathbf{u}$

(b) $\mathbf{u} + (\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}) = (\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}) + \mathbf{w}$

(c) $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{0} + \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{u}$

(d) $\mathbf{u} + (-\mathbf{u}) = \mathbf{0}$

(e) $c(\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}) = c\mathbf{u} + c\mathbf{v}$

(f) $(c + d)\mathbf{u} = c\mathbf{u} + d\mathbf{u}$

(g) $c(d\mathbf{u}) = (cd)\mathbf{u}$

(h) $1\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{u}$

Proof

(a) Suppose that $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are vectors in R^2 so that

$$\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} u_1 \\ u_2 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Then

$$\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} u_1 + v_1 \\ u_2 + v_2 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v} + \mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 + u_1 \\ v_2 + u_2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Since the components of $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are real numbers, $u_1 + v_1 = v_1 + u_1$ and $u_2 + v_2 = v_2 + u_2$. Therefore,

$$\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v} + \mathbf{u}.$$

A similar proof can be given if $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are vectors in R^3.

Property (a) can also be established geometrically, as shown in Figure 4.15. The proofs of the remaining properties will be left as exercises. Remember, they can all be proved by either an algebraic or a geometric approach. ■

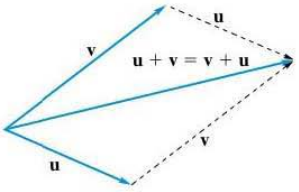


FIGURE 4.15 Vector addition.

Key Terms

Vectors
Rectangular (Cartesian) coordinate system
Coordinate axes
x-axis, y-axis, z-axis
Origin
Coordinates
2-space, R^2
Tail of a vector
Head of a vector
Directed line segment
Magnitude of a vector
Vector in the plane
Components of a vector
Equal vectors
Scalar multiple of a vector
Vector addition
Zero vector
Difference of vectors
Right- (left-) handed coordinate system
3-space, R^3
Vector in space

4.1 Exercises

1. Sketch a directed line segment in R^2, representing each of the following vectors:

(a) $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$ (b) $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}$

(c) $\mathbf{w} = \begin{bmatrix} -3 \\ -3 \end{bmatrix}$ (d) $\mathbf{z} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ -3 \end{bmatrix}$

2. Determine the head of the vector $\begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix}$ whose tail is $(-3, 2)$. Make a sketch.

3. Determine the tail of the vector $\begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 6 \end{bmatrix}$ whose head is $(1, 2)$. Make a sketch.

4. Determine the tail of the vector $\begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}$ whose head is $(3, -2, 2)$.

5. For what values of a and b are the vectors $\begin{bmatrix} a-b \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$ and $\begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ a+b \end{bmatrix}$ equal?

6. For what values of a, b, and c are the vectors $\begin{bmatrix} 2a-b \\ a-2b \\ 6 \end{bmatrix}$ and $\begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 2 \\ a+b-2c \end{bmatrix}$ equal?

In Exercises 7 and 8, determine the components of each vector $\overrightarrow{PQ}$.

7. (a) $P(1, 2)$, $Q(3, 5)$

(b) $P(-2, 2, 3)$, $Q(-3, 5, 2)$

8. (a) $P(-1, 0)$, $Q(-3, -4)$

(b) $P(1, 1, 2)$, $Q(1, -2, -4)$

In Exercises 9 and 10, find a vector whose tail is the origin that represents each vector $\overrightarrow{PQ}$.

9. (a) $P(-1, 2)$, $Q(3, 5)$

(b) $P(1, 1, -2)$, $Q(3, 4, 5)$

10. (a) $P(2, -3)$, $Q(-2, 4)$

(b) $P(-2, -3, 4)$, $Q(0, 0, 1)$

11. Compute $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}$, $\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}$, $2\mathbf{u}$, and $3\mathbf{u} - 2\mathbf{v}$ if

(a) $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix}$;

(b) $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$;

(c) $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 6 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$.

12. Compute $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}$, $2\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}$, $3\mathbf{u} - 2\mathbf{v}$, and $\mathbf{0} - 3\mathbf{v}$ if

(a) $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$;

(b) $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -1 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ -3 \end{bmatrix}$;

(c) $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 1 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}$.

13. Let

$$\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 2 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{w} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix},$$

$c = -2$, and $d = 3$. Compute each of the following:

(a) $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}$

(b) $c\mathbf{u} + d\mathbf{w}$

(c) $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}$

(d) $c\mathbf{u} + d\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}$

14. Let

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{y} = \begin{bmatrix} -3 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix},$$

$$\mathbf{z} = \begin{bmatrix} r \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ s \end{bmatrix}.$$

Find r and s so that

(a) $\mathbf{z} = 2\mathbf{x}$, **(b)** $\frac{3}{2}\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{y}$, **(c)** $\mathbf{z} + \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{x}$.

15. Let

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ -2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{y} = \begin{bmatrix} -3 \\ 1 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{z} = \begin{bmatrix} r \\ -1 \\ s \end{bmatrix},$$

$$\text{and} \quad \mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ t \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Find r, s, and t so that

(a) $\mathbf{z} = \frac{1}{2}\mathbf{x}$, **(b)** $\mathbf{z} + \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{x}$, **(c)** $\mathbf{z} - \mathbf{x} = \mathbf{y}$.

16. If possible, find scalars c_1 and c_2 so that

$$c_1 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ -2 \end{bmatrix} + c_2 \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ -4 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -5 \\ 6 \end{bmatrix}.$$

17. If possible, find scalars c_1, c_2, and c_3 so that

$$c_1 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ -3 \end{bmatrix} + c_2 \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + c_3 \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 4 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}.$$

18. If possible, find scalars c_1 and c_2, not both zero, so that

$$c_1 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} + c_2 \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

19. If possible, find scalars c_1, c_2, and c_3, not all zero, so that

$$c_1 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix} + c_2 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 3 \\ -2 \end{bmatrix} + c_3 \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 7 \\ -4 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

20. Let

$$\mathbf{i} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{j} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{k} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Find scalars c_1, c_2, and c_3 so that any vector $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} r \\ s \\ t \end{bmatrix}$ can be written as $\mathbf{u} = c_1\mathbf{i} + c_2\mathbf{j} + c_3\mathbf{k}$.

21. Show that if $\mathbf{u}$ is a vector in R^2 or R^3, then $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{u}$.

22. Show that if $\mathbf{u}$ is a vector in R^2 or R^3, then

$$\mathbf{u} + (-1)\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{0}.$$

23. Prove part (b) and parts (d) through (h) of Theorem 4.1.

24. Determine whether the software you use supports graphics. If it does, experiment with plotting vectors in R^2. Usually, you must supply coordinates for the head and tail of the vector and then tell the software to connect these points. The points in Exercises 7(a) and 8(a) can be used this way.

25. Assuming that the software you use supports graphics (see Exercise 24), plot the vector

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}$$

on the same coordinate axes for each of the following:

(a) $\mathbf{v}$ is to have head (1, 1).

(b) $\mathbf{v}$ is to have head (2, 3).

26. Determine whether the software you use supports three-dimensional graphics, that is, plots points in R^3. If it does, experiment with plotting points and connecting them to form vectors in R^3.

4.2 Vector Spaces

A useful procedure in mathematics and other disciplines involves classification schemes. That is, we form classes of objects based on properties they have in common. This allows us to treat all members of the class as a single unit. Thus, instead of dealing with each distinct member of the class, we can develop notions that apply to each and every member of the class based on the properties that they have in common. In many ways this helps us work with more abstract and comprehensive ideas.

Linear algebra has such a classification scheme that has become very important. This is the notion of a **vector space**. A vector space consists of a set of objects and two operations on these objects that satisfy a certain set of rules. If we have a vector space, we will automatically be able to attribute to it certain properties that hold for all vector spaces. Thus, upon meeting some new vector space, we will not have to verify everything from scratch.

The name "vector space" conjures up the image of directed line segments from the plane, or 3-space, as discussed in Section 4.1. This is, of course, where the name of the classification scheme is derived from. We will see that matrices and n-vectors will give us examples of vector spaces, but other collections of objects, like polynomials, functions, and solutions to various types of equations, will also be vector spaces. For particular vector spaces, the members of the set of objects and the operations on these objects can vary, but the rules governing the properties satisfied by the operations involved will always be the same.

DEFINITION 4.4

A **real vector space** is a set V of elements on which we have two operations $\oplus$ and $\odot$ defined with the following properties:

(a) If $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are any elements in V, then $\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v}$ is in V. (We say that V is **closed** under the operation $\oplus$.)

(1) $\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v} \oplus \mathbf{u}$ for all $\mathbf{u}$, $\mathbf{v}$ in V.

(2) $\mathbf{u} \oplus (\mathbf{v} \oplus \mathbf{w}) = (\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v}) \oplus \mathbf{w}$ for all $\mathbf{u}$, $\mathbf{v}$, $\mathbf{w}$ in V.

(3) There exists an element $\mathbf{0}$ in V such that $\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{0} \oplus \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{u}$ for any $\mathbf{u}$ in V.

(4) For each $\mathbf{u}$ in V there exists an element $-\mathbf{u}$ in V such that $\mathbf{u} \oplus -\mathbf{u} = -\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{0}$.

(b) If $\mathbf{u}$ is any element in V and c is any real number, then $c \odot \mathbf{u}$ is in V (i.e., V is closed under the operation $\odot$).

(5) $c \odot (\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v}) = c \odot \mathbf{u} \oplus c \odot \mathbf{v}$ for any $\mathbf{u}$, $\mathbf{v}$ in V and any real number c.

(6) $(c + d) \odot \mathbf{u} = c \odot \mathbf{u} \oplus d \odot \mathbf{u}$ for any $\mathbf{u}$ in V and any real numbers c and d.

(7) $c \odot (d \odot \mathbf{u}) = (cd) \odot \mathbf{u}$ for any $\mathbf{u}$ in V and any real numbers c and d.

(8) $1 \odot \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{u}$ for any $\mathbf{u}$ in V.

The elements of V are called **vectors**; the elements of the set of real numbers R are called **scalars**. The operation $\oplus$ is called **vector addition**; the operation $\odot$ is called **scalar multiplication**. The vector $\mathbf{0}$ in property (3) is called a **zero vector**. The vector $-\mathbf{u}$ in property (4) is called a **negative of u**. It can be shown (see Exercises 19 and 20) that $\mathbf{0}$ and $-\mathbf{u}$ are unique.

If we allow the scalars to be complex numbers, we obtain a **complex vector space**. More generally, the scalars can be members of a field* F, and we obtain a vector space over F. Such spaces are important in many applications in mathematics and the physical sciences. We provide a brief introduction to complex vector

*A field is an algebraic structure enjoying the arithmetic properties shared by the real, complex, and rational numbers. Fields are studied in detail in an abstract algebra course.

spaces in Appendix B. However, in this book most of our attention will be focused on real vector spaces.

In order to specify a vector space, we must be given a set V and two operations $\oplus$ and $\odot$ satisfying all the properties of the definition. We shall often refer to a real vector space merely as a **vector space**. Thus a "vector" is now an element of a vector space and no longer needs to be interpreted as a directed line segment. In our examples we shall see, however, how this name came about in a natural manner. We now consider some examples of vector spaces, leaving it to the reader to verify that all the properties of Definition 4.4 hold.

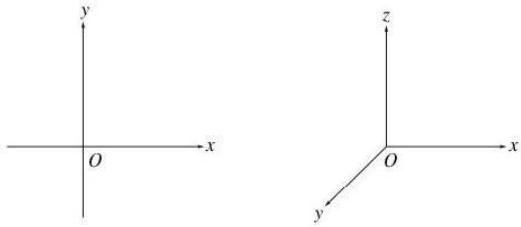
EXAMPLE 1

Consider R^n, the set of all $n \times 1$ matrices

$$\begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ \vdots \\ a_n \end{bmatrix}$$

with real entries. Let the operation $\oplus$ be matrix addition and let the operation $\odot$ be multiplication of a matrix by a real number (scalar multiplication).

By the use of the properties of matrices established in Section 1.4, it is not difficult to show that R^n is a vector space by verifying that the properties of Definition 4.4 hold. Thus the matrix $\begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ \vdots \\ a_n \end{bmatrix}$, as an element of R^n, is now called an n-vector, or merely a *vector*. We have already discussed R^2 and R^3 in Section 4.1. See Figure 4.16 for geometric representations of R^2 and R^3. Although we shall see later that many geometric notions, such as length and the angle between vectors, can be defined in R^n for $n > 3$, we cannot draw pictures in these cases. ■



R^2 R^3

FIGURE 4.16

EXAMPLE 2

The set of all $m \times n$ matrices with matrix addition as $\oplus$ and multiplication of a matrix by a real number as $\odot$ is a vector space (verify). We denote this vector space by M_{mn}. ■

EXAMPLE 3

The set of all real numbers with $\oplus$ as the usual addition of real numbers and $\odot$ as the usual multiplication of real numbers is a vector space (verify). In this case the

real numbers play the dual roles of both vectors and scalars. This vector space is essentially the case with $n = 1$ of Example 1. ■

EXAMPLE 4

Let R_n be the set of all $1 \times n$ matrices $\begin{bmatrix} a_1 & a_2 & \cdots & a_n \end{bmatrix}$, where we define $\oplus$ by

$$\begin{bmatrix} a_1 & a_2 & \cdots & a_n \end{bmatrix} \oplus \begin{bmatrix} b_1 & b_2 & \cdots & b_n \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 + b_1 & a_2 + b_2 & \cdots & a_n + b_n \end{bmatrix}$$

and we define $\odot$ by

$$c \odot \begin{bmatrix} a_1 & a_2 & \cdots & a_n \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} ca_1 & ca_2 & \cdots & ca_n \end{bmatrix}.$$

Then R_n is a vector space (verify). This is just a special case of Example 2. ■

EXAMPLE 5

Let V be the set of all 2×2 matrices with trace equal to zero; that is,

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix} \text{ is in } V \quad \text{provided} \quad \operatorname{Tr}(A) = a + d = 0.$$

(See Section 1.3, Exercise 43 for the definition and properties of the trace of a matrix.) The operation $\oplus$ is standard matrix addition, and the operation $\odot$ is standard scalar multiplication of matrices; then V is a vector space. We verify properties (a), (3), (4), (b), and (7) of Definition 4.4. The remaining properties are left for the student to verify.

Let

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad B = \begin{bmatrix} r & s \\ t & p \end{bmatrix}$$

be any elements of V. Then $\operatorname{Tr}(A) = a + d = 0$ and $\operatorname{Tr}(B) = r + p = 0$. For property (a), we have

$$A \oplus B = \begin{bmatrix} a + r & b + s \\ c + t & d + p \end{bmatrix}$$

and

$$\operatorname{Tr}(A \oplus B) = (a + r) + (d + p) = (a + d) + (r + p) = 0 + 0 = 0,$$

so $A \oplus B$ is in V; that is, V is closed under the operation $\oplus$. To verify property (3), observe that the matrix

$$\begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

has trace equal to zero, so it is in V. Then it follows from the definition of $\oplus$ that property (3) is valid in V, so $\begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$ is the zero vector, which we denote as $\mathbf{0}$. To verify property (4), let A, as given previously, be an element of V and let

$$C = \begin{bmatrix} -a & -b \\ -c & -d \end{bmatrix}.$$

We first show that C is in V:

$$\operatorname{Tr}(C) = (-a) + (-c) = -(a + c) = 0.$$

Then we have

$$A \oplus C = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} -a & -b \\ -c & -d \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix} = \mathbf{0},$$

so $C = -A$. For property (b), let k be any real number. We have

$$k \odot A = \begin{bmatrix} ka & kb \\ kc & kd \end{bmatrix}$$

and

$$\text{Tr}(k \odot A) = ka + kd = k(a + d) = 0,$$

so $k \odot A$ is in V; that is, V is closed under the operation $\odot$. For property (7), let k and m be any real numbers. Then

$$k \odot (m \odot A) = k \odot \begin{bmatrix} ma & mb \\ mc & md \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} kma & kmb \\ kmc & kmd \end{bmatrix}$$

and

$$(km) \odot A = \begin{bmatrix} kma & kmb \\ kmc & kmd \end{bmatrix}.$$

It follows that $k \odot (m \odot A) = (km) \odot A$. ■

EXAMPLE 6

Another source of examples are sets of polynomials; therefore, we recall some well-known facts about such functions. A **polynomial** (in t) is a function that is expressible as

$$p(t) = a_n t^n + a_{n-1} t^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 t + a_0,$$

where $a_0, a_1, \ldots, a_n$ are real numbers and n is a nonnegative integer. If $a_n \neq 0$, then $p(t)$ is said to have **degree n**. Thus the degree of a polynomial is the highest power of a term having a nonzero coefficient; $p(t) = 2t + 1$ has degree 1, and the constant polynomial $p(t) = 3$ has degree 0. The **zero polynomial**, denoted by $\mathbf{0}$, has no degree. We now let P_n be the set of all polynomials of degree $\leq n$ together with the zero polynomial. If $p(t)$ and $q(t)$ are in P_n, we can write

$$p(t) = a_n t^n + a_{n-1} t^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 t + a_0$$

and

$$q(t) = b_n t^n + b_{n-1} t^{n-1} + \cdots + b_1 t + b_0.$$

We define $p(t) \oplus q(t)$ as

$$p(t) \oplus q(t) = (a_n + b_n)t^n + (a_{n-1} + b_{n-1})t^{n-1} + \cdots + (a_1 + b_1)t + (a_0 + b_0).$$

If c is a scalar, we also define $c \odot p(t)$ as

$$c \odot p(t) = (ca_n)t^n + (ca_{n-1})t^{n-1} + \cdots + (ca_1)t + (ca_0).$$

We now show that P_n is a vector space.

Let $p(t)$ and $q(t)$, as before, be elements of P_n; that is, they are polynomials of degree $\leq n$ or the zero polynomial. Then the previous definitions of the operations $\oplus$ and $\odot$ show that $p(t) \oplus q(t)$ and $c \odot p(t)$, for any scalar c, are polynomials of

degree $\leq n$ or the zero polynomial. That is, $p(t) \oplus q(t)$ and $c \odot p(t)$ are in P_n so that (a) and (b) in Definition 4.4 hold. To verify property (1), we observe that

$$q(t) \oplus p(t) = (b_n + a_n)t^n + (b_{n-1} + a_{n-1})t^{n-1} + \cdots + (b_1 + a_1)t + (a_0 + b_0),$$

and since $a_i + b_i = b_i + a_i$ holds for the real numbers, we conclude that $p(t) \oplus q(t) = q(t) \oplus p(t)$. Similarly, we verify property (2). The zero polynomial is the element $\mathbf{0}$ needed in property (3). If $p(t)$ is as given previously, then its negative, $-p(t)$, is

$$-a_n t^n - a_{n-1}t^{n-1} - \cdots - a_1 t - a_0.$$

We shall now verify property (6) and will leave the verification of the remaining properties to the reader. Thus

$$\begin{aligned}(c+d) \odot p(t) &= (c+d)a_n t^n + (c+d)a_{n-1}t^{n-1} + \cdots + (c+d)a_1 t \\ &\quad + (c+d)a_0 \\ &= ca_n t^n + da_n t^n + ca_{n-1}t^{n-1} + da_{n-1}t^{n-1} + \cdots + ca_1 t \\ &\quad + da_1 t + ca_0 + da_0 \\ &= c(a_n t^n + a_{n-1}t^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 t + a_0) \\ &\quad + d(a_n t^n + a_{n-1}t^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 t + a_0) \\ &= c \odot p(t) \oplus d \odot p(t).\end{aligned}$$

■

Remark We show later that the vector space P_n behaves algebraically in exactly the same manner as R^{n+1}.

For each natural number n, we have just defined the vector space P_n of all polynomials of degree $\leq n$ together with the zero polynomial. We could also consider the space P of *all* polynomials (of any degree), together with the zero polynomial. Here P is the mathematical union of all the vector spaces P_n. Two polynomials $p(t)$ of degree n and $q(t)$ of degree m are added in P in the same way as they would be added in P_r, where r is the maximum of the two numbers m and n. Then P is a vector space (Exercise 6).

As in the case of ordinary real-number arithmetic, in an expression containing both $\odot$ and $\oplus$, the $\odot$ operation is performed first. Moreover, the familiar arithmetic rules, when parentheses are encountered, apply in this case also.

EXAMPLE 7

Let V be the set of all real-valued continuous functions defined on R^1. If f and g are in V, we define $f \oplus g$ by $(f \oplus g)(t) = f(t) + g(t)$. If f is in V and c is a scalar, we define $c \odot f$ by $(c \odot f)(t) = cf(t)$. Then V is a vector space, which is denoted by $C(-\infty, \infty)$. (See Exercise 13.) ■

EXAMPLE 8

Let V be the set of all real multiples of exponential functions of the form e^{kx}, where k is any real number. Define vector addition $\oplus$ as

$$c_1 e^{kx} \oplus c_2 e^{mx} = c_1 c_2 e^{(k+m)x}$$

and scalar multiplication $\odot$ as

$$r \odot c_1 e^{kx} = r c_1 e^{kx}.$$

From the definitions of $\oplus$ and $\odot$ we see that V is closed under both operations. It can be shown that properties (1) and (2) hold. As for property (3), we have $e^{0x} = 1$, so for any vector c_1e^{kx} in V, we have $c_1e^{kx} \oplus 1 = 1 \oplus c_1e^{kx} = c_1e^{kx}$. Hence the zero vector in this case is the number 1. Next we consider property (4). For any vector c_1e^{kx} in V, we need to determine another vector c_2e^{mx} in V so that

$$c_1e^{kx} \oplus c_2e^{mx} = c_1c_2e^{(k+m)x} = 1.$$

We have $0e^{kx} = 0$ is in V; however, there is no vector in V that we can add to 0 (using the definition of $\oplus$) to get 1; thus V with the given operations $\oplus$ and $\odot$ is not a vector space. ■

EXAMPLE 9

Let V be the set of all real numbers with the operations $\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}$ ($\oplus$ is ordinary subtraction) and $c \odot \mathbf{u} = c\mathbf{u}$ ($\odot$ is ordinary multiplication). Is V a vector space? If it is not, which properties in Definition 4.4 fail to hold?

Solution

If $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are in V, and c is a scalar, then $\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v}$ and $c \odot \mathbf{u}$ are in V, so that (a) and (b) in Definition 4.4 hold. However, property (1) fails to hold, since

$$\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v} \oplus \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{v} - \mathbf{u},$$

and these are not the same, in general. (Find $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ such that $\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v} \neq \mathbf{v} - \mathbf{u}$.) Also, we shall let the reader verify that properties (2), (3), and (4) fail to hold. Properties (5), (7), and (8) hold, but property (6) does not hold, because

$$(c + d) \odot \mathbf{u} = (c + d)\mathbf{u} = c\mathbf{u} + d\mathbf{u},$$

whereas

$$c \odot \mathbf{u} \oplus d \odot \mathbf{u} = c\mathbf{u} \oplus d\mathbf{u} = c\mathbf{u} - d\mathbf{u},$$

and these are not equal, in general. Thus V is not a vector space. ■

EXAMPLE 10

Let V be the set of all ordered triples of real numbers (x, y, z) with the operations $(x, y, z) \oplus (x', y', z') = (x', y + y', z + z')$; $c \odot (x, y, z) = (cx, cy, cz)$. We can readily verify that properties (1), (3), (4), and (6) of Definition 4.4 fail to hold. For example, if $\mathbf{u} = (x, y, z)$ and $\mathbf{v} = (x', y', z')$, then

$$\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v} = (x, y, z) \oplus (x', y', z') = (x', y + y', z + z'),$$

whereas

$$\mathbf{v} \oplus \mathbf{u} = (x', y', z') \oplus (x, y, z) = (x, y' + y, z' + z),$$

so property (1) fails to hold when $x \neq x'$. Also,

$$\begin{aligned}(c + d) \odot \mathbf{u} &= (c + d) \odot (x, y, z) \\ &= ((c + d)x, (c + d)y, (c + d)z) \\ &= (cx + dx, cy + dy, cz + dz),\end{aligned}$$

whereas

$$\begin{aligned} c \odot \mathbf{u} \oplus d \odot \mathbf{u} &= c \odot (x, y, z) \oplus d \odot (x, y, z) \\ &= (cx, cy, cz) \oplus (dx, dy, dz) \\ &= (dx, cy + dy, cz + dz), \end{aligned}$$

so property (6) fails to hold when $cx \neq 0$. Thus V is not a vector space. ■

EXAMPLE 11 Let V be the set of all integers; define $\oplus$ as ordinary addition and $\odot$ as ordinary multiplication. Here V is not a vector, because if $\mathbf{u}$ is any nonzero vector in V and $c = \sqrt{3}$, then $c \odot \mathbf{u}$ is not in V. Thus (b) fails to hold. ■

To verify that a given set V with two operations $\oplus$ and $\odot$ is a real vector space, we must show that it satisfies all the properties of Definition 4.4. The first thing to check is whether (a) and (b) hold, for if either of these fails, we do not have a vector space. If both (a) and (b) hold, it is recommended that (3), the existence of a zero element, be verified next. Naturally, if (3) fails to hold, we do not have a vector space and do not have to check the remaining properties.

The following theorem presents some useful properties common to all vector spaces:

Theorem 4.2 If V is a vector space, then

(a) $0 \odot \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{0}$ for any vector $\mathbf{u}$ in V.

(b) $c \odot \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{0}$ for any scalar c.

(c) If $c \odot \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{0}$, then either $c = 0$ or $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{0}$.

(d) $(-1) \odot \mathbf{u} = -\mathbf{u}$ for any vector $\mathbf{u}$ in V.

Proof

(a) We have

$$0 \odot \mathbf{u} = (0 + 0) \odot \mathbf{u} = 0 \odot \mathbf{u} + 0 \odot \mathbf{u} \tag{1}$$

by (6) of Definition 4.4. Adding $-0 \odot \mathbf{u}$ to both sides of Equation (1), we obtain by (2), (3), and (4) of Definition 4.4,

$$0 \odot \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{0}.$$

Parts (b) and (c) are left as Exercise 21.

(d) $(-1) \odot \mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{u} = (-1) \odot \mathbf{u} \oplus 1 \odot \mathbf{u} = (-1 + 1) \odot \mathbf{u} = 0 \odot \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{0}$. Since $-\mathbf{u}$ is unique, we conclude that

$$(-1) \odot \mathbf{u} = -\mathbf{u}.$$ ■

In the examples in this section we have introduced notation for a number of sets that will be used in the exercises and examples throughout the rest of this book. The following table summarizes the notation and the descriptions of the set:

R^n	the set of $n \times 1$ matrices
R_n	the set of $1 \times n$ matrices
M_{mn}	the set of $m \times n$ matrices
P_n	the set of all polynomials of degree n or less together with the zero polynomial
P	the set of all polynomials
$C(-\infty, \infty)$	the set of all real-valued continuous functions with domain all real numbers

We also want to emphasize that if V is a vector space, its elements are called vectors regardless of the form of the elements of V.

Key Terms

Real vector space	Closed	Polynomial	M_{mn}
Vectors	Zero vector	Degree of a polynomial	P_n
Scalars	Negative of a vector	Zero polynomial	P
Vector addition	Complex vector space	R^n	$C(-\infty, \infty)$
Scalar multiplication	Field	R_n	

4.2 Exercises

1. Let V be the set of all polynomials of (exactly) degree 2 with the definitions of addition and scalar multiplication as in Example 6.
   (a) Show that V is not closed under addition.
   (b) Is V closed under scalar multiplication? Explain.

2. Let V be the set of all 2×2 matrices $A = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix}$ such that the product $abcd = 0$. Let the operation $\oplus$ be standard addition of matrices and the operation $\odot$ be standard scalar multiplication of matrices.
   (a) Is V closed under addition?
   (b) Is V closed under scalar multiplication?
   (c) What is the zero vector in the set V?
   (d) Does every matrix A in V have a negative that is in V? Explain.
   (e) Is V a vector space? Explain.

3. Let V be the set of all 2×2 matrices $A = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ 2b & a \end{bmatrix}$. Let the operation $\oplus$ be standard addition of matrices and the operation $\odot$ be standard scalar multiplication of matrices.
   (a) Is V closed under addition?
   (b) Is V closed under scalar multiplication?
   (c) What is the zero vector in the set V?
   (d) Does every matrix A in V have a negative that is in V? Explain.
   (e) Is V a vector space? Explain.

4. Let V be the set of all 2×1 matrices $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \end{bmatrix}$ with integer entries such that $[v_1 + v_2]$ is even. For example,
$$\begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ -8 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$$
all belong to V. Let the operation $\oplus$ be standard addition of matrices and the operation $\odot$ be standard scalar multiplication of matrices. Is V a vector space? Explain.

5. Prove in detail that R^n is a vector space.

6. Show that P, the set of all polynomials, is a vector space.

In Exercises 7 through 11, the given set together with the given operations is not a vector space. List the properties of Definition 4.4 that fail to hold.

7. The set of all positive real numbers with the operations of $\oplus$ as ordinary addition and $\odot$ as ordinary multiplication.

8. The set of all ordered pairs of real numbers with the operations
$$(x, y) \oplus (x', y') = (x + x', y + y')$$
and
$$r \odot (x, y) = (rx, ry).$$

9. The set of all ordered triples of real numbers with the operations

$$(x, y, z) \oplus (x', y', z') = (x + x', y + y', z + z')$$

and

$$r \odot (x, y, z) = (x, 1, z).$$

10. The set of all 2×1 matrices $\begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix}$, where $x \leq 0$, with the usual operations in R^2.

11. The set of all ordered pairs of real numbers with the operations $(x, y) \oplus (x', y') = (x + x', y + y')$ and $r \odot (x, y) = (0, 0)$.

12. Let V be the set of all positive real numbers; define $\oplus$ by $\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{uv}$ ($\oplus$ is ordinary multiplication) and define $\odot$ by $c \odot \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v}^c$. Prove that V is a vector space.

13. Let V be the set of all real-valued continuous functions. If f and g are in V, define $f \oplus g$ by

$$(f \oplus g)(t) = f(t) + g(t).$$

If f is in V, define $c \odot f$ by $(c \odot f)(t) = cf(t)$. Prove that V is a vector space. (This is the vector space defined in Example 7.)

14. Let V be the set consisting of a single element $\mathbf{0}$. Let $\mathbf{0} \oplus \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{0}$ and $c \odot \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{0}$. Prove that V is a vector space.

15. (***Calculus Required***) Consider the differential equation $y'' - y' + 2y = 0$. A solution is a real-valued function f satisfying the equation. Let V be the set of all solutions to the given differential equation; define $\oplus$ and $\odot$ as in Exercise 13. Prove that V is a vector space. (See also Section 8.5.)

16. Let V be the set of all positive real numbers; define $\oplus$ by $\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{uv} - 1$ and $\odot$ by $c \odot \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v}$. Is V a vector space?

17. Let V be the set of all real numbers; define $\oplus$ by $\mathbf{u} \ominus \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{uv}$ and $\odot$ by $c \odot \mathbf{u} = c + \mathbf{u}$. Is V a vector space?

18. Let V be the set of all real numbers; define $\oplus$ by $\mathbf{u} \ominus \mathbf{v} = 2\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}$ and $\odot$ by $c \odot \mathbf{u} = c\mathbf{u}$. Is V a vector space?

19. Prove that a vector space has only one zero vector.

20. Prove that a vector $\mathbf{u}$ in a vector space has only one negative, $-\mathbf{u}$.

21. Prove parts (b) and (c) of Theorem 4.2.

22. Prove that the set V of all real-valued functions is a vector space under the operations defined in Exercise 13.

23. Prove that $-(-\mathbf{v}) = \mathbf{v}$.

24. Prove that if $\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{w}$, then $\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{w}$.

25. Prove that if $\mathbf{u} \neq \mathbf{0}$ and $a \odot \mathbf{u} = b \odot \mathbf{u}$, then $a = b$.

26. Example 6 discusses the vector space P_n of polynomials of degree n or less. Operations on polynomials can be performed in linear algebra software by associating a row matrix of size $n+1$ with polynomial $p(t)$ of P_n. The row matrix consists of the coefficients of $p(t)$, using the association

$$p(t) = a_n t^n + a_{n-1} t^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 t + a_0 \rightarrow \begin{bmatrix} a_n & a_{n-1} & \cdots & a_1 & a_0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

If any term of $p(t)$ is explicitly missing, a zero is used for its coefficient. Then the addition of polynomials corresponds to matrix addition, and multiplication of a polynomial by a scalar corresponds to scalar multiplication of matrices. With your software, perform each given operation on polynomials, using the matrix association as just described. Let $n = 3$ and

$$p(t) = 2t^3 + 5t^2 + t - 2, \quad q(t) = t^3 + 3t + 5.$$

(a) $p(t) + q(t)$ **(b)** $5p(t)$ **(c)** $3p(t) - 4q(t)$

4.3 Subspaces

In this section we begin to analyze the structure of a vector space. First, it is convenient to have a name for a subset of a given vector space that is itself a vector space with respect to the same operations as those in V. Thus we have a definition.

DEFINITION 4.5 Let V be a vector space and W a nonempty subset of V. If W is a vector space with respect to the operations in V, then W is called a **subspace** of V.

It follows from Definition 4.5 that to verify that a subset W of a vector space V is a subspace, one must check that (a), (b), and (1) through (8) of Definition 4.4 hold. However, the next theorem says that it is enough to merely check that (a) and (b) hold to verify that a subset W of a vector space V is a subspace. Property (a) is

called the **closure** property for $\oplus$, and property (b) is called the **closure** property for $\odot$.

Theorem 4.3 Let V be a vector space with operations $\oplus$ and $\odot$ and let W be a nonempty subset of V. Then W is a subspace of V if and only if the following conditions hold:

(a) If $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are any vectors in W, then $\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v}$ is in W.

(b) If c is any real number and $\mathbf{u}$ is any vector in W, then $c \odot \mathbf{u}$ is in W.

Proof

If W is a subspace of V, then it is a vector space and (a) and (b) of Definition 4.4 hold; these are precisely (a) and (b) of the theorem.

Conversely, suppose that (a) and (b) hold. We wish to show that W is a subspace of V. First, from (b) we have that $(-1) \odot \mathbf{u}$ is in W for any $\mathbf{u}$ in W. From (a) we have that $\mathbf{u} \oplus (-1) \odot \mathbf{u}$ is in W. But $\mathbf{u} \oplus (-1) \odot \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{0}$, so $\mathbf{0}$ is in W. Then $\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{u}$ for any $\mathbf{u}$ in W. Finally, properties (1), (2), (5), (6), (7), and (8) hold in W because they hold in V. Hence W is a subspace of V. ■

Examples of subspaces of a given vector space occur frequently. We investigate several of these. More examples will be found in the exercises.

EXAMPLE 1 Every vector space has at least two subspaces, itself and the subspace $\{\mathbf{0}\}$ consisting only of the zero vector. (Recall that $\mathbf{0} \oplus \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{0}$ and $c \odot \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{0}$ in any vector space.) Thus $\{\mathbf{0}\}$ is closed for both operations and hence is a subspace of V. The subspace $\{\mathbf{0}\}$ is called the **zero subspace** of V. ■

EXAMPLE 2 Let P_2 be the set consisting of all polynomials of degree ≤ 2 and the zero polynomial; P_2 is a subset of P, the vector space of all polynomials. To verify that P_2 is a *subspace* of P, show it is closed for $\oplus$ and $\odot$. In general, the set P_n consisting of all polynomials of degree $\leq n$ and the zero polynomial is a subspace of P. Also, P_n is a subspace of P_{n+1}. ■

EXAMPLE 3 Let V be the set of all polynomials of degree exactly $= 2$; V is a *subset* of P, the vector space of all polynomials; but V is not a *subspace* of P, because the sum of the polynomials $2t^2 + 3t + 1$ and $-2t^2 + t + 2$ is not in V, since it is a polynomial of degree 1. (See also Exercise 1 in Section 4.2.) ■

EXAMPLE 4 Which of the following subsets of R^2 with the usual operations of vector addition and scalar multiplication are subspaces?

(a) W_1 is the set of all vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix}$, where $x \geq 0$.

(b) W_2 is the set of all vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix}$, where $x \geq 0$, $y \geq 0$.

(c) W_3 is the set of all vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix}$, where $x = 0$.

Solution

(a) W_1 is the right half of the xy-plane (see Figure 4.17). It is not a subspace of

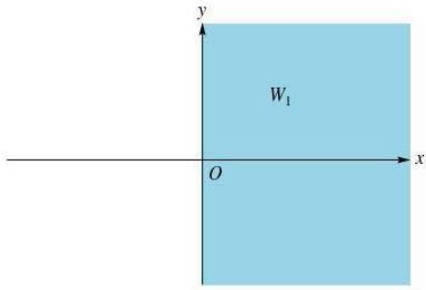


FIGURE 4.17

R^2, because if we take the vector $\begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$ in W_1, then the scalar multiple

$$-3 \odot \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -6 \\ -9 \end{bmatrix}$$

is not in W_1, so property (b) in Theorem 4.3 does not hold.

(b) W_2 is the first quadrant of the xy-plane. (See Figure 4.18.) The same vector and scalar multiple as in part (a) shows that W_2 is not a subspace.

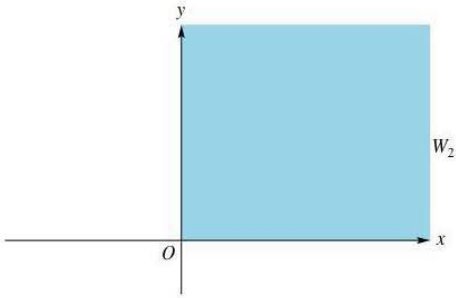


FIGURE 4.18

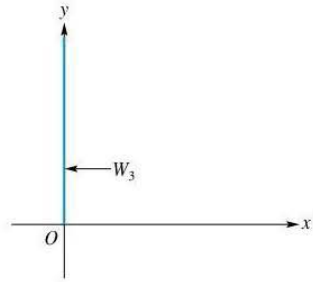


FIGURE 4.19

(c) W_3 is the y-axis in the xy-plane (see Figure 4.19). To see whether W_3 is a subspace, let

$$\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ b_1 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ b_2 \end{bmatrix}$$

be vectors in W_3. Then

$$\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ b_1 \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ b_2 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ b_1 + b_2 \end{bmatrix},$$

which is in W_3, so property (a) in Theorem 4.3 holds. Moreover, if c is a scalar, then

$$c \odot \mathbf{u} = c \odot \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ b_1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ cb_1 \end{bmatrix},$$

which is in W_3 so property (b) in Theorem 4.3 holds. Hence W_3 is a subspace of R^2. ■

EXAMPLE 5

Let W be the set of all vectors in R^3 of the form $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ a+b \end{bmatrix}$, where a and b are any real numbers. To verify Theorem 4.3(a) and (b), we let

$$\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ b_1 \\ a_1 + b_1 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a_2 \\ b_2 \\ a_2 + b_2 \end{bmatrix}$$

be two vectors in W. Then

$$\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 + a_2 \\ b_1 + b_2 \\ (a_1 + b_1) + (a_2 + b_2) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 + a_2 \\ b_1 + b_2 \\ (a_1 + a_2) + (b_1 + b_2) \end{bmatrix}$$

is in W, for W consists of all those vectors whose third entry is the sum of the first two entries. Similarly,

$$c \odot \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ b_1 \\ a_1 + b_1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} ca_1 \\ cb_1 \\ c(a_1 + b_1) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} ca_1 \\ cb_1 \\ ca_1 + cb_1 \end{bmatrix}$$

is in W. Hence W is a subspace of R^3. ■

Henceforth, we shall usually denote $\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v}$ and $c \odot \mathbf{u}$ in a vector space V as $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}$ and $c\mathbf{u}$, respectively.

We can also show that a nonempty subset W of a vector space V is a subspace of V if and only if $c\mathbf{u} + d\mathbf{v}$ is in W for any vectors $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ in W and any scalars c and d.

EXAMPLE 6

A simple way of constructing subspaces in a vector space is as follows. Let $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$ be fixed vectors in a vector space V and let W be the set of all vectors in V of the form

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2,$$

where a_1 and a_2 are any real numbers. To show that W is a subspace of V, we verify properties (a) and (b) of Theorem 4.3. Thus let

$$\mathbf{w}_1 = a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{w}_2 = b_1\mathbf{v}_1 + b_2\mathbf{v}_2$$

be vectors in W. Then

$$\mathbf{w}_1 + \mathbf{w}_2 = (a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2) + (b_1\mathbf{v}_1 + b_2\mathbf{v}_2) = (a_1 + b_1)\mathbf{v}_1 + (a_2 + b_2)\mathbf{v}_2,$$

which is in W. Also, if c is a scalar, then

$$c\mathbf{w}_1 = c(a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2) = (ca_1)\mathbf{v}_1 + (ca_2)\mathbf{v}_2$$

is in W. Hence W is a subspace of V. ■

The construction carried out in Example 6 for two vectors can be performed for more than two vectors. We now consider the following definition:

DEFINITION 4.6

Let $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ be vectors in a vector space V. A vector $\mathbf{v}$ in V is called a **linear combination** of $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ if

$$\mathbf{v} = a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_k\mathbf{v}_k = \sum_{j=1}^{k} a_j\mathbf{v}_j$$

for some real numbers $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_k$.

Remark Summation notation was introduced in Section 1.2 for linear combinations of matrices, and properties of summation appeared in the Exercises for Section 1.2.

Remark Definition 4.6 was stated for a finite set of vectors, but it also applies to an infinite set S of vectors in a vector space using corresponding notation for infinite sums.

EXAMPLE 7

In Example 5 we showed that W, the set of all vectors in R^3 of the form $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ a+b \end{bmatrix}$, where a and b are any real numbers, is a subspace of R^3. Let

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Then every vector in W is a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$, since

$$a\mathbf{v}_1 + b\mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ a+b \end{bmatrix}.$$

■

EXAMPLE 8

In Example 2, P_2 was the vector space of all polynomials of degree 2 or less and the zero polynomial. Every vector in P_2 has the form $at^2 + bt + c$, so each vector in P_2 is a linear combination of t^2, t, and 1. ■

In Figure 4.20 we show the vector $\mathbf{v}$ as a linear combination of the vectors $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$.

EXAMPLE 9

In R^3 let

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

The vector

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix}$$

is a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{v}_3$ if we can find real numbers a_1, a_2, and a_3 so that

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{v}.$$

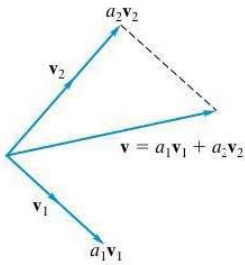


FIGURE 4.20 Linear combination of two vectors.

Substituting for $\mathbf{v}$, $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{v}_3$, we have

$$a_1\begin{bmatrix}1\\2\\1\end{bmatrix} + a_2\begin{bmatrix}1\\0\\2\end{bmatrix} + a_3\begin{bmatrix}1\\1\\0\end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix}2\\1\\5\end{bmatrix}.$$

Equating corresponding entries leads to the linear system (verify)

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 + \ a_2 + a_3 &= 2 \\ 2a_1 \qquad + a_3 &= 1 \\ a_1 + 2a_2 \qquad &= 5. \end{aligned}$$

Solving this linear system by the methods of Chapter 2 gives (verify) $a_1 = 1$, $a_2 = 2$, and $a_3 = -1$, which means that $\mathbf{v}$ is a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{v}_3$. Thus

$$\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v}_1 + 2\mathbf{v}_2 - \mathbf{v}_3.$$

Figure 4.21 shows $\mathbf{v}$ as a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{v}_3$. ■

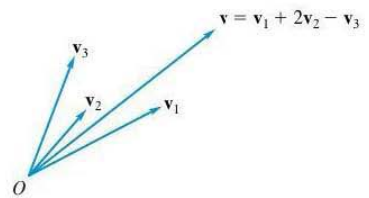


FIGURE 4.21

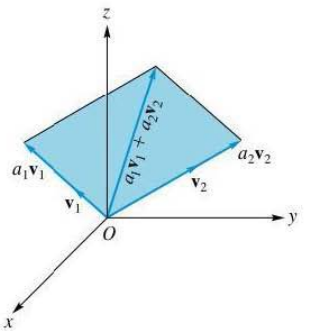


FIGURE 4.22

In Figure 4.22 we represent a portion of the set of all linear combinations of the noncollinear vectors $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$ in R^2. The entire set of all linear combinations of the vectors $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$ is a plane that passes through the origin and contains the vectors $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$.

EXAMPLE 10

In Section 2.2 we observed that if A is an $m \times n$ matrix, then the homogeneous system of m equations in n unknowns with coefficient matrix A can be written as

$$A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0},$$

where $\mathbf{x}$ is a vector in R^n and $\mathbf{0}$ is the zero vector. Thus the set W of all solutions is a subset of R^n. We now show that W is a subspace of R^n (called the **solution space** of the homogeneous system, or the **null space** of the matrix A) by verifying (a) and (b) of Theorem 4.3. Let $\mathbf{x}$ and $\mathbf{y}$ be solutions. Then

$$A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0} \quad \text{and} \quad A\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{0}.$$

Now

$$A(\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{y}) = A\mathbf{x} + A\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{0} + \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{0},$$

so $\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{y}$ is a solution. Also, if c is a scalar, then

$$A(c\mathbf{x}) = c(A\mathbf{x}) = c\mathbf{0} = \mathbf{0},$$

so $c\mathbf{x}$ is a solution. Thus W is closed under addition and scalar multiplication of vectors and is therefore a subspace of R^n. ■

It should be noted that the set of all solutions to the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$, $\mathbf{b} \neq \mathbf{0}$, is not a subspace of R^n (see Exercise 23).

We leave it as an exercise to show that the subspaces of R^1 are $\{\mathbf{0}\}$ and R^1 itself (see Exercise 28). As for R^2, its subspaces are $\{\mathbf{0}\}$, R^2, and any set consisting of all scalar multiples of a nonzero vector (Exercise 29), that is, any line passing through the origin. Exercise 43 in Section 4.6 asks you to show that all the subspaces of R^3 are $\{\mathbf{0}\}$, R^3 itself, and any line or plane passing through the origin.

■ Lines in R^3

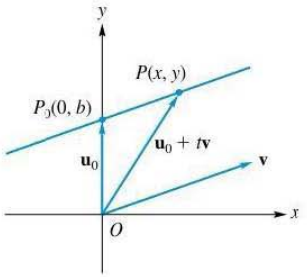


FIGURE 4.23

As you will recall, a line in the xy-plane, R^2, is often described by the equation $y = mx + b$, where m is the slope of the line and b is the y-intercept [i.e., the line intersects the y-axis at the point $P_0(0, b)$]. We may describe a line in R^2 in terms of vectors by specifying its direction and a point on the line. Thus, let $\mathbf{v}$ be the vector giving the direction of the line, and let $\mathbf{u}_0 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ b \end{bmatrix}$ be the position vector of the point $P_0(0, b)$ at which the line intersects the y-axis. Then the line through P_0 and parallel to $\mathbf{v}$ consists of the points $P(x, y)$ whose position vector $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix}$ satisfies (see Figure 4.23)

$$\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{u}_0 + t\mathbf{v}, \qquad -\infty < t < +\infty.$$

We now turn to lines in R^3. In R^3 we determine a line by specifying its direction and one of its points. Let

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{bmatrix}$$

be a nonzero vector in R^3. Then the line ℓ_0 through the origin and parallel to $\mathbf{v}$ consists of all the points $P(x, y, z)$ whose position vector $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \\ z \end{bmatrix}$ is of the form $\mathbf{u} = t\mathbf{v}$, $-\infty < t < \infty$ [see Figure 4.24(a)]. It is easy to verify that the line ℓ_0 is a subspace of R^3. Now let $P_0(x_0, y_0, z_0)$ be a point in R^3, and let $\mathbf{u}_0 = \begin{bmatrix} x_0 \\ y_0 \\ z_0 \end{bmatrix}$ be the position vector of P_0. Then the line ℓ through P_0 and parallel to $\mathbf{v}$ consists of the points $P(x, y, z)$ whose position vector, $\mathbf{u} = \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \\ z \end{bmatrix}$ satisfies [see Figure 4.24(b)]

$$\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{u}_0 + t\mathbf{v}, \qquad -\infty < t < \infty. \tag{1}$$

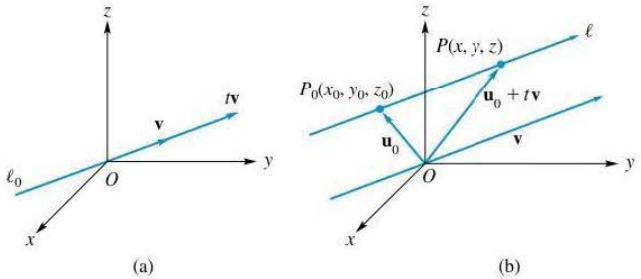


FIGURE 4.24 Line in R^3.

Equation (1) is called a **parametric equation** of ℓ, since it contains the parameter t, which can be assigned any real number. Equation (1) can also be written in terms of the components as

$$\begin{aligned} x &= x_0 + ta \\ y &= y_0 + tb \qquad -\infty < t < \infty, \\ z &= z_0 + tc, \end{aligned}$$

which are called **parametric equations** of ℓ.

EXAMPLE 11 Parametric equations of the line passing through the point $P_0(-3, 2, 1)$ and parallel to the vector $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -3 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}$ are

$$\begin{aligned} x &= -3 + 2t \\ y &= 2 - 3t \qquad -\infty < t < \infty. \\ z &= 1 + 4t \end{aligned}$$

■

EXAMPLE 12 Find parametric equations of the line ℓ through the points $P_0(2, 3, -4)$ and $P_1(3, -2, 5)$.

Solution

The desired line is parallel to the vector $\mathbf{v} = \overrightarrow{P_0P_1}$. Now

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 - 2 \\ -2 - 3 \\ 5 - (-4) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ -5 \\ 9 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Since P_0 is on the line, we can write the following parametric equations of ℓ:

$$\begin{aligned} x &= 2 + t \\ y &= 3 - 5t \qquad -\infty < t < \infty. \\ z &= -4 + 9t \end{aligned}$$

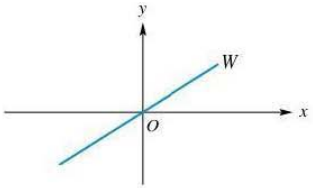
Of course, we could have used the point P_1 instead of P_0. In fact, we could use any point on the line in a parametric equation for ℓ. Thus a line can be represented in infinitely many ways in parametric form. ■

Key Terms

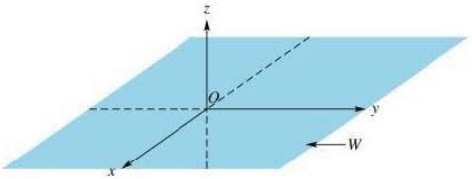
Subspace
Zero subspace
Subset
Closure property
Linear combination
Null (solution) space
Parametric equation

4.3 Exercises

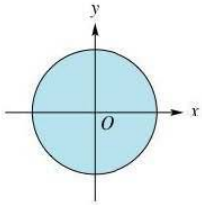
1. The set W consisting of all the points in R^2 of the form (x, x) is a straight line. Is W a subspace of R^2? Explain.



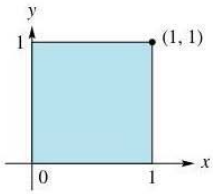
2. Let W be the set of all points in R^3 that lie in the xy-plane. Is W a subspace of R^3? Explain.



3. Consider the circle in the xy-plane centered at the origin whose equation is $x^2 + y^2 = 1$. Let W be the set of all vectors whose tail is at the origin and whose head is a point inside or on the circle. Is W a subspace of R^2? Explain.



4. Consider the unit square shown in the accompanying figure. Let W be the set of all vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix}$, where $0 \leq x \leq 1$, $0 \leq y \leq 1$. That is, W is the set of all vectors whose tail is at the origin and whose head is a point inside or on the square. Is W a subspace of R^2? Explain.



In Exercises 5 and 6, which of the given subsets of R^3 are subspaces?

5. The set of all vectors of the form

(a) $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$ **(b)** $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ a+2b \end{bmatrix}$ **(c)** $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$

(d) $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{bmatrix}$, where $a + 2b - c = 0$

6. The set of all vectors of the form

(a) $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$ **(b)** $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{bmatrix}$, where $a > 0$

(c) $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ a \\ c \end{bmatrix}$ **(d)** $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{bmatrix}$, where $2a - b + c = 1$

In Exercises 7 and 8, which of the given subsets of R_4 are subspaces?

7. **(a)** $\begin{bmatrix} a & b & c & d \end{bmatrix}$, where $a - b = 2$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} a & b & c & d \end{bmatrix}$, where $c = a + 2b$ and $d = a - 3b$

(c) $\begin{bmatrix} a & b & c & d \end{bmatrix}$, where $a = 0$ and $b = -d$

8. **(a)** $\begin{bmatrix} a & b & c & d \end{bmatrix}$, where $a = b = 0$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} a & b & c & d \end{bmatrix}$, where $a = 1$, $b = 0$, and $a + d = 1$

(c) $\begin{bmatrix} a & b & c & d \end{bmatrix}$, where $a > 0$ and $b < 0$

In Exercises 9 and 10, which of the given subsets of the vector space, M_{23}, of all 2×3 matrices are subspaces?

9. The set of all matrices of the form

(a) $\begin{bmatrix} a & b & c \\ d & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$, where $b = a + c$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} a & b & c \\ d & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$, where $c > 0$

(c) $\begin{bmatrix} a & b & c \\ d & e & f \end{bmatrix}$, where $a = -2c$ and $f = 2e + d$

10. **(a)** $\begin{bmatrix} a & b & c \\ d & e & f \end{bmatrix}$, where $a = 2c + 1$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & a \\ b & c & 0 \end{bmatrix}$

(c) $\begin{bmatrix} a & b & c \\ d & e & f \end{bmatrix}$, where $a + c = 0$ and $b + d + f = 0$

11. Let W be the set of all 3×3 matrices whose trace is zero. Show that S is a subspace of M_{33}.

12. Let W be the set of all 3×3 matrices of the form

$$\begin{bmatrix} a & 0 & b \\ 0 & c & 0 \\ d & 0 & e \end{bmatrix}.$$

Show that W is a subspace of M_{33}.

13. Let W be the set of all 2×2 matrices

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix}$$

such that $a + b + c + d = 0$. Is W a subspace of M_{22}? Explain.

14. Let W be the set of all 2×2 matrices

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix}$$

such that $A\mathbf{z} = \mathbf{0}$, where $\mathbf{z} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$. Is W a subspace of M_{22}? Explain.

In Exercises 15 and 16, which of the given subsets of the vector space P_2 are subspaces?

15. The set of all polynomials of the form

(a) $a_2t^2 + a_1t + a_0$, where $a_0 = 0$

(b) $a_2t^2 + a_1t + a_0$, where $a_0 = 2$

(c) $a_2t^2 + a_1t + a_0$, where $a_2 + a_1 = a_0$

16. **(a)** $a_2t^2 + a_1t + a_0$, where $a_1 = 0$ and $a_0 = 0$

(b) $a_2t^2 + a_1t + a_0$, where $a_1 = 2a_0$

(c) $a_2t^2 + a_1t + a_0$, where $a_2 + a_1 + a_0 = 2$

17. Which of the following subsets of the vector space M_{nn} are subspaces?

(a) The set of all $n \times n$ symmetric matrices

(b) The set of all $n \times n$ diagonal matrices

(c) The set of all $n \times n$ nonsingular matrices

18. Which of the following subsets of the vector space M_{nn} are subspaces?

(a) The set of all $n \times n$ singular matrices

(b) The set of all $n \times n$ upper triangular matrices

(c) The set of all $n \times n$ skew symmetric matrices

19. (***Calculus Required***) Which of the following subsets are subspaces of the vector space $C(-\infty, \infty)$ defined in Example 7 of Section 4.2?

(a) All nonnegative functions

(b) All constant functions

(c) All functions f such that $f(0) = 0$

(d) All functions f such that $f(0) = 5$

(e) All differentiable functions

20. (***Calculus Required***) Which of the following subsets are subspaces of the vector space $C(-\infty, \infty)$ defined in Example 7 of Section 4.2?

(a) All integrable functions

(b) All bounded functions

(c) All functions that are integrable on $[a, b]$

(d) All functions that are bounded on $[a, b]$

21. Show that P is a subspace of the vector space $C(-\infty, \infty)$ defined in Example 7 of Section 4.2.

22. Prove that P_2 is a subspace of P_3.

23. Show that the set of all solutions to the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$, $\mathbf{b} \neq \mathbf{0}$, is not a subspace of R^n.

24. If A is a nonsingular matrix, what is the null space of A?

25. Show that every vector in R^3 of the form

$$\begin{bmatrix} t \\ -t \\ t \end{bmatrix},$$

for t any real number, is in the null space of the matrix

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 2 & 6 & 4 \end{bmatrix}.$$

26. Let $\mathbf{x}_0$ be a fixed vector in a vector space V. Show that the set W consisting of all scalar multiples $c\mathbf{x}_0$ of $\mathbf{x}_0$ is a subspace of V.

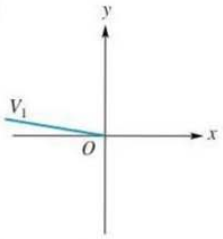
27. Let A be an $m \times n$ matrix. Is the set W of all vectors $\mathbf{x}$ in R^n such that $A\mathbf{x} \neq \mathbf{0}$ a subspace of R^n? Justify your answer.

28. Show that the only subspaces of R^1 are $\{\mathbf{0}\}$ and R^1 itself.

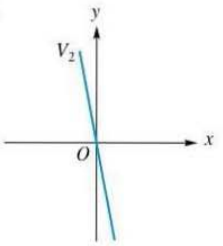
29. Show that the only subspaces of R^2 are $\{\mathbf{0}\}$, R^2, and any set consisting of all scalar multiples of a nonzero vector.

30. Determine which of the following subsets of R^2 are subspaces:

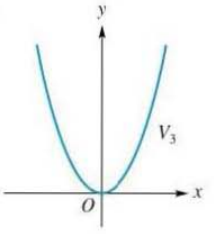
(a) V_1



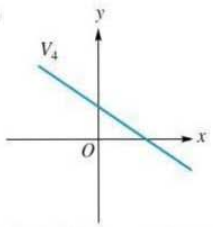
(b) V_2



(c) V_3



(d) V_4



31. The set W of all 2×3 matrices of the form

$$\begin{bmatrix} a & b & c \\ a & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix},$$

where $c = a + b$, is a subspace of M_{23}. Show that every vector in W is a linear combination of

$$\mathbf{w}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{w}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

32. The set W of all 2×2 symmetric matrices is a subspace of M_{22}. Find three 2×2 matrices $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{v}_3$ so that every vector in W can be expressed as a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{v}_3$.

33. Which of the following vectors in R^3 are linear combinations of

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ 2 \\ -3 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ -2 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ -1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}?$$

(a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$ (b) $\begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ 2 \\ -6 \end{bmatrix}$ (c) $\begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ -1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$ (d) $\begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$

34. Which of the following vectors in R_4 are linear combinations of

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = [1 \quad 2 \quad 1 \quad 0], \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = [4 \quad 1 \quad -2 \quad 3],$$
$$\mathbf{v}_3 = [1 \quad 2 \quad 6 \quad -5], \quad \mathbf{v}_4 = [-2 \quad 3 \quad -1 \quad 2]?$$

(a) $[3 \quad 6 \quad 3 \quad 0]$ (b) $[1 \quad 0 \quad 0 \quad 0]$

(c) $[3 \quad 6 \quad -2 \quad 5]$ (d) $[0 \quad 0 \quad 0 \quad 1]$

35. (a) Show that a line ℓ_0 through the origin of R^3 is a subspace of R^3.

(b) Show that a line ℓ in R^3 not passing through the origin is not a subspace of R^3.

36. State which of the following points are on the line

$$\begin{aligned} x &= 3 + 2t \\ y &= -2 + 3t \qquad -\infty < t < \infty \\ z &= 4 + 3t \end{aligned}$$

(a) $(1, 1, 1)$ (b) $(1, -1, 0)$

(c) $(1, 0, -2)$ (d) $(4, -\frac{1}{2}, \frac{5}{2})$

37. State which of the following points are on the line

$$\begin{aligned} x &= 4 - 2t \\ y &= -3 + 2t \qquad -\infty < t < \infty \\ z &= 4 - 5t \end{aligned}$$

(a) $(0, 1, -6)$ (b) $(1, 2, 3)$

(c) $(4, -3, 4)$ (d) $(0, 1, -1)$

38. Find parametric equations of the line through $P_0(x_0, y_0, z_0)$ parallel to $\mathbf{v}$.

(a) $P_0(3, 4, -2)$, $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ -5 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $P_0(3, 2, 4)$, $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 5 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$

39. Find parametric equations of the line through the given points.

(a) $(2, -3, 1)$, $(4, 2, 5)$

(b) $(-3, -2, -2)$, $(5, 5, 4)$

40. Numerical experiments in software *cannot* be used to verify that a set V with two operations $\oplus$ and $\odot$ is a vector space or a subspace. Such a verification must be done "abstractly" to take into account all possibilities for elements of V. However, numerical experiments can yield counterexamples which show that V is not a vector space or not a subspace. Use your software to verify that each of the following is *not* a subspace of M_{22}, with the usual operations of addition of matrices and scalar multiplication:

(a) The set of symmetric matrices with the $(1, 1)$ entry equal to 3

(b) The set of matrices whose first column is $[0 \quad 1]^T$

(c) The set of matrices $\begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix}$ such that $ad - bc \neq 0$

41. A linear combination of vectors $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ in R^n with coefficients $a_1, \ldots, a_k$ is given algebraically, as in Definition 4.6, by

$$\mathbf{v} = a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_k\mathbf{v}_k.$$

In software we can compute such a linear combination of

columns by a matrix multiplication $\mathbf{v} = A\mathbf{c}$, where

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} \mathbf{v}_1 & \mathbf{v}_2 & \cdots & \mathbf{v}_k \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{c} = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ \vdots \\ a_k \end{bmatrix}.$$

That is, matrix A has $\text{col}_j(A) = \mathbf{v}_j$ for $j = 1, 2, \ldots, k$. Experiment with your software with such linear combinations.

(a) Using $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3$ from Example 9, compute

$$5\mathbf{v}_1 - 2\mathbf{v}_2 + 4\mathbf{v}_3.$$

(b) Using $\mathbf{v}_j$, where $\mathbf{v}_1 = 2t^2 + t + 2$, $\mathbf{v}_2 = t^2 - 2t$, $\mathbf{v}_3 = 5t^2 - 5t + 2$, and $\mathbf{v}_4 = -t^2 - 3t - 2$, compute

$$3\mathbf{v}_1 - \mathbf{v}_2 + 4\mathbf{v}_3 + 2\mathbf{v}_4.$$

(See also Exercise 46 in Section 1.3.)

42. In Exercise 41, suppose that the vectors were in R_n. Devise a procedure that uses matrix multiplication for forming linear combinations of vectors in R_n.

4.4 Span

Thus far we have defined a mathematical structure called a real vector space and noted some of its properties. In Example 6 in Section 4.3 we showed that the set of all linear combinations of two fixed vectors $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$ from a vector space V gave us a subspace W of V. We further observed that the only real vector space having a finite number of vectors in it is the vector space whose only vector is $\mathbf{0}$. For if $\mathbf{v} \neq \mathbf{0}$ is a vector in a vector space V, then by Exercise 25 in Section 4.2, $c \odot \mathbf{v} \neq c' \odot \mathbf{v}$, where c and c' are distinct real numbers, so V has infinitely many vectors in it. Also, from Example 1 in Section 4.3 we see that every vector space V has the zero subspace $\{\mathbf{0}\}$, which has only finitely many vectors in it.

From the preceding discussion we have that, except for the vector space $\{\mathbf{0}\}$, a vector space V will have infinitely many vectors. However, in this section and several that follow we show that many real vector spaces V studied here contain a finite subset of vectors that can be used to completely describe every vector in V. It should be noted that, in general, there is more than one subset that can be used to describe every vector in V. We now turn to a formulation of these ideas. Remember that we will denote vector addition $\mathbf{u} \oplus \mathbf{v}$ and scalar multiplication $c \odot \mathbf{u}$ in a vector space V as $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}$ and $c\mathbf{u}$, respectively.

Linear combinations play an important role in describing vector spaces. In Example 6 in Section 4.3 we observed that the set of all possible linear combinations of a pair of vectors in a vector space V gives us a subspace. We have the following definition to help with such constructions:

DEFINITION 4.7

If $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ is a set of vectors in a vector space V, then the set of all vectors in V that are linear combinations of the vectors in S is denoted by

$$\text{span } S \quad \text{or} \quad \text{span } \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}.$$

Remark Definition 4.7 is stated for a finite set of vectors, but it also applies to an infinite set S of vectors in a vector space.

EXAMPLE 1

Consider the set S of 2×3 matrices given by

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}.$$

Then span S is the set in M_{23} consisting of all vectors of the form

$$a\begin{bmatrix}1&0&0\\0&0&0\end{bmatrix}+b\begin{bmatrix}0&1&0\\0&0&0\end{bmatrix}+c\begin{bmatrix}0&0&0\\0&1&0\end{bmatrix}+d\begin{bmatrix}0&0&0\\0&0&1\end{bmatrix}$$
$$=\begin{bmatrix}a&b&0\\0&c&d\end{bmatrix}, \text{ where } a, b, c, \text{ and } d \text{ are real numbers.}$$

That is, span S is the subset of M_{23} consisting of all matrices of the form

$$\begin{bmatrix}a&b&0\\0&c&d\end{bmatrix},$$

where a, b, c, and d are real numbers. ■

EXAMPLE 2

(a) Let $S = \{t^2, t, 1\}$ be a subset of P_2. We have span $S = P_2$. (See Example 8 in Section 4.3.)

(b) Let

$$S = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}2\\0\\0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\-1\\0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\0\\0\end{bmatrix}\right\}$$

be a subset of R^3. Span S is the set of all vectors in R^3 of the form $\begin{bmatrix}a\\b\\0\end{bmatrix}$, where a and b are any real numbers. (Verify.)

(c) In Figure 4.22 in Section 4.3 span$\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$ is the plane that passes through the origin and contains $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$. ■

The following theorem is a generalization of Example 6 in Section 4.3:

Theorem 4.4 Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ be a set of vectors in a vector space V. Then span S is a subspace of V.

Proof

Let

$$\mathbf{u} = \sum_{j=1}^{k} a_j\mathbf{v}_j \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{w} = \sum_{j=1}^{k} b_j\mathbf{v}_j$$

for some real numbers $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_k$ and $b_1, b_2, \ldots, b_k$. We have

$$\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{w} = \sum_{j=1}^{k} a_j\mathbf{v}_j + \sum_{j=1}^{k} b_j\mathbf{v}_j = \sum_{j=1}^{k} (a_j + b_j)\mathbf{v}_j,$$

using Exercise 17 (a) and (b) in Section 1.2. Moreover, for any real number c,

$$c\mathbf{u} = c\left(\sum_{j=1}^{k} a_j\mathbf{v}_j\right) = \sum_{j=1}^{k} (ca_j)\mathbf{v}_j.$$

Since the sum $\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{w}$ and the scalar multiple $c\mathbf{u}$ are linear combinations of the vectors in S, then span S is a subspace of V. ■

EXAMPLE 3 Let $S = \{t^2, t\}$ be a subset of the vector space P_2. Then span S is the subspace of all polynomials of the form $at^2 + bt$, where a and b are any real numbers. ■

EXAMPLE 4 Let

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

be a subset of the vector space M_{22}. Then span S is the subspace of all 2×2 diagonal matrices. ■

In order to completely describe a vector space V, we use the concept of span as stated in the following definition:

DEFINITION 4.8 Let S be a set of vectors in a vector space V. If every vector in V is a linear combination of the vectors in S, then the set S is said to **span** V, or V is spanned by the set S; that is, span $S = V$.

Remark If span $S = V$, S is called a **spanning set** of V. A vector space can have many spanning sets. In our examples we used sets S containing a finite number of vectors, but some vector spaces need spanning sets with infinitely many vectors. See Example 5.

EXAMPLE 5 Let P be the vector space of all polynomials. Let $S = \{1, t, t^2, \ldots\}$; that is, the set of all (nonnegative integer) powers of t. Then span $S = P$. Every spanning set for P will have infinitely many vectors. ■

Remark The majority of vector spaces and subspaces in the examples and exercises in this book will have spanning sets with finitely many vectors.

Another type of question that we encounter is; For a given subset S of a vector space V, is the vector $\mathbf{w}$ of V in span S? We will show in the following examples that for sets S with a finite number of vectors we can answer such questions by solving a linear system of equations:

EXAMPLE 6 In R^3, let

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Determine whether the vector

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 5 \\ -7 \end{bmatrix}$$

belongs to span$\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$.

Solution

If we can find scalars a_1 and a_2 such that

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 = \mathbf{v},$$

then $\mathbf{v}$ belongs to span $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$. Substituting for $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{v}$, we have

$$a_1\begin{bmatrix}2\\1\\1\end{bmatrix} + a_2\begin{bmatrix}1\\-1\\3\end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix}1\\5\\-7\end{bmatrix}.$$

This expression corresponds to the linear system whose augmented matrix is (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{cc|c}2 & 1 & 1\\1 & -1 & 5\\1 & 3 & -7\end{array}\right].$$

The reduced row echelon form of this system is (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{cc|c}1 & 0 & 2\\0 & 1 & -3\\0 & 0 & 0\end{array}\right],$$

which indicates that the linear system is consistent, $a_1 = 2$, and $a_2 = 3$. Hence $\mathbf{v}$ belongs to span $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$. ■

EXAMPLE 7

In P_2, let

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = 2t^2 + t + 2, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = t^2 - 2t, \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = 5t^2 - 5t + 2, \quad \mathbf{v}_4 = -t^2 - 3t - 2.$$

Determine whether the vector

$$\mathbf{v} = t^2 + t + 2$$

belongs to span $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4\}$.

Solution

If we can find scalars a_1, a_2, a_3, and a_4 so that

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{v}_3 + a_4\mathbf{v}_4 = \mathbf{v},$$

then $\mathbf{v}$ belongs to span $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4\}$. Substituting for $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, $\mathbf{v}_3$, and $\mathbf{v}_4$, we have

$$\begin{aligned}a_1(2t^2 + t + 2) + a_2(t^2 - 2t) + a_3(5t^2 - 5t + 2) + a_4(-t^2 - 3t - 2)\\ = t^2 + t + 2,\end{aligned}$$

or

$$\begin{aligned}(2a_1 + a_2 + 5a_3 - a_4)t^2 + (a_1 - 2a_2 - 5a_3 - 3a_4)t + (2a_1 + 2a_3 - 2a_4)\\ = t^2 + t + 2.\end{aligned}$$

Now two polynomials agree for all values of t only if the coefficients of respective powers of t agree. Thus we get the linear system

$$\begin{aligned}2a_1 + a_2 + 5a_3 - a_4 &= 1\\ a_1 - 2a_2 - 5a_3 - 3a_4 &= 1\\ 2a_1 + 2a_3 - 2a_4 &= 2.\end{aligned}$$

To determine whether this system of linear equations is consistent, we form the augmented matrix and transform it to reduced row echelon form, obtaining (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right],$$

which indicates that the system is inconsistent; that is, it has no solution. Hence $\mathbf{v}$ does not belong to span $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4\}$. ■

Remark In general, to determine whether a specific vector $\mathbf{v}$ belongs to span S, we investigate the consistency of an appropriate linear system.

EXAMPLE 8

Let V be the vector space R^3. Let

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

To find out whether $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3$ span V, we pick any vector $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{bmatrix}$ in V (a, b, and c are arbitrary real numbers) and determine whether there are constants a_1, a_2, and a_3 such that

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{v}.$$

This leads to the linear system (verify)

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 + a_2 + a_3 &= a \\ 2a_1 \qquad + a_3 &= b \\ a_1 + 2a_2 \qquad &= c. \end{aligned}$$

A solution is (verify)

$$a_1 = \frac{-2a + 2b + c}{3}, \quad a_2 = \frac{a - b + c}{3}, \quad a_3 = \frac{4a - b - 2c}{3}.$$

Thus $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3$ span V. This is equivalent to saying that

$$\text{span } \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\} = R^3.$$ ■

EXAMPLE 9

Let V be the vector space P_2. Let $\mathbf{v}_1 = t^2 + 2t + 1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2 = t^2 + 2$. Does $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$ span V?

Solution

Let $\mathbf{v} = at^2 + bt + c$ be any vector in V, where a, b, and c are any real numbers. We must find out whether there are constants a_1 and a_2 such that

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 = \mathbf{v},$$

or

$$a_1(t^2 + 2t + 1) + a_2(t^2 + 2) = at^2 + bt + c.$$

Thus

$$(a_1 + a_2)t^2 + (2a_1)t + (a_1 + 2a_2) = at^2 + bt + c.$$

Equating the coefficients of respective powers of t, we get the linear system

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 + \ a_2 &= a \\ 2a_1 \qquad &= b \\ a_1 + 2a_2 &= c. \end{aligned}$$

Transforming the augmented matrix of this linear system, we obtain (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{cc|c} 1 & 0 & 2a - c \\ 0 & 1 & c - a \\ 0 & 0 & b - 4a + 2c \end{array}\right].$$

If $b - 4a + 2c \neq 0$, then the system is inconsistent and there is no solution. Hence $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$ does not span V. ■

EXAMPLE 10

Consider the homogeneous linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$, where

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ -2 & -2 & 1 & -5 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & 3 \\ 4 & 4 & -1 & 9 \end{bmatrix}.$$

From Example 10 in Section 4.3, the set of all solutions to $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ forms a subspace of R^4. To determine a spanning set for the solution space of this homogeneous system, we find that the reduced row echelon form of the augmented matrix is (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right].$$

The general solution is then given by

$$x_1 = -r - 2s, \quad x_2 = r, \quad x_3 = s, \quad x_4 = s,$$

where r and s are any real numbers. In matrix form we have that any member of the solution space is given by

$$\mathbf{x} = r \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + s \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Hence $\begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$ and $\begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$ span the solution space. ■

Key Terms

Span of a set
Set S spans vector space V
V is spanned by the set S
Consistent system
Inconsistent system
Homogeneous system

4.4 Exercises

1. For each of the following vector spaces, give two different spanning sets:

(a) R^3 **(b)** M_{22} **(c)** P_2

2. In each part, explain why the set S is not a spanning set for the vector space V.

(a) $S = \{t^3, t^2, t\}$, $V = P_3$

(b) $S = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\0\end{bmatrix}\right\}$, $V = R^2$

(c) $S = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}1 & 0\\0 & 1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0 & 1\\1 & 0\end{bmatrix}\right\}$, $V = M_{22}$

3. In each part, determine whether the given vector $p(t)$ in P_2 belongs to span $\{p_1(t), p_2(t), p_3(t)\}$, where

$$p_1(t) = t^2 + 2t + 1, \quad p_2(t) = t^2 + 3, \quad \text{and} \quad p_3(t) = t - 1.$$

(a) $p(t) = t^2 + t + 2$

(b) $p(t) = 2t^2 + 2t + 3$

(c) $p(t) = -t^2 + t - 4$

(d) $p(t) = -2t^2 + 3t + 1$

4. In each part, determine whether the given vector A in M_{22} belongs to span $\{A_1, A_2, A_3\}$, where

$$A_1 = \begin{bmatrix}1 & -1\\0 & 3\end{bmatrix}, \quad A_2 = \begin{bmatrix}1 & 1\\0 & 2\end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad A_3 = \begin{bmatrix}2 & 2\\-1 & 1\end{bmatrix}.$$

(a) $A = \begin{bmatrix}5 & 1\\-1 & 9\end{bmatrix}$ **(b)** $A = \begin{bmatrix}-3 & -1\\3 & 2\end{bmatrix}$

(c) $A = \begin{bmatrix}3 & -2\\3 & 2\end{bmatrix}$ **(d)** $A = \begin{bmatrix}1 & 0\\2 & 1\end{bmatrix}$

5. Which of the following vectors span R_2?

(a) $[1 \quad 2], [-1 \quad 1]$

(b) $[0 \quad 0], [1 \quad 1], [-2 \quad -2]$

(c) $[1 \quad 3], [2 \quad -3], [0 \quad 2]$

(d) $[2 \quad 4], [-1 \quad 2]$

6. Which of the following sets of vectors span R^4?

(a) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\-1\\2\\0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\1\\1\\1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

(b) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}3\\2\\1\\0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1\\2\\-1\\0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\0\\0\\1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

(c) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}3\\2\\-1\\2\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}4\\0\\0\\2\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}3\\2\\-1\\2\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}5\\6\\-3\\2\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\4\\-2\\-1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

(d) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\1\\0\\0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1\\2\\-1\\1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\0\\1\\-1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}2\\1\\2\\-1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

7. Which of the following sets of vectors span R_4?

(a) $[1 \quad 0 \quad 0 \quad 1], [0 \quad 1 \quad 0 \quad 0], [1 \quad 1 \quad 1 \quad 1], [1 \quad 1 \quad 1 \quad 0]$

(b) $[1 \quad 2 \quad 1 \quad 0], [1 \quad 1 \quad -1 \quad 0], [0 \quad 0 \quad 0 \quad 1]$

(c) $[6 \quad 4 \quad -2 \quad 4], [2 \quad 0 \quad 0 \quad 1], [3 \quad 2 \quad -1 \quad 2], [5 \quad 6 \quad -3 \quad 2], [0 \quad 4 \quad -2 \quad -1]$

(d) $[1 \quad 1 \quad 0 \quad 0], [1 \quad 2 \quad -1 \quad 1], [0 \quad 0 \quad 1 \quad 1], [2 \quad 1 \quad 2 \quad 1]$

8. Which of the following sets of polynomials span P_2?

(a) $\{t^2 + 1, t^2 + t, t + 1\}$

(b) $\{t^2 + 1, t - 1, t^2 + t\}$

(c) $\{t^2 + 2, 2t^2 - t + 1, t + 2, t^2 + t + 4\}$

(d) $\{t^2 + 2t - 1, t^2 - 1\}$

9. Do the polynomials $t^3 + 2t + 1$, $t^2 - t + 2$, $t^3 + 2$, $-t^3 + t^2 - 5t + 2$ span P_3?

10. Does the set

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

span M_{22}?

11. Find a set of vectors spanning the solution space of $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$, where

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 1 \\ 2 & 1 & 3 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

12. Find a set of vectors spanning the null space of

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 2 & 3 & 6 & -2 \\ -2 & 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & -2 & -4 & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

13. The set W of all 2×2 matrices A with trace equal to zero is a subspace of M_{22}. Let

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}.$$

Show that span $S = W$.

14. The set W of all 3×3 matrices A with trace equal to zero is a subspace of M_{33}. (See Exercise 11 in Section 4.3.) Determine a subset S of W so that span $S = W$.

15. The set W of all 3×3 matrices of the form

$$\begin{bmatrix} a & 0 & b \\ 0 & c & 0 \\ d & 0 & e \end{bmatrix}$$

is a subspace of M_{33}. (See Exercise 12 in Section 4.3.) Determine a subset S of W so that span $S = W$.

16. Let T be the set of all matrices of the form $AB - BA$, where A and B are $n \times n$ matrices. Show that span T is not M_{nn}. (*Hint*: Use properties of trace.)

17. Determine whether your software has a command for finding the null space (see Example 10 in Section 4.3) of a matrix A. If it does, use it on the matrix A in Example 10 and compare the command's output with the results in Example 10. To experiment further, use Exercises 11 and 12.

4.5 Linear Independence

In Section 4.4 we developed the notion of the span of a set of vectors together with spanning sets of a vector space or subspace. Spanning sets S provide vectors so that any vector in the space can be expressed as a linear combination of the members of S. We remarked that a vector space can have many different spanning sets and that spanning sets for the same space need not have the same number of vectors. We illustrate this in Example 1.

EXAMPLE 1

In Example 5 of Section 4.3 we showed that the set W of all vectors of the form

$$\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ a+b \end{bmatrix},$$

where a and b are any real numbers, is a subspace of R^3. Each of the following sets is a spanning set for W (verify):

$$S_1 = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

$$S_2 = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} \right\} \qquad S_3 = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

■

We observe that the set S_3 is a more "efficient" spanning set, since each vector of W is a linear combination of two vectors, compared with three vectors when using S_1 and four vectors when using S_2. If we can determine a spanning set for a vector space V that is minimal, in the sense that it contains the fewest number of vectors, then we have an efficient way to describe every vector in V.

In Example 1, since the vectors in S_3 span W and S_3 is a subset of S_1 and S_2, it follows that the vector

$$\begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix}$$

in S_1 must be a linear combination of the vectors in S_3, and similarly, both vectors

$$\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$$

in S_2 must be linear combinations of the vectors in S_3. Observe that

$$3\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + 2\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix},$$

$$0\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + 0\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix},$$

$$2\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + 0\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

In addition, for set S_1 we observe that

$$3\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + 2\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} - 1\begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix},$$

and for set S_2 we observe that

$$0\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + 0\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} - 1\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix},$$

$$2\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + 0\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} - 1\begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

It follows that if span $S = V$, and there is a linear combination of the vectors in S with coefficients not all zero that gives the zero vector, then some subset of S is also a spanning set for V.

Remark The preceding discussion motivates the next definition. In the preceding discussion, which is based on Example 1, we used the observation that S_3 was a subset of S_1 and of S_2. However, that observation is a special case which need not apply when comparing two spanning sets for a vector space.

DEFINITION 4.9

The vectors $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ in a vector space V are said to be **linearly dependent** if there exist constants $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_k$, not all zero, such that

$$\sum_{j=1}^{k} a_j \mathbf{v}_j = a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_k\mathbf{v}_k = \mathbf{0}. \tag{1}$$

Otherwise, $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ are called **linearly independent**. That is, $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ are linearly independent if, whenever $a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_k\mathbf{v}_k = \mathbf{0}$,

$$a_1 = a_2 = \cdots = a_k = 0.$$

If $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$, then we also say that the set S is **linearly dependent** or **linearly independent** if the vectors have the corresponding property.

It should be emphasized that for any vectors $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$, Equation (1) always holds if we choose all the scalars $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_k$ equal to zero. The important point in this definition is whether it is possible to satisfy (1) with at least one of the scalars different from zero.

Remark Definition 4.9 is stated for a finite set of vectors, but it also applies to an infinite set S of a vector space, using corresponding notation for infinite sums.

Remark We connect Definition 4.9 to "efficient" spanning sets in Section 4.6.

To determine whether a set of vectors is linearly independent or linearly dependent, we use Equation (1). Regardless of the form of the vectors, Equation (1) yields a homogeneous linear system of equations. It is always consistent, since $a_1 = a_2 = \cdots = a_k = 0$ is a solution. However, the main idea from Definition 4.9 is whether there is a nontrivial solution.

EXAMPLE 2

Determine whether the vectors

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 2 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}$$

are linearly independent.

Solution

Forming Equation (1),

$$a_1 \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + a_2 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + a_3 \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 2 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix},$$

we obtain the homogeneous system (verify)

$$\begin{aligned} 3a_1 + a_2 - a_3 &= 0 \\ 2a_1 + 2a_2 + 2a_3 &= 0 \\ a_1 - a_3 &= 0. \end{aligned}$$

The corresponding augmented matrix is

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 3 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \end{array}\right],$$

whose reduced row echelon form is (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right].$$

Thus there is a nontrivial solution

$$\begin{bmatrix} k \\ -2k \\ k \end{bmatrix}, \quad k \neq 0 \text{ (verify)},$$

so the vectors are linearly dependent. ■

EXAMPLE 3

Are the vectors $\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$, and $\mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$ in R_4 linearly dependent or linearly independent?

Solution

We form Equation (1),

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{0},$$

and solve for a_1, a_2, and a_3. The resulting homogeneous system is (verify)

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 + a_3 &= 0 \\ a_2 + a_3 &= 0 \\ a_1 + a_2 + a_3 &= 0 \\ 2a_1 + 2a_2 + 3a_3 &= 0. \end{aligned}$$

The corresponding augmented matrix is (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 2 & 3 & 0 \end{array}\right],$$

and its reduced row echelon form is (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right].$$

Thus the only solution is the trivial solution $a_1 = a_2 = a_3 = 0$, so the vectors are linearly independent. ■

EXAMPLE 4

Are the vectors

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -3 \\ -2 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

in M_{22} linearly independent?

Solution

We form Equation (1),

$$a_1 \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} + a_2 \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} + a_3 \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -3 \\ -2 & 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix},$$

and solve for a_1, a_2, and a_3. Performing the scalar multiplications and adding the resulting matrices gives

$$\begin{bmatrix} 2a_1 + a_2 & a_1 + 2a_2 - 3a_3 \\ a_2 - 2a_3 & a_1 + a_3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Using the definition for equal matrices, we have the linear system

$$\begin{aligned} 2a_1 + a_2 &= 0 \\ a_1 + 2a_2 - 3a_3 &= 0 \\ a_2 - 2a_3 &= 0 \\ a_1 + a_3 &= 0. \end{aligned}$$

The corresponding augmented matrix is

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & -3 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{array}\right],$$

and its reduced row echelon form is (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right].$$

Thus there is a nontrivial solution

$$\begin{bmatrix} -k \\ 2k \\ k \end{bmatrix}, \quad k \neq 0 \text{ (verify)},$$

so the vectors are linearly dependent. ■

EXAMPLE 5

To find out whether the vectors $\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$, and $\mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$ in R_3 are linearly dependent or linearly independent, we form Equation (1),

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{0},$$

and solve for a_1, a_2, and a_3. Since $a_1 = a_2 = a_3 = 0$ (verify), we conclude that the given vectors are linearly independent. ■

EXAMPLE 6

Are the vectors $\mathbf{v}_1 = t^2 + t + 2$, $\mathbf{v}_2 = 2t^2 + t$, and $\mathbf{v}_3 = 3t^2 + 2t + 2$ in P_2 linearly dependent or linearly independent?

Solution

Forming Equation (1), we have (verify)

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 + 2a_2 + 3a_3 &= 0 \\ a_1 + a_2 + 2a_3 &= 0 \\ 2a_1 \quad\quad + 2a_3 &= 0, \end{aligned}$$

which has infinitely many solutions (verify). A particular solution is $a_1 = 1$, $a_2 = 1$, $a_3 = -1$, so

$$\mathbf{v}_1 + \mathbf{v}_2 - \mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{0}.$$

Hence the given vectors are linearly dependent. ■

EXAMPLE 7

Consider the vectors

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ -2 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} -3 \\ 2 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_4 = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

in R^3. Is $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4\}$ linearly dependent or linearly independent?

Solution

Setting up Equation (1), we are led to the homogeneous system

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 + a_2 - 3a_3 + 2a_4 &= 0 \\ 2a_1 - 2a_2 + 2a_3 \quad\quad &= 0 \\ -a_1 + a_2 - a_3 \quad\quad &= 0, \end{aligned}$$

of three equations in four unknowns. By Theorem 2.4, we are assured of the existence of a nontrivial solution. Hence S is linearly dependent. In fact, two of the infinitely many solutions are

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 = 1, \quad a_2 = 2, \quad a_3 = 1, \quad a_4 = 0; \\ a_1 = 1, \quad a_2 = 1, \quad a_3 = 0, \quad a_4 = -1. \end{aligned}$$

■

EXAMPLE 8

Determine whether the vectors

$$\begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

found in Example 10 in Section 4.4 as spanning the solution space of $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ are linearly dependent or linearly independent.

Solution

Forming Equation (1),

$$a_1\begin{bmatrix}-1\\1\\0\\0\end{bmatrix} + a_2\begin{bmatrix}-2\\0\\1\\1\end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix}0\\0\\0\\0\end{bmatrix},$$

we obtain the homogeneous system

$$\begin{aligned} -a_1 - 2a_2 &= 0\\ a_1 + 0a_2 &= 0\\ 0a_1 + a_2 &= 0\\ 0a_1 + a_2 &= 0, \end{aligned}$$

whose only solution is $a_1 = a_2 = 0$ (verify). Hence the given vectors are linearly independent. ■

We can use determinants to determine whether a set of n vectors in R^n or R_n is linearly independent.

Theorem 4.5 Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be a set of n vectors in R^n (R_n). Let A be the matrix whose columns (rows) are the elements of S. Then S is linearly independent if and only if $\det(A) \neq 0$.

Proof

We shall prove the result for columns only; the proof for rows is analogous.

Suppose that S is linearly independent. Then it follows that the reduced row echelon form of A is I_n. Thus, A is row equivalent to I_n, and hence $\det(A) \neq 0$. Conversely, if $\det(A) \neq 0$, then A is row equivalent to I_n. Now assume that the rows of A are linearly dependent. Then it follows that the reduced row echelon form of A has a zero row, which contradicts the earlier conclusion that A is row equivalent to I_n. Hence, the rows of A are linearly independent. ■

EXAMPLE 9 Is $S = \{\begin{bmatrix}1 & 2 & 3\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0 & 1 & 2\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}3 & 0 & -1\end{bmatrix}\}$ a linearly independent set of vectors in R^3?

Solution

We form the matrix A whose rows are the vectors in S:

$$A = \begin{bmatrix}1 & 2 & 3\\0 & 1 & 2\\3 & 0 & -1\end{bmatrix}.$$

Since $\det(A) = 2$ (verify), we conclude that S is linearly independent. ■

Theorem 4.6 Let S_1 and S_2 be finite subsets of a vector space and let S_1 be a subset of S_2. Then the following statements are true:

(a) If S_1 is linearly dependent, so is S_2.

(b) If S_2 is linearly independent, so is S_1.

Proof

Let

$$S_1 = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\} \quad \text{and} \quad S_2 = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k, \mathbf{v}_{k+1}, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_m\}.$$

We first prove (a). Since S_1 is linearly dependent, there exist $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_k$, not all zero, such that

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_k\mathbf{v}_k = \mathbf{0}.$$

Then

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_k\mathbf{v}_k + 0\mathbf{v}_{k+1} + \cdots + 0\mathbf{v}_m = \mathbf{0}. \tag{2}$$

Since not all the coefficients in (2) are zero, we conclude that S_2 is linearly dependent.

Statement (b) is the contrapositive of statement (a), so it is logically equivalent to statement (a). If we insist on proving it, we may proceed as follows. Let S_2 be linearly independent. If S_1 is assumed as linearly dependent, then S_2 is linearly dependent, by (a), a contradiction. Hence, S_1 must be linearly independent. ■

At this point, we have established the following results:

- The set $S = \{\mathbf{0}\}$ consisting only of $\mathbf{0}$ is linearly dependent, since, for example, $5\mathbf{0} = \mathbf{0}$, and $5 \neq 0$.
- From this it follows that if S is any set of vectors that contains $\mathbf{0}$, then S must be linearly dependent.
- A set of vectors consisting of a single nonzero vector is linearly independent (verify).
- If $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ are vectors in a vector space V and any two of them are equal, then $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ are linearly dependent (verify).

We consider next the meaning of linear independence in R^2 and R^3. Suppose that $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$ are linearly dependent in R^2. Then there exist scalars a_1 and a_2, not both zero, such that

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 = \mathbf{0}.$$

If $a_1 \neq 0$, then $\mathbf{v}_1 = \left(-\frac{a_2}{a_1}\right)\mathbf{v}_2$. If $a_2 \neq 0$, then $\mathbf{v}_2 = \left(-\frac{a_1}{a_2}\right)\mathbf{v}_1$. Thus one of the vectors is a multiple of the other. Conversely, suppose that $\mathbf{v}_1 = a\mathbf{v}_2$. Then

$$1\mathbf{v}_1 - a\mathbf{v}_2 = \mathbf{0},$$

and since the coefficients of $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$ are not both zero, it follows that $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$ are linearly dependent. Thus $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$ are linearly dependent in R^2 if and only if one of the vectors is a multiple of the other [Figure 4.25(a)]. Hence two vectors in R^2 are linearly dependent if and only if they both lie on the same line passing through the origin [Figure 4.25(a)].



FIGURE 4.25 (a) Linearly dependent vectors in R^2. (b) Linearly independent vectors in R^2.

Suppose now that $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{v}_3$ are linearly dependent in R^3. Then we can write

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{0},$$

where a_1, a_2, and a_3 are not all zero, say, $a_2 \neq 0$. Then

$$\mathbf{v}_2 = \left(-\frac{a_1}{a_2}\right)\mathbf{v}_1 - \left(\frac{a_3}{a_2}\right)\mathbf{v}_3,$$

which means that $\mathbf{v}_2$ is in the subspace W spanned by $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_3$.

Now W is either a plane through the origin (when $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_3$ are linearly independent) or a line through the origin (when $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_3$ are linearly dependent), or $W = \{\mathbf{0}\}$. Since a line through the origin always lies in a plane through the origin, we conclude that $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{v}_3$ all lie in the same plane through the origin. Conversely, suppose that $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{v}_3$ all lie in the same plane through the origin. Then either all three vectors are the zero vector, all three vectors lie on the same line through the origin, or all three vectors lie in a plane through the origin spanned by two vectors, say, $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_3$. Thus, in all these cases, $\mathbf{v}_2$ is a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_3$:

$$\mathbf{v}_2 = c_1\mathbf{v}_1 + c_3\mathbf{v}_3.$$

Then

$$c_1\mathbf{v}_1 - 1\mathbf{v}_2 + c_3\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{0},$$

which means that $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{v}_3$ are linearly dependent. Hence three vectors in R^3 are linearly dependent if and only if they all lie in the same plane passing through the origin [Figure 4.26(a)].



FIGURE 4.26 (a) Linearly dependent vectors in R^3. (b) Linearly independent vectors in R^3.

More generally, let $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ be nonzero vectors in a vector space V. We can show (Exercise 18) that $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are linearly dependent if and only if there is a scalar k such that $\mathbf{v} = k\mathbf{u}$. Equivalently, $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are linearly independent if and only if neither vector is a multiple of the other.

Theorem 4.7 The nonzero vectors $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n$ in a vector space V are linearly dependent if and only if one of the vectors $\mathbf{v}_j$ $(j \geq 2)$ is a linear combination of the preceding vectors $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_{j-1}$.

Proof

If $\mathbf{v}_j$ is a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_{j-1}$, that is,

$$\mathbf{v}_j = a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_{j-1}\mathbf{v}_{j-1},$$

then

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_{j-1}\mathbf{v}_{j-1} + (-1)\mathbf{v}_j + 0\mathbf{v}_{j+1} + \cdots + 0\mathbf{v}_n = \mathbf{0}.$$

Since at least one coefficient, -1, is nonzero, we conclude that $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n$ are linearly dependent.

Conversely, suppose that $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n$ are linearly dependent. Then there exist scalars, $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_n$, not all zero, such that

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n = \mathbf{0}.$$

Now let j be the largest subscript for which $a_j \neq 0$. If $j \geq 2$, then

$$\mathbf{v}_j = -\left(\frac{a_1}{a_j}\right)\mathbf{v}_1 - \left(\frac{a_2}{a_j}\right)\mathbf{v}_2 - \cdots - \left(\frac{a_{j-1}}{a_j}\right)\mathbf{v}_{j-1}.$$

If $j = 1$, then $a_1\mathbf{v}_1 = \mathbf{0}$, which implies that $\mathbf{v}_1 = \mathbf{0}$, a contradiction of the hypothesis that none of the vectors is the zero vector. Thus one of the vectors $\mathbf{v}_j$ is a linear combination of the preceding vectors $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_{j-1}$. ■

EXAMPLE 10 Let $V = R_3$ and also $\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -1 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -2 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} -3 & 2 & -1 \end{bmatrix}$, and $\mathbf{v}_4 = \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$. We find (verify) that

$$\mathbf{v}_1 + \mathbf{v}_2 + 0\mathbf{v}_3 - \mathbf{v}_4 = \mathbf{0},$$

so $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3$, and $\mathbf{v}_4$ are linearly dependent. We then have

$$\mathbf{v}_4 = \mathbf{v}_1 + \mathbf{v}_2 + 0\mathbf{v}_3.$$ ■

Remarks

1. We observe that Theorem 4.7 does not say that *every* vector $\mathbf{v}$ is a linear combination of the preceding vectors. Thus, in Example 10, we also have $\mathbf{v}_1 + 2\mathbf{v}_2 + \mathbf{v}_3 + 0\mathbf{v}_4 = \mathbf{0}$. We cannot solve, in this equation, for $\mathbf{v}_4$ as a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{v}_3$, since its coefficient is zero.
2. We can also prove that if $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ is a set of vectors in a vector space V, then S is linearly dependent if and only if one of the vectors in S is a linear combination of all the other vectors in S (see Exercise 19). For instance, in Example 10,

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = -\mathbf{v}_2 - 0\mathbf{v}_3 + \mathbf{v}_4; \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = -\tfrac{1}{2}\mathbf{v}_1 - \tfrac{1}{2}\mathbf{v}_3 - 0\mathbf{v}_4.$$

3. Observe that if $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ are linearly independent vectors in a vector space, then they must be distinct and nonzero.

The result shown next is used in Section 4.6, as well as in several other places. Suppose that $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ spans a vector space V, and $\mathbf{v}_j$ is a linear combination of the preceding vectors in S. Then the set

$$S_1 = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_{j-1}, \mathbf{v}_{j+1}, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\},$$

consisting of S with $\mathbf{v}_j$ deleted, also spans V. To show this result, observe that if $\mathbf{v}$ is any vector in V, then, since S spans V, we can find scalars $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_n$ such that

$$\mathbf{v} = a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_{j-1}\mathbf{v}_{j-1} + a_j\mathbf{v}_j + a_{j+1}\mathbf{v}_{j+1} + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n.$$

Now if

$$\mathbf{v}_j = b_1\mathbf{v}_1 + b_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + b_{j-1}\mathbf{v}_{j-1},$$

then

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{v} &= a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_{j-1}\mathbf{v}_{j-1} + a_j(b_1\mathbf{v}_1 + b_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + b_{j-1}\mathbf{v}_{j-1}) \\ &\quad + a_{j+1}\mathbf{v}_{j+1} + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n \\ &= c_1\mathbf{v}_1 + c_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + c_{j-1}\mathbf{v}_{j-1} + c_{j+1}\mathbf{v}_{j+1} + \cdots + c_n\mathbf{v}_n,\end{aligned}$$

which means that span $S_1 = V$.

EXAMPLE 11

Consider the set of vectors $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4\}$ in R^4, where

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_4 = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix},$$

and let $W = \text{span } S$. Since

$$\mathbf{v}_4 = \mathbf{v}_1 + \mathbf{v}_2,$$

we conclude that $W = \text{span } S_1$, where $S_1 = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$. ■

Key Terms

Consistent system
Inconsistent system
Homogeneous system
Linearly independent set
Linearly dependent set

4.5 Exercises

1. Show that

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ -1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 10 \\ 0 \\ 10 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

is a linearly dependent set in R^3.

2. Show that

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

is a linearly independent set in R^3.

3. Determine whether

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 1 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ 3 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

is a linearly independent set in R^4.

4. Determine whether

$$S = \{[3 \quad 1 \quad 2], [3 \quad 8 \quad -5], [-3 \quad 6 \quad -9]\}$$

is a linearly independent set in R_3.

In Exercises 5 through 8, each given augmented matrix is derived from Equation (1).

5. $\left[\begin{array}{cccc|c} 2 & 1 & 3 & 2 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 5 & 1 & 8 & 5 & 0 \end{array}\right]$

Is the set S linearly independent?

6. $\left[\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right]$

Is the set S linearly independent?

7. $\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \end{array}\right]$ Is the set S linearly independent?

8. $[A \mid O]$, where A is 5×5 and nonsingular. Is the set S linearly independent?

9. Let $\mathbf{x}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{x}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ -7 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{x}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$ belong to the solution space of $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$. Is $\{\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}_2, \mathbf{x}_3\}$ linearly independent?

10. Let $\mathbf{x}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{x}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ -1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{x}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 6 \\ 2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$ belong to the null space of A. Is $\{\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}_2, \mathbf{x}_3\}$ linearly independent?

11. Which of the given vectors in R_3 are linearly dependent? For those which are, express one vector as a linear combination of the rest.

(a) $[1 \quad 1 \quad 0], [0 \quad 2 \quad 3], [1 \quad 2 \quad 3], [3 \quad 6 \quad 6]$

(b) $[1 \quad 1 \quad 0], [3 \quad 4 \quad 2]$

(c) $[1 \quad 1 \quad 0], [0 \quad 2 \quad 3], [1 \quad 2 \quad 3], [0 \quad 0 \quad 0]$

12. Consider the vector space M_{22}. Follow the directions of Exercise 11.

(a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 4 & 6 \\ 8 & 6 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$

(c) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 3 & 1 \\ 2 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$

13. Consider the vector space P_2. Follow the directions of Exercise 11.

(a) $t^2 + 1, t - 2, t + 3$ **(b)** $2t^2 + t, t^2 + 3, t$

(c) $2t^2 + t + 1, 3t^2 + t - 5, t + 13$

14. Let V be the vector space of all real-valued continuous functions. Follow the directions of Exercise 11.

(a) $\cos t, \sin t, e^t$ **(b)** $t, e^t, \sin t$

(c) t^2, t, e^t **(d)** $\cos^2 t, \sin^2 t, \cos 2t$

15. Consider the vector space R^3. Follow the directions of Exercise 11.

(a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ -2 \end{bmatrix}$

(c) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 2 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$

16. For what values of c are the vectors $[-1 \quad 0 \quad -1]$, $[2 \quad 1 \quad 2]$, and $[1 \quad 1 \quad c]$ in R_3 linearly dependent?

17. For what values of c are the vectors $t + 3$ and $2t + c^2 + 2$ in P_1 linearly independent?

18. Let $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ be nonzero vectors in a vector space V. Show that $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are linearly dependent if and only if there is a scalar k such that $\mathbf{v} = k\mathbf{u}$. Equivalently, $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are linearly independent if and only if neither vector is a multiple of the other.

19. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ be a set of vectors in a vector space V. Prove that S is linearly dependent if and only if one of the vectors in S is a linear combination of all the other vectors in S.

20. Suppose that $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$ is a linearly independent set of vectors in a vector space V. Prove that $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \mathbf{w}_3\}$ is also linearly independent, where $\mathbf{w}_1 = \mathbf{v}_1 + \mathbf{v}_2 + \mathbf{v}_3$, $\mathbf{w}_2 = \mathbf{v}_2 + \mathbf{v}_3$, and $\mathbf{w}_3 = \mathbf{v}_3$.

21. Suppose that $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$ is a linearly independent set of vectors in a vector space V. Is $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \mathbf{w}_3\}$, where $\mathbf{w}_1 = \mathbf{v}_1 + \mathbf{v}_2$, $\mathbf{w}_2 = \mathbf{v}_1 + \mathbf{v}_3$, $\mathbf{w}_3 = \mathbf{v}_2 + \mathbf{v}_3$, linearly dependent or linearly independent? Justify your answer.

22. Suppose that $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$ is a linearly dependent set of vectors in a vector space V. Is $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \mathbf{w}_3\}$, where $\mathbf{w}_1 = \mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{w}_2 = \mathbf{v}_1 + \mathbf{v}_3$, $\mathbf{w}_3 = \mathbf{v}_1 + \mathbf{v}_2 + \mathbf{v}_3$, linearly dependent or linearly independent? Justify your answer.

23. Show that if $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$ is linearly independent and $\mathbf{v}_3$ does not belong to span $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$, then $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$ is linearly independent.

24. Suppose that $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ is a linearly independent set of vectors in R^n. Show that if A is an $n \times n$ nonsingular matrix, then $\{A\mathbf{v}_1, A\mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, A\mathbf{v}_n\}$ is linearly independent.

25. Let A be an $m \times n$ matrix in reduced row echelon form. Prove that the nonzero rows of A, viewed as vectors in R_n, form a linearly independent set of vectors.

26. Let $S = \{\mathbf{u}_1, \mathbf{u}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{u}_k\}$ be a set of vectors in a vector space and let $T = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_m\}$, where each $\mathbf{v}_i$, $i = 1, 2, \ldots, m$, is a linear combination of the vectors in S. Prove that

$$\mathbf{w} = b_1\mathbf{v}_1 + b_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + b_m\mathbf{v}_m$$

is a linear combination of the vectors in S.

27. Let S_1 and S_2 be finite subsets of a vector space and let S_1 be a subset of S_2. If S_2 is linearly dependent, why or why not is S_1 linearly dependent? Give an example.

28. Let S_1 and S_2 be finite subsets of a vector space and let S_1 be a subset of S_2. If S_1 is linearly independent, why or why not is S_2 linearly independent? Give an example.

29. Let A be an $m \times n$ matrix. Associate with A the vector $\mathbf{w}$ in R^{mn} obtained by "stringing out" the columns of A. For example, with

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 4 \\ 2 & 5 \\ 3 & 6 \end{bmatrix}$$

we associate the vector

$$\mathbf{w} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \\ 4 \\ 5 \\ 6 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Determine whether your software has such a command. If it does, use it with the vectors in Example 4, together with your software's reduced row echelon form command, to show that the vectors are linearly dependent. Apply this technique to solve Exercise 12.

30. As noted in the Remark after Example 7 in Section 4.4, to determine whether a specific vector $\mathbf{v}$ belongs to span S, we investigate the consistency of an appropriate nonhomogeneous linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$. In addition, to determine whether a set of vectors is linearly independent, we investigate the null space of an appropriate homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$. These investigations can be performed computationally, using a command for reduced row echelon form, if available. We summarize the use of a reduced row echelon form command in these cases, as follows: Let RREF(C) represent the reduced row echelon form of matrix C.

(i) $\mathbf{v}$ belongs to span S, provided that RREF $\left(\left[\begin{array}{c|c} A & \mathbf{b} \end{array}\right]\right)$ contains no row of the form $\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 0 & \cdots & 0 & * \end{array}\right]$, where $*$ represents a nonzero number.

(ii) The set of vectors is linearly independent if RREF $\left(\left[\begin{array}{c|c} A & \mathbf{0} \end{array}\right]\right)$ contains only rows from an identity matrix and possibly rows of all zeros.

Experiment in your software with this approach, using the data given in Example 8 in Section 4.4 and Examples 3, 5, 6, and 7.

31. (**Warning:** The strategy given in Exercise 30 assumes the computations are performed by using exact arithmetic. Most software uses a model of exact arithmetic called floating point arithmetic; hence the use of reduced row echelon form may yield incorrect results in these cases. Computationally, the "line between" linear independence and linear dependence may be blurred.) Experiment in your software with the use of reduced row echelon form for the vectors in R^2 given here. Are they linearly independent or linearly dependent? Compare the theoretical answer with the computational answer from your software.

(a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \times 10^{-5} \end{bmatrix}$ **(b)** $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \times 10^{-10} \end{bmatrix}$

(c) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \times 10^{-16} \end{bmatrix}$

4.6 Basis and Dimension

In this section we continue our study of the structure of a vector space V by determining a set of vectors in V that completely describes V. Here we bring together the topics of span from Section 4.4 and linear independence from Section 4.5. In the case of vector spaces that can be completely described by a finite set of vectors, we prove further properties that reveal more details about the structure of such vector spaces.

Basis

DEFINITION 4.10 The vectors $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ in a vector space V are said to form a **basis** for V if (a) $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ span V and (b) $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ are linearly independent.

Remark If $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ form a basis for a vector space V, then they must be distinct and nonzero.

Remark We state Definition 4.10 for a finite set of vectors, but it also applies to an infinite set of vectors in a vector space.

EXAMPLE 1 Let $V = R^3$. The vectors $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$ form a basis for R^3, called the **natural basis** or **standard basis**, for R^3. We can readily see how to generalize this to obtain the natural basis for R^n. Similarly, $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$ is the natural basis for R_3. ■

The natural basis for R^n is denoted by $\{\mathbf{e}_1, \mathbf{e}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{e}_n\}$, where

$$\mathbf{e}_i = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \leftarrow i\text{th row;}$$

that is, $\mathbf{e}_i$ is an $n \times 1$ matrix with a 1 in the ith row and zeros elsewhere.

The natural basis for R^3 is also often denoted by

$$\mathbf{i} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{j} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{k} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

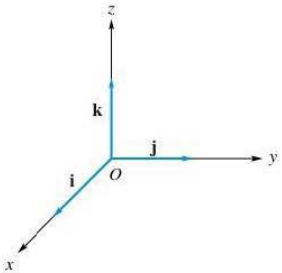


FIGURE 4.27 Natural basis for R^3.

These vectors are shown in Figure 4.27. Thus any vector $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ a_3 \end{bmatrix}$ in R^3 can be written as

$$\mathbf{v} = a_1\mathbf{i} + a_2\mathbf{j} + a_3\mathbf{k}.$$

EXAMPLE 2 Show that the set $S = \{t^2 + 1, t - 1, 2t + 2\}$ is a basis for the vector space P_2.

Solution

To do this, we must show that S spans V and is linearly independent. To show that it spans V, we take any vector in V, that is, a polynomial $at^2 + bt + c$, and find constants a_1, a_2, and a_3 such that

$$\begin{aligned} at^2 + bt + c &= a_1(t^2 + 1) + a_2(t - 1) + a_3(2t + 2) \\ &= a_1t^2 + (a_2 + 2a_3)t + (a_1 - a_2 + 2a_3). \end{aligned}$$

Since two polynomials agree for all values of t only if the coefficients of respective powers of t agree, we get the linear system

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 \qquad\qquad &= a \\ a_2 + 2a_3 &= b \\ a_1 - a_2 + 2a_3 &= c. \end{aligned}$$

Solving, we have

$$a_1 = a, \quad a_2 = \frac{a + b - c}{2}, \quad a_3 = \frac{c + b - a}{4}.$$

Hence S spans V.

To illustrate this result, suppose that we are given the vector $2t^2 + 6t + 13$. Here, $a = 2$, $b = 6$, and $c = 13$. Substituting in the foregoing expressions for a, b, and c , we find that

$$a_1 = 2, \quad a_2 = -\tfrac{5}{2}, \quad a_3 = \tfrac{17}{4}.$$

Hence

$$2t^2 + 6t + 13 = 2(t^2 + 1) - \tfrac{5}{2}(t - 1) + \tfrac{17}{4}(2t + 2).$$

To show that S is linearly independent, we form

$$a_1(t^2 + 1) + a_2(t - 1) + a_3(2t + 2) = 0.$$

Then

$$a_1t^2 + (a_2 + 2a_3)t + (a_1 - a_2 + 2a_3) = 0.$$

Again, this can hold for all values of t only if

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 \qquad\qquad &= 0 \\ a_2 + 2a_3 &= 0 \\ a_1 - a_2 + 2a_3 &= 0. \end{aligned}$$

The only solution to this homogeneous system is $a_1 = a_2 = a_3 = 0$, which implies that S is linearly independent. Thus S is a basis for P_2. ■

The set of vectors $\{t^n, t^{n-1}, \ldots, t, 1\}$ forms a basis for the vector space P_n called the **natural**, or **standard basis**, for P_n.

EXAMPLE 3

Show that the set $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4\}$, where

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \end{bmatrix},$$
$$\mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 2 & 2 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_4 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix},$$

is a basis for R_4.

Solution

To show that S is linearly independent, we form the equation

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{v}_3 + a_4\mathbf{v}_4 = \mathbf{0}$$

and solve for a_1, a_2, a_3, and a_4. Substituting for $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, $\mathbf{v}_3$, and $\mathbf{v}_4$, we obtain the linear system

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 \qquad\quad + a_4 &= 0 \\ a_2 + 2a_3 \qquad &= 0 \\ a_1 - a_2 + 2a_3 \qquad &= 0 \\ 2a_2 + a_3 + a_4 &= 0, \end{aligned}$$

which has as its only solution $a_1 = a_2 = a_3 = a_4 = 0$ (verify), showing that S is linearly independent. Observe that the columns of the coefficient matrix of the preceding linear system are $\mathbf{v}_1^T$, $\mathbf{v}_2^T$, $\mathbf{v}_3^T$, and $\mathbf{v}_4^T$.

To show that S spans R_4, we let $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a & b & c & d \end{bmatrix}$ be any vector in R_4. We now seek constants a_1, a_2, a_3, and a_4 such that

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{v}_3 + a_4\mathbf{v}_4 = \mathbf{v}.$$

Substituting for $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, $\mathbf{v}_3$, $\mathbf{v}_4$, and $\mathbf{v}$, we find a solution for a_1, a_2, a_3, and a_4 (verify) to the resulting linear system. Hence S spans R_4 and is a basis for R_4. ■

EXAMPLE 4

The set W of all 2×2 matrices with trace equal to zero is a subspace of M_{22}. Show that the set $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$, where

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{bmatrix}$$

is a basis for W.

Solution

To do this, we must show that span $S = W$ and S is linearly independent. To show that span $S = W$, we take any vector $\mathbf{v}$ in W, that is,

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & -a \end{bmatrix},$$

and find constants a_1, a_2, and a_3 such that

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{v}.$$

Substituting for $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$, $\mathbf{v}_3$, and $\mathbf{v}$ and performing the matrix operations on the left, we obtain (verify)

$$\begin{bmatrix} a_3 & a_1 \\ a_2 & -a_3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & -a \end{bmatrix}.$$

Equating corresponding entries gives $a_1 = b$, $a_2 = c$, and $a_3 = a$, so S spans W. If we replace the vector $\mathbf{v}$ by the zero matrix, it follows in a similar fashion that $a_1 = a_2 = a_3 = 0$, so S is a linearly independent set. Hence S is a basis for W. ■

EXAMPLE 5 Find a basis for the subspace V of P_2, consisting of all vectors of the form $at^2 + bt + c$, where $c = a - b$.

Solution

Every vector in V is of the form

$$at^2 + bt + a - b,$$

which can be written as

$$a(t^2 + 1) + b(t - 1),$$

so the vectors $t^2 + 1$ and $t - 1$ span V. Moreover, these vectors are linearly independent because neither one is a multiple of the other. This conclusion could also be reached (with more work) by writing the equation

$$a_1(t^2 + 1) + a_2(t - 1) = 0,$$

or

$$a_1t^2 + a_2t + (a_1 - a_2) = 0.$$

Since this equation is to hold for all values of t, we must have $a_1 = 0$ and $a_2 = 0$. ■

A vector space V is called **finite-dimensional** if there is a finite subset of V that is a basis for V. If there is no such finite subset of V, then V is called **infinite-dimensional**.

We now establish some results about finite-dimensional vector spaces that will tell about the number of vectors in a basis, compare two different bases, and give properties of bases. First, we observe that if $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ is a basis for a vector space V, then $\{c\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ is also a basis when $c \neq 0$ (Exercise 35). Thus a basis for a nonzero vector space is never unique.

Theorem 4.8 If $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ is a basis for a vector space V, then every vector in V can be written in one and only one way as a linear combination of the vectors in S.

Proof

First, every vector $\mathbf{v}$ in V can be written as a linear combination of the vectors in S because S spans V. Now let

$$\mathbf{v} = a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n$$

and

$$\mathbf{v} = b_1\mathbf{v}_1 + b_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + b_n\mathbf{v}_n.$$

We must show that $a_i = b_i$ for $i = 1, 2, \ldots, n$. We have

$$\mathbf{0} = \mathbf{v} - \mathbf{v} = (a_1 - b_1)\mathbf{v}_1 + (a_2 - b_2)\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + (a_n - b_n)\mathbf{v}_n.$$

Since S is linearly independent, we conclude that

$$a_i - b_i = 0 \qquad \text{for } i = 1, 2, \ldots, n. \quad \blacksquare$$

We can also prove (Exercise 44) that if $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ is a set of nonzero vectors in a vector space V such that every vector in V can be written in one and only one way as a linear combination of the vectors in S, then S is a basis for V.

Even though a nonzero vector space contains an infinite number of elements, a vector space with a finite basis is, in a sense, completely described by a finite number of vectors, namely, by those vectors in the basis.

Theorem 4.9 Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be a set of nonzero vectors in a vector space V and let $W = \text{span } S$. Then some subset of S is a basis for W.

Proof

Case I If S is linearly independent, then since S already spans W, we conclude that S is a basis for W.

Case II If S is linearly dependent, then

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n = \mathbf{0}, \tag{1}$$

where $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_n$ are not all zero. Thus some $\mathbf{v}_j$ is a linear combination of the preceding vectors in S (Theorem 4.7). We now delete $\mathbf{v}_j$ from S, getting a subset S_1 of S. Then, by the observation made at the end of Section 4.5, we conclude that $S_1 = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_{j-1}\mathbf{v}_{j+1}, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ also spans W.

If S_1 is linearly independent, then S_1 is a basis. If S_1 is linearly dependent, delete a vector of S_1 that is a linear combination of the preceding vectors of S_1 and get a new set S_2 which spans W. Continuing, since S is a finite set, we will eventually find a subset T of S that is linearly independent and spans W. The set T is a basis for W.

Alternative Constructive Proof when V Is R^m or R_m, $n \geq m$. (By the results seen in Section 4.7, this proof is also applicable when V is P_m or M_{pq}, where $n \geq pq$.) We take the vectors in S as $m \times 1$ matrices and form Equation (1). This equation leads to a homogeneous system in the n unknowns $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_n$; the columns of its $m \times n$ coefficient matrix A are $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n$. We now transform A to a matrix B in reduced row echelon form, having r nonzero rows, $1 \leq r \leq m$. Without loss of generality, we may assume that the r leading 1's in the r nonzero rows of B occur in the first r columns. Thus we have

$$B = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & b_{1r+1} & \cdots & b_{1n} \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & b_{2r+1} & \cdots & b_{2n} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & \cdots & 0 & b_{3r+1} & \cdots & b_{3n} \\ & & & \ddots & & \vdots & & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 1 & b_{rr+1} & \cdots & b_{rn} \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & & \vdots & \vdots & & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Solving for the unknowns corresponding to the leading 1's, we see that $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_r$ can be solved for in terms of the other unknowns $a_{r+1}, a_{r+2}, \ldots, a_n$.

Thus,

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 &= -b_{1\,r+1}a_{r+1} - b_{1\,r+2}a_{r+2} - \cdots - b_{1n}a_n \\ a_2 &= -b_{2\,r+1}a_{r+1} - b_{2\,r+2}a_{r+2} - \cdots - b_{2n}a_n \\ &\vdots \\ a_r &= -b_{r\,r+1}a_{r+1} - b_{r\,r+2}a_{r+2} - \cdots - b_{rn}a_n, \end{aligned} \tag{2}$$

where $a_{r+1}, a_{r+2}, \ldots, a_n$ can be assigned arbitrary real values. Letting

$$a_{r+1} = 1, \quad a_{r+2} = 0, \quad \ldots, \quad a_n = 0$$

in Equation (2) and using these values in Equation (1), we have

$$-b_{1\,r+1}\mathbf{v}_1 - b_{2\,r+1}\mathbf{v}_2 - \cdots - b_{r\,r+1}\mathbf{v}_r + \mathbf{v}_{r+1} = \mathbf{0},$$

which implies that $\mathbf{v}_{r+1}$ is a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_r$. By the remark made at the end of Section 4.5, the set of vectors obtained from S by deleting $\mathbf{v}_{r+1}$ spans W. Similarly, letting $a_{r+1} = 0, a_{r+2} = 1, a_{r-3} = 0, \ldots, a_n = 0$, we find that $\mathbf{v}_{r+2}$ is a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_r$ and the set of vectors obtained from S by deleting $\mathbf{v}_{r+1}$ and $\mathbf{v}_{r+2}$ spans W. Continuing in this manner, $\mathbf{v}_{r+3}, \mathbf{v}_{r+4}, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n$ are linear combinations of $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_r$, so it follows that $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_r\}$ spans W.

We next show that $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_r\}$ is linearly independent. Consider the matrix B_D that we get by deleting from B all columns not containing a leading 1. In this case, B_D consists of the first r columns of B. Thus

$$B_D = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & & \\ & & & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & & \cdots & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & & \cdots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & & & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & & \cdots & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Let A_D be the matrix obtained from A by deleting the columns corresponding to the columns that were deleted in B to obtain B_D. In this case, the columns of A_D are $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_r$, the first r columns of A. Since A and B are row equivalent, so are A_D and B_D. Then the homogeneous systems

$$A_D\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0} \quad \text{and} \quad B_D\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$$

are equivalent. Recall now that the homogeneous system $B_D\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ can be written equivalently as

$$x_1\mathbf{y}_1 + x_2\mathbf{y}_2 + \cdots + x_r\mathbf{y}_r = \mathbf{0}, \tag{3}$$

where $\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ \vdots \\ x_r \end{bmatrix}$ and $\mathbf{y}_1, \mathbf{y}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{y}_r$ are the columns of B_D. Since the columns of B_D form a linearly independent set of vectors in R^m, Equation (3) has only

the trivial solution. Hence $A_D\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ also has only the trivial solution. Thus the columns of A_D are linearly independent. That is, $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_r\}$ is linearly independent. ■

The first proof of Theorem 4.9 leads to a simple procedure for finding a subset T of a set S so that T is a basis for span S. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be a set of nonzero vectors in a vector space V. The procedure for finding a subset T of S that is a basis for $W = \text{span } S$ is as follows:

Step 1. Form Equation (1),

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n = \mathbf{0},$$

which we solve for $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_n$. If these are all zero, then S is linearly independent and is then a basis for W.

Step 2. If $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_n$ are not all zero, then S is linearly dependent, so one of the vectors in S—say, $\mathbf{v}_j$—is a linear combination of the preceding vectors in S. Delete $\mathbf{v}_j$ from S, getting the subset S_1, which also spans W.

Step 3. Repeat Step 1, using S_1 instead of S. By repeatedly deleting vectors of S, we derive a subset T of S that spans W and is linearly independent. Thus T is a basis for W.

This procedure can be rather tedious, since *every time* we delete a vector from S, we must solve a linear system. In Section 4.9 we present a much more efficient procedure for finding a basis for $W = \text{span } S$, but the basis is *not* guaranteed to be a subset of S. In many cases this is not a cause for concern, since one basis for $W = \text{span } S$ is as good as any other basis. However, there are cases when the vectors in S have some special properties and we want the basis for $W = \text{span } S$ to have the same properties, so we want the basis to be a subset of S. If $V = R^m$ or R_m, the alternative proof of Theorem 4.9 yields a very efficient procedure (see Example 6) for finding a basis for $W = \text{span } S$ consisting of vectors from S.

Let $V = R^m$ or R_m and let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be a set of nonzero vectors in V. The procedure for finding a subset T of S that is a basis for $W = \text{span } S$ is as follows.

Step 1. Form Equation (1),

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n = \mathbf{0}.$$

Step 2. Construct the augmented matrix associated with the homogeneous system of Equation (1), and transform it to reduced row echelon form.

Step 3. The vectors corresponding to the columns containing the leading 1's form a basis T for $W = \text{span } S$.

Recall that in the alternative proof of the theorem we assumed without loss of generality that the r leading 1's in the r nonzero rows of B occur in the first r columns. Thus, if $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_6\}$ and the leading 1's occur in columns 1, 3, and 4, then $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4\}$ is a basis for span S.

Remark In Step 2 of the foregoing procedure, it is sufficient to transform the augmented matrix to row echelon form.

EXAMPLE 6

Let $V = R_3$ and $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4, \mathbf{v}_5\}$, where $\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v}_4 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$, and $\mathbf{v}_5 = \begin{bmatrix} -1 & 1 & -2 \end{bmatrix}$. We find that S spans R_3 (verify), and we now wish to find a subset of S that is a basis for R_3. Using the procedure just developed, we proceed as follows:

Step 1. $a_1 \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} + a_2 \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix} + a_3 \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix} + a_4 \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 \end{bmatrix} + a_5 \begin{bmatrix} -1 & 1 & -2 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$.

Step 2. Equating corresponding components, we obtain the homogeneous system

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 \quad\quad + a_3 + a_4 - a_5 &= 0 \\ a_2 + a_3 + 2a_4 + a_5 &= 0 \\ a_1 + a_2 + 2a_3 + a_4 - 2a_5 &= 0. \end{aligned}$$

The reduced row echelon form of the associated augmented matrix is (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \end{array}\right].$$

Step 3. The leading 1's appear in columns 1, 2, and 4, so $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_4\}$ is a basis for R_3. ■

Remark In the alternative proof of Theorem 4.9, the order of the vectors in the original spanning set S determines which basis for V is obtained. If, for example, we consider Example 6, where $S = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \mathbf{w}_3, \mathbf{w}_4, \mathbf{w}_5\}$ with $\mathbf{w}_1 = \mathbf{v}_5$, $\mathbf{w}_2 = \mathbf{v}_4$, $\mathbf{w}_3 = \mathbf{v}_3$, $\mathbf{w}_4 = \mathbf{v}_2$, and $\mathbf{w}_5 = \mathbf{v}_1$, then the reduced row echelon form of the augmented matrix is (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccccc|c} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & -1 & 0 \end{array}\right].$$

It then follows that $\{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \mathbf{w}_3\} = \{\mathbf{v}_5, \mathbf{v}_4, \mathbf{v}_3\}$ is a basis for R_3.

We are now about to establish a major result (Corollary 4.1, which follows from Theorem 4.10) of this section, which will tell us about the number of vectors in two different bases.

Theorem 4.10 If $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ is a basis for a vector space V and $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{w}_r\}$ is a linearly independent set of vectors in V, then $r \leq n$.

Proof

Let $T_1 = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{v}_1, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$. Since S spans V, so does T_1. Since $\mathbf{w}_1$ is a linear combination of the vectors in S, we find that T_1 is linearly dependent. Then, by Theorem 4.7, some $\mathbf{v}_j$ is a linear combination of the preceding vectors in T_1. Delete that particular vector $\mathbf{v}_j$.

Let $S_1 = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{v}_1, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_{j-1}, \mathbf{v}_{j+1}, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$. Note that S_1 spans V. Next, let $T_2 = \{\mathbf{w}_2, \mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{v}_1, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_{j-1}, \mathbf{v}_{j+1}, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$. Then T_2 is linearly dependent and some vector in T_2 is a linear combination of the preceding vectors in T_2. Since T is linearly independent, this vector cannot be $\mathbf{w}_1$, so it is $\mathbf{v}_i$, $i \neq j$. Repeat this process over and over. Each time there is a new $\mathbf{w}$ vector available from the set T, it is possible to discard one of the $\mathbf{v}$ vectors from the set S. Thus the number r of $\mathbf{w}$ vectors must be no greater than the number n of $\mathbf{v}$ vectors. That is, $r \leq n$. ■

Corollary 4.1 If $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ and $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{w}_n\}$ are bases for a vector space V, then $n = m$.

Proof

Since S is a basis and T is linearly independent, Theorem 4.10 implies that $m \leq n$. Similarly, we obtain $n \leq m$ because T is a basis and S is linearly independent. Hence $n = m$. ■

A vector space or subspace can have many different bases. For example, the natural basis B_1 for R^2 is

$$B_1 = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \right\},$$

but the set

$$B_2 = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

is also a basis for R^2. (Verify.) From Theorem 4.8 we have that every vector in R^2 can be written in one and only one way as a linear combination of the vectors in B_1 and in one and only one way as a linear combination of the vectors in B_2. For any vector $\mathbf{v}$ in R^2, where

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \end{bmatrix},$$

we have

$$\mathbf{v} = a \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + b \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

However, to express $\mathbf{v}$ as a linear combination of the vectors in B_2, we must find scalars c_1 and c_2 so that

$$c_1 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + c_2 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \end{bmatrix}.$$

Solving c_1 and c_2 requires the solution of the linear system of equations whose augmented matrix is

$$\left[\begin{array}{cc|c} 1 & 1 & a \\ 1 & 2 & b \end{array}\right] \quad \text{(verify)}.$$

The solution to this linear system is $c_1 = 2a - b$ and $c_2 = b - a$. (Verify.) Thus

$$\mathbf{v} = (2a - b) \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + (b - a) \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

In this case we observe that the natural basis is more convenient for representing all the vectors in R^2, since the solution of a linear system is not required to determine the corresponding coefficients. In some applications in Chapter 8, a basis other than the natural basis is more convenient. So the choice of basis for a vector space can be important in representing the vectors in that space. We study the representation of a vector in terms of different bases in more detail in Section 4.8, where we discuss the coordinates of a vector with respect to an ordered basis.

■ Dimension

Although a vector space may have many bases, we have just shown that, for a particular vector space V, all bases have the same number of vectors. We can then make the following definition:

DEFINITION 4.11 The **dimension** of a nonzero vector space V is the number of vectors in a basis for V. We often write **dim** V for the dimension of V. We also define the dimension of the trivial vector space $\{\mathbf{0}\}$ to be zero.

EXAMPLE 7 The set $S = \{t^2, t, 1\}$ is a basis for P_2, so dim $P_2 = 3$. ■

EXAMPLE 8 Let V be the subspace of R_3 spanned by $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$, where $\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$, and $\mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$. Thus every vector in V is of the form

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{v}_3,$$

where a_1, a_2, and a_3 are arbitrary real numbers. We find that S is linearly dependent, and $\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{v}_1 + \mathbf{v}_2$ (verify). Thus $S_1 = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$ also spans V. Since S_1 is linearly independent (verify), we conclude that it is a basis for V. Hence dim $V = 2$. ■

DEFINITION 4.12 Let S be a set of vectors in a vector space V. A subset T of S is called a **maximal independent subset** of S if T is a linearly independent set of vectors that is not properly contained in any other linearly independent subset of S.

EXAMPLE 9 Let V be R^3 and consider the set $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4\}$, where

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_4 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Maximal independent subsets of S are

$$\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}, \quad \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_4\}, \quad \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4\}, \quad \text{and} \quad \{\mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4\}.$$ ■

Corollary 4.2 If the vector space V has dimension n, then a maximal independent subset of vectors in V contains n vectors.

Proof

Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ be a maximal independent subset of V. If span $S \neq V$, then there exists a vector $\mathbf{v}$ in V that cannot be written as a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$. It follows by Theorem 4.7 that $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k, \mathbf{v}\}$ is a linearly independent set of vectors. However, this contradicts the assumption that S is a maximal independent subset of V. Hence span $S = V$, which implies that set S is a basis for V and $k = n$ by Corollary 4.1. ■

Corollary 4.3 If a vector space V has dimension n, then a minimal* spanning set for V contains n vectors.

Proof

Exercise 38. ■

Although Corollaries 4.2 and 4.3 are, theoretically, of considerable importance, they can be computationally awkward.

From the preceding results, we can make the following observations: If V has dimension n, then any set of $n + 1$ vectors in V is necessarily linearly dependent; also, any set of $n - 1$ vectors in V cannot span V. More generally, we can establish the following results:

Corollary 4.4 If vector space V has dimension n, then any subset of $m > n$ vectors must be linearly dependent.

Proof

Exercise 39. ■

Corollary 4.5 If vector space V has dimension n, then any subset of $m < n$ vectors cannot span V.

Proof

Exercise 40. ■

In Section 4.5, we have already observed that the set $\{\mathbf{0}\}$ is linearly dependent. This is why in Definition 4.11 we defined the dimension of the trivial vector space $\{\mathbf{0}\}$ to be zero.

Thus R^3 has dimension 3, R_2 has dimension 2, and R^n and R_n both have dimension n. Similarly, P_3 has dimension 4 because $\{t^3, t^2, t, 1\}$ is a basis for P_3. In general, P_n has dimension $n + 1$. Most vector spaces considered henceforth in this book are finite-dimensional. Although infinite-dimensional vector spaces are very important in mathematics and physics, their study lies beyond the scope of this book. The vector space P of all polynomials is an infinite-dimensional vector space (Exercise 36).

Section 4.3 included an exercise (Exercise 29) to show that the subspaces of R^2 are $\{\mathbf{0}\}$, R^2 itself, and any line passing through the origin. We can now establish this result by using the material developed in this section. First, we have $\{\mathbf{0}\}$ and

*If S is a set of vectors spanning a vector space V, then S is called a **minimal spanning set** for V if S does not properly contain any other set spanning V.

R^2, the trivial subspaces of dimensions 0 and 2, respectively. The subspace V of R^2 spanned by a vector $\mathbf{v} \neq \mathbf{0}$ is a one-dimensional subspace of R^2; V is a line through the origin. Thus the subspaces of R^2 are $\{\mathbf{0}\}$, R^2, and all the lines through the origin. In a similar way, Exercise 43 at the end of this section asks you to show that the subspaces of R^3 are $\{\mathbf{0}\}$, R^3 itself, and all lines and planes passing through the origin. We now prove a theorem that we shall have occasion to use several times in constructing a basis containing a given set of linearly independent vectors.

Theorem 4.11 If S is a linearly independent set of vectors in a finite-dimensional vector space V, then there is a basis T for V that contains S.

Proof

Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_m\}$ be a linearly independent set of vectors in the n-dimensional vector space V, where $m < n$. Now let $\{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{w}_n\}$ be a basis for V and let $S_1 = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_m, \mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{w}_n\}$. Since S_1 spans V, by Theorem 4.9 it contains a basis T for V. Recall that T is obtained by deleting from S_1 every vector that is a linear combination of the preceding vectors. Since S is linearly independent, none of the $\mathbf{v}_i$ can be linear combinations of other $\mathbf{v}_j$ and thus are not deleted. Hence T will contain S. ■

EXAMPLE 10 Suppose that we wish to find a basis for R_4 that contains the vectors

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} -1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

We use Theorem 4.11 as follows. First, let $\{\mathbf{e}_1', \mathbf{e}_2', \mathbf{e}_3', \mathbf{e}_4'\}$ be the natural basis for R_4, where

$$\mathbf{e}_1' = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{e}_2' = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{e}_3' = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix},$$

and

$$\mathbf{e}_4' = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Form the set $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{e}_1', \mathbf{e}_2', \mathbf{e}_3', \mathbf{e}_4'\}$. Since $\{\mathbf{e}_1', \mathbf{e}_2', \mathbf{e}_3', \mathbf{e}_4'\}$ spans R_4, so does S. We now use the alternative proof of Theorem 4.9 to find a subset of S that is a basis for R_4. Thus we form Equation (1),

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{e}_1' + a_4\mathbf{e}_2' + a_5\mathbf{e}_3' + a_6\mathbf{e}_4' = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix},$$

which leads to the homogeneous system

$$\begin{aligned} a_1 - a_2 + a_3 &= 0 \\ -a_2 + a_4 &= 0 \\ a_1 - a_2 + a_5 &= 0 \\ a_6 &= 0. \end{aligned}$$

Transforming the augmented matrix to reduced row echelon form, we get (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{cccccc|c} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{array}\right].$$

Since the leading 1's appear in columns 1, 2, 3, and 6, we conclude that $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{e}_1', \mathbf{e}_4'\}$ is a basis for R_4 containing $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$. ■

It can be shown (Exercise 41) that if W is a subspace of a finite-dimensional vector space V, then W is finite-dimensional and $\dim W \leq \dim V$.

As defined earlier, a given set S of vectors in a vector space V is a basis for V if it spans V and is linearly independent. However, if we are given the *additional* information that the dimension of V is n, we need verify only one of the two conditions. This is the content of the following theorem:

Theorem 4.12 Let V be an n-dimensional vector space.

(a) If $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ is a linearly independent set of vectors in V, then S is a basis for V.

(b) If $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ spans V, then S is a basis for V.

Proof

Exercise 45. ■

As a particular application of Theorem 4.12, we have the following: To determine whether a subset S of R^n (R_n) is a basis for R^n (R_n), first count the number of elements in S. If S has n elements, we can use either part (a) or part (b) of Theorem 4.12 to determine whether S is or is not a basis. If S does not have n elements, it is not a basis for R^n (R_n). (Why?) The same line of reasoning applies to any vector space or subspace whose *dimension is known*.

EXAMPLE 11 In Example 6, since $\dim R_3 = 3$ and the set S contains five vectors, we conclude by Theorem 4.12 that S is not a basis for R_3. In Example 3, since $\dim R_4 = 4$ and the set S contains four vectors, it is possible for S to be a basis for R_4. If S is linearly independent *or* spans R_4, it is a basis; otherwise, it is not a basis. Thus we need check only one of the conditions in Theorem 4.12, not both. ■

We now recall that if a set S of n vectors in R^n (R_n) is linearly independent, then S spans R^n (R_n), and conversely, if S spans R^n (R_n), then S is linearly independent. Thus the condition in Theorem 4.5 in Section 4.5 [that $\det(A) \neq 0$] is also necessary and sufficient for S to span R^n (R_n).

Theorem 4.13 Let S be a finite subset of the vector space V that spans V. A maximal independent subset T of S is a basis for V.

Proof

Exercise 46. ■

Key Terms

Basis of a vector space
Natural (standard) basis
Finite-dimensional vector space
Infinite-dimensional vector space
Dimension of a subspace
Maximal independent set
Minimal spanning set

4.6 Exercises

1. Which of the following sets of vectors are bases for R^2?

(a) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\3\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1\\-1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$ **(b)** $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}0\\0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1\\2\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}2\\4\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

(c) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\2\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}2\\-3\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}3\\2\end{bmatrix}\right\}$ **(d)** $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\3\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}-2\\6\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

2. Which of the following sets of vectors are bases for R^3?

(a) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\2\\0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\1\\-1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

(b) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\1\\-1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}2\\3\\4\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}4\\1\\-1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\1\\-1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

(c) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}3\\2\\2\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}-1\\2\\1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\1\\0\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

(d) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\0\\0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\2\\-1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}3\\4\\1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\1\\0\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

3. Which of the following sets of vectors are bases for R_4?

(a) $\{[1\ \ 0\ \ 0\ \ 1], [0\ \ 1\ \ 0\ \ 0], [1\ \ 1\ \ 1\ \ 1], [0\ \ 1\ \ 1\ \ 1]\}$

(b) $\{[1\ \ -1\ \ 0\ \ 2], [3\ \ -1\ \ 2\ \ 1], [1\ \ 0\ \ 0\ \ 1]\}$

(c) $\{[-2\ \ 4\ \ 6\ \ 4], [0\ \ 1\ \ 2\ \ 0], [-1\ \ 2\ \ 3\ \ 2], [-3\ \ 2\ \ 5\ \ 6], [-2\ \ -1\ \ 0\ \ 4]\}$

(d) $\{[0\ \ 0\ \ 1\ \ 1], [-1\ \ 1\ \ 1\ \ 2], [1\ \ 1\ \ 0\ \ 0], [2\ \ 1\ \ 2\ \ 1]\}$

4. Which of the following sets of vectors are bases for P_2?

(a) $\{-t^2+t+2, 2t^2+2t+3, 4t^2-1\}$

(b) $\{t^2+2t-1, 2t^2+3t-2\}$

(c) $\{t^2+1, 3t^2+2t+1, 6t^2+6t+3\}$

(d) $\{3t^2+2t+1, t^2+t+1, t^2+1\}$

5. Which of the following sets of vectors are bases for P_3?

(a) $\{t^3+2t^2+3t, 2t^3+1, 6t^3+8t^2+6t+4, t^3+2t^2+t+1\}$

(b) $\{t^3+t^2+1, t^3-1, t^3+t^2+t\}$

(c) $\{t^3+t^2+t+1, t^3+2t^2+t+3, 2t^3+t^2+3t+2, t^3+t^2+2t+2\}$

(d) $\{t^3-t, t^3+t^2+1, t-1\}$

6. Show that the set of matrices

$$\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1&1\\0&0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0&0\\1&1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1&0\\0&1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0&1\\1&1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$$

forms a basis for the vector space M_{22}.

In Exercises 7 and 8, determine which of the given subsets forms a basis for R^3. Express the vector

$$\begin{bmatrix}2\\1\\3\end{bmatrix}$$

as a linear combination of the vectors in each subset that is a basis.

7. (a) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\1\\1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1\\2\\3\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\1\\0\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

(b) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\2\\3\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}2\\1\\3\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\0\\0\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

8. (a) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}2\\1\\3\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1\\2\\1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1\\1\\4\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1\\5\\1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

(b) $\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\1\\2\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}2\\2\\0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}3\\4\\-1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$

In Exercises 9 and 10, determine which of the given subsets form a basis for P_2. Express $5t^2-3t+8$ as a linear combination of the vectors in each subset that is a basis.

9. (a) $\{t^2+t, t-1, t+1\}$ **(b)** $\{t^2+1, t-1\}$

10. (a) $\{t^2+t, t^2, t^2+1\}$ **(b)** $\{t^2+1, t^2-t+1\}$

11. Find a basis for the subspace W of R^3 spanned by

$$\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\2\\2\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}3\\2\\1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}11\\10\\7\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}7\\6\\4\end{bmatrix}\right\}.$$

What is the dimension of W?

12. Find a basis for the subspace W of R_4 spanned by the set of vectors

$$\{[1 \quad 1 \quad 0 \quad -1], [0 \quad 1 \quad 2 \quad 1], [1 \quad 0 \quad 1 \quad -1], [1 \quad 1 \quad -6 \quad -3], [-1 \quad -5 \quad 1 \quad 0]\}.$$

What is dim W?

13. Let W be the subspace of P_3 spanned by

$$\{t^3 + t^2 - 2t + 1, t^2 + 1, t^3 - 2t, 2t^3 + 3t^2 - 4t + 3\}.$$

Find a basis for W. What is the dimension of W?

14. Let

$$S = \left\{\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} -1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 \end{bmatrix}\right\}.$$

Find a basis for the subspace $W = \text{span } S$ of M_{22}.

15. Find all values of a for which

$$\{[a^2 \quad 0 \quad 1], [0 \quad a \quad 2], [1 \quad 0 \quad 1]\}$$

is a basis for R_3.

16. Find a basis for the subspace W of M_{33} consisting of all symmetric matrices.

17. Find a basis for the subspace of M_{33} consisting of all diagonal matrices.

18. Let W be the subspace of the space of all continuous real-valued functions spanned by $\{\cos^2 t, \sin^2 t, \cos 2t\}$. Find a basis for W. What is the dimension of W?

In Exercises 19 and 20, find a basis for the given subspaces of R^3 and R^4.

19. **(a)** All vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{bmatrix}$, where $b = a + c$

(b) All vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{bmatrix}$, where $b = a$

(c) All vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{bmatrix}$, where $2a + b - c = 0$

20. **(a)** All vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{bmatrix}$, where $a = 0$

(b) All vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} a+c \\ a-b \\ b+c \\ -a+b \end{bmatrix}$

(c) All vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{bmatrix}$, where $a - b + 5c = 0$

21. Find a basis for the subspace of P_2 consisting of all vectors of the form $at^2 + bt + c$, where $c = 2a - 3b$.

22. Find a basis for the subspace of P_3 consisting of all vectors of the form $at^3 - bt^2 + ct + d$, where $c = a - 2d$ and $b = 5a + 3d$.

In Exercises 23 and 24, find the dimensions of the given subspaces of R_4.

23. **(a)** All vectors of the form $[a \quad b \quad c \quad d]$, where $d = a + b$

(b) All vectors of the form $[a \quad b \quad c \quad d]$, where $c = a - b$ and $d = a + b$

24. **(a)** All vectors of the form $[a \quad b \quad c \quad d]$, where $a = b$

(b) All vectors of the form

$$[a + c \quad a - b \quad b + c \quad -a + b]$$

25. Find the dimensions of the subspaces of R^2 spanned by the vectors in Exercise 1.

26. Find the dimensions of the subspaces of R^3 spanned by the vectors in Exercise 2.

27. Find the dimensions of the subspaces of R_4 spanned by the vectors in Exercise 3.

28. Find a basis for R^3 that includes

(a) the vector $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$;

(b) the vectors $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$ and $\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$.

29. Find a basis for P_3 that includes the vectors $t^3 + t$ and $t^2 - t$.

30. Find a basis for M_{23}. What is the dimension of M_{23}? Generalize to M_{mn}.

31. Find the dimension of the subspace of P_2 consisting of all vectors of the form $at^2 + bt + c$, where $c = b - 2a$.

32. Find the dimension of the subspace of P_3 consisting of all vectors of the form $at^3 + bt^2 + ct + d$, where $b = 3a - 5d$ and $c = d + 4a$.

33. Give an example of a two-dimensional subspace of R^4.

34. Give an example of a two-dimensional subspace of P_3.

35. Prove that if $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ is a basis for a vector space V, then $\{c\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$, for $c \neq 0$, is also a basis for V.

36. Prove that the vector space P of all polynomials is not finite-dimensional. [*Hint*: Suppose that $\{p_1(t), p_2(t), \ldots, p_k(t)\}$ is a finite basis for P. Let $d_j =$ degree $p_j(t)$. Establish a contradiction.]

37. Let V be an n-dimensional vector space. Show that any $n + 1$ vectors in V form a linearly dependent set.

38. Prove Corollary 4.3.

39. Prove Corollary 4.4.

40. Prove Corollary 4.5.

41. Show that if W is a subspace of a finite-dimensional vector space V, then W is finite-dimensional and $\dim W \leq \dim V$.

42. Show that if W is a subspace of a finite-dimensional vector space V and $\dim W = \dim V$, then $W = V$.

43. Prove that the subspaces of R^3 are $\{\mathbf{0}\}$, R^3 itself, and any line or plane passing through the origin.

44. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be a set of nonzero vectors in a vector space V such that every vector in V can be written in one and only one way as a linear combination of the vectors in S. Prove that S is a basis for V.

45. Prove Theorem 4.12.

46. Prove Theorem 4.13.

47. Suppose that $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ is a basis for R^n. Show that if A is an $n \times n$ nonsingular matrix, then

$$\{A\mathbf{v}_1, A\mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, A\mathbf{v}_n\}$$

is also a basis for R^n. (*Hint*: See Exercise 24 in Section 4.5.)

48. Suppose that $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ is a linearly independent set of vectors in R^n and let A be a singular matrix. Prove or disprove that $\{A\mathbf{v}_1, A\mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, A\mathbf{v}_n\}$ is linearly independent.

49. Find a basis for the subspace W of all 3×3 matrices with trace equal to zero. What is $\dim W$?

4.7 Homogeneous Systems

In Example 12 in Section 2.2 we have seen how the solution of chemical balance equations requires the solution of a homogeneous linear system of equations. Indeed, homogeneous systems play a central role in linear algebra. This will be seen in Chapter 7, where the foundations of the subject are all integrated to solve one of the major problems occurring in a wide variety of applications. In this section we deal with several problems involving homogeneous systems that will arise in Chapter 7. Here we are able to focus our attention on these problems without being distracted by the additional material in Chapter 7.

Consider the homogeneous system

$$A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0},$$

where A is an $m \times n$ matrix. As we have already observed in Example 10 of Section 4.3, the set of all solutions to this homogeneous system is a subspace of R^n. An extremely important problem, which will occur repeatedly in Chapter 7, is that of finding a basis for this solution space. To find such a basis, we use the method of Gauss–Jordan reduction presented in Section 2.2. Thus we transform the augmented matrix $\left[\, A \mid \mathbf{0} \,\right]$ of the system to a matrix $\left[\, B \mid \mathbf{0} \,\right]$ in reduced row echelon form, where B has r nonzero rows, $1 \leq r \leq m$. Without loss of generality, we may assume that the leading 1's in the r nonzero rows occur in the first r

columns. If $r = n$, then

$$[B \mid \mathbf{0}] = \overbrace{\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & & & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}}^{n} \left.\begin{matrix} \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \end{matrix}\right\} \begin{matrix} r = n \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \end{matrix} \left.\begin{matrix} \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \end{matrix}\right\} m$$

and the only solution to $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ is the trivial one. The solution space has no basis, and its dimension is zero.

If $r < n$, then

$$[B \mid \mathbf{0}] = \overbrace{\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & b_{1\,r+1} & \cdots & b_{1n} & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & b_{2\,r+1} & \cdots & b_{2n} & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & \cdots & 0 & \vdots & & \vdots & \vdots \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & & & & \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 1 & b_{r\,r+1} & \cdots & b_{rn} & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & & \vdots & \vdots & & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}}^{n} \left.\begin{matrix} \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \end{matrix}\right\} r \left.\begin{matrix} \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \\ \end{matrix}\right\} m.$$

Solving for the unknowns corresponding to the leadings 1's, we have

$$\begin{aligned} x_1 &= -b_{1\,r+1}x_{r+1} - b_{1\,r+2}x_{r+2} - \cdots - b_{1n}x_n \\ x_2 &= -b_{2\,r+1}x_{r+1} - b_{2\,r+2}x_{r+2} - \cdots - b_{2n}x_n \\ &\vdots \\ x_r &= -b_{r\,r+1}x_{r+1} - b_{r\,r+2}x_{r+2} - \cdots - b_{rn}x_n, \end{aligned}$$

where $x_{r+1}, x_{r+2}, \ldots, x_n$ can be assigned arbitrary real values s_j, $j = 1, 2, \ldots, p$,

and $p = n - r$. Thus

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ \vdots \\ x_r \\ x_{r+1} \\ x_{r+2} \\ \vdots \\ x_n \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -b_{1\,r+1}s_1 - b_{1\,r+2}s_2 - \cdots - b_{1n}s_p \\ -b_{2\,r+1}s_1 - b_{2\,r+2}s_2 - \cdots - b_{2n}s_p \\ \vdots \\ -b_{r\,r+1}s_1 - b_{r\,r+2}s_2 - \cdots - b_{rn}s_p \\ s_1 \\ s_2 \\ \vdots \\ s_p \end{bmatrix}$$

$$= s_1 \begin{bmatrix} -b_{1\,r+1} \\ -b_{2\,r+1} \\ \vdots \\ -b_{r\,r+1} \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + s_2 \begin{bmatrix} -b_{1\,r+2} \\ -b_{2\,r+2} \\ \vdots \\ -b_{r\,r+2} \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + \cdots + s_p \begin{bmatrix} -b_{1n} \\ -b_{2n} \\ \vdots \\ -b_{rn} \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Since $s_1, s_2, \ldots, s_p$ can be assigned arbitrary real values, we make the following choices for these values:

$$\begin{array}{llll} s_1 = 1, & s_2 = 0, & \ldots, & s_p = 0, \\ s_1 = 0, & s_2 = 1, & \ldots, & s_p = 0, \\ & & \vdots & \\ s_1 = 0, & s_2 = 0, & \ldots, \quad s_{p-1} = 0, & s_p = 1. \end{array}$$

These yield the solutions

$$\mathbf{x}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} -b_{1\,r+1} \\ -b_{2\,r+1} \\ \vdots \\ -b_{r\,r+1} \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{x}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} -b_{1\,r+2} \\ -b_{2\,r+2} \\ \vdots \\ -b_{r\,r+2} \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \ldots, \quad \mathbf{x}_p = \begin{bmatrix} -b_{1n} \\ -b_{2n} \\ \vdots \\ -b_{rn} \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Since

$$\mathbf{x} = s_1\mathbf{x}_1 + s_2\mathbf{x}_2 + \cdots + s_p\mathbf{x}_p,$$

we see that $\{\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{x}_p\}$ spans the solution space of $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$. Moreover, if we form the equation

$$a_1\mathbf{x}_1 + a_2\mathbf{x}_2 + \cdots + a_p\mathbf{x}_p = \mathbf{0},$$

its coefficient matrix is the matrix whose columns are $\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{x}_p$. If we look at rows $r + 1, r + 2, \ldots, n$ of this matrix, we readily see that

$$a_1 = a_2 = \cdots = a_p = 0.$$

Hence $\{\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{x}_p\}$ is linearly independent and forms a basis for the solution space of $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ (the null space of A).

The procedure for finding a basis for the solution space of a homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$, or the null space of A, where A is $m \times n$, is as follows:

Step 1. Solve the given homogeneous system by Gauss–Jordan reduction. If the solution contains no arbitrary constants, then the solution space is $\{\mathbf{0}\}$, which has no basis; the dimension of the solution space is zero.

Step 2. If the solution $\mathbf{x}$ contains arbitrary constants, write $\mathbf{x}$ as a linear combination of vectors $\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{x}_p$ with $s_1, s_2, \ldots, s_p$ as coefficients:

$$\mathbf{x} = s_1\mathbf{x}_1 + s_2\mathbf{x}_2 + \cdots + s_p\mathbf{x}_p.$$

Step 3. The set of vectors $\{\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{x}_p\}$ is a basis for the solution space of $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$; the dimension of the solution space is p.

Remark In Step 1, suppose that the matrix in reduced row echelon form to which $\left[\begin{array}{c|c} A & \mathbf{0} \end{array}\right]$ has been transformed has r nonzero rows (also, r leading 1's). Then $p = n - r$. That is, the dimension of the solution space is $n - r$. Moreover, a solution $\mathbf{x}$ to $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ has $n - r$ arbitrary constants.

If A is an $m \times n$ matrix, we refer to the dimension of the null space of A as the **nullity** of A, denoted by nullity A.

EXAMPLE 1

Find a basis for and the dimension of the solution space W of the homogeneous system

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 4 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 6 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \\ x_4 \\ x_5 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Solution

Step 1. To solve the given system by the Gauss–Jordan reduction method, we transform the augmented matrix to reduced row echelon form, obtaining (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccccc|c} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right].$$

Every solution is of the form (verify)

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} -2s - t \\ -2s + t \\ s \\ -2t \\ t \end{bmatrix}, \tag{1}$$

where s and t are any real numbers.

Step 2. Every vector in W is a solution and is therefore of the form given by Equation (1). We can thus write every vector in W as

$$\mathbf{x} = s \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ -2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + t \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ -2 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}. \tag{2}$$

Since s and t can take on any values, we first let $s = 1$, $t = 0$, and then let $s = 0$, $t = 1$, in Equation (2), obtaining as solutions

$$\mathbf{x}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ -2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{x}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ -2 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Step 3. The set $\{\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}_2\}$ is a basis for W. Moreover, $\dim W = 2$. ■

The following example illustrates a type of problem that we will be solving often in Chapter 7:

EXAMPLE 2 Find a basis for the solution space of the homogeneous system $(\lambda I_3 - A)\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ for $\lambda = -2$ and

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} -3 & 0 & -1 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Solution

We form $-2I_3 - A$:

$$-2 \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} - \begin{bmatrix} -3 & 0 & -1 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \\ -2 & -3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

This last matrix is the coefficient matrix of the homogeneous system, so we transform the augmented matrix

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & -3 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right]$$

to reduced row echelon form, obtaining (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -\frac{2}{3} & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right].$$

Every solution is then of the form (verify)

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} -s \\ \frac{2}{3}s \\ s \end{bmatrix},$$

where s is any real number. Then every vector in the solution can be written as

$$\mathbf{x} = s \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ \frac{2}{3} \\ 1 \end{bmatrix},$$

so $\left\{ \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ \frac{2}{3} \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$ is a basis for the solution space. ■

Another important problem that we have to solve often in Chapter 7 is illustrated in the following example:

EXAMPLE 3

Find all real numbers λ such that the homogeneous system $(\lambda I_2 - A)\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ has a nontrivial solution for

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 5 \\ 3 & -1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Solution

We form $\lambda I_2 - A$:

$$\lambda \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} - \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 5 \\ 3 & -1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} \lambda - 1 & -5 \\ -3 & \lambda + 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

The homogeneous system $(\lambda I_2 - A)\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ is then

$$\begin{bmatrix} \lambda - 1 & -5 \\ -3 & \lambda + 1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

It follows from Corollary 3.1 in Section 3.2 that this homogeneous system has a nontrivial solution if and only if

$$\det\left(\begin{bmatrix} \lambda - 1 & -5 \\ -3 & \lambda + 1 \end{bmatrix} \right) = 0,$$

that is, if and only if

$$\begin{aligned}(\lambda - 1)(\lambda + 1) - 15 &= 0\\ \lambda^2 - 16 &= 0\\ \lambda = 4 \quad \text{or} \quad \lambda &= -4.\end{aligned}$$

Thus, when $\lambda = 4$ or -4, the homogeneous system $(\lambda I_2 - A)\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ for the given matrix A has a nontrivial solution. ■

■ Relationship between Nonhomogeneous Linear Systems and Homogeneous Systems

We have already noted in Section 4.3 that if A is $m \times n$, then the set of all solutions to the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$, $\mathbf{b} \neq \mathbf{0}$, is not a subspace of R^n. The following example illustrates a geometric relationship between the set of all solutions to the nonhomogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$, $\mathbf{b} \neq \mathbf{0}$, and the associated homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$.

EXAMPLE 4

Consider the linear system

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -3 \\ 2 & 4 & -6 \\ 3 & 6 & -9 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \\ 6 \end{bmatrix}.$$

The set of all solutions to this linear system consists of all vectors of the form

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 - 2r + 3s \\ r \\ s \end{bmatrix}$$

(verify), which can be written as

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + r \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + s \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

The set of all solutions to the associated homogeneous system is the two-dimensional subspace of R^3 consisting of all vectors of the form

$$\mathbf{x} = r \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + s \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

This subspace is a plane Π_1 passing through the origin; the set of all solutions to the given nonhomogeneous system is a plane Π_2 that does not pass through the origin and is obtained by shifting Π_1 parallel to itself. This situation is illustrated in Figure 4.28. ■

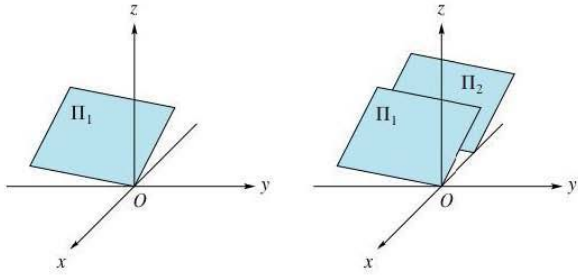


FIGURE 4.28 Π_1 is the solution space to $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$. Π_2 is the set of all solutions to $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$.

The following result, which is important in the study of differential equations, was presented in Section 2.2 and its proof left to Exercise 29(b) of that section.

If $\mathbf{x}_p$ is a particular solution to the nonhomogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$, $\mathbf{b} \neq \mathbf{0}$, and $\mathbf{x}_h$ is a solution to the associated homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$, then $\mathbf{x}_p + \mathbf{x}_h$ is a solution to the given system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$. Moreover, every solution $\mathbf{x}$ to the nonhomogeneous linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ can be written as $\mathbf{x}_p + \mathbf{x}_h$, where $\mathbf{x}_p$ is a particular solution to the given nonhomogeneous system and $\mathbf{x}_h$ is a solution to the associated homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$. Thus, in Example 4,

$$\mathbf{x}_p = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{x}_h = r \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + s \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix},$$

where r and s are any real numbers.

Key Terms

Homogeneous system
Solution (null) space
Dimension
Nullity
Arbitrary constants

4.7 Exercises

1. Let

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 2 & -1 & -2 \\ -4 & 2 & 4 \\ -8 & 4 & 8 \end{bmatrix}.$$

(a) Find the set of all solutions to $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$.

(b) Express each solution as a linear combination of two vectors in R^3.

(c) Sketch these vectors in a three-dimensional coordinate system to show that the solution space is a plane through the origin.

2. Let

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & -2 \\ -2 & -2 & 4 \\ -1 & -1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

(a) Find the set of all solutions to $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$.

(b) Express each solution as a linear combination of two vectors in R^3.

(c) Sketch these vectors in a three-dimensional coordinate system to show that the solution space is a plane through the origin.

In Exercises 3 through 10, find a basis for and the dimension of the solution space of the given homogeneous system.

3. $\begin{aligned} x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4 &= 0 \\ 2x_1 + x_2 - x_3 + x_4 &= 0 \end{aligned}$

4. $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & -2 & 1 \\ 3 & -3 & 2 & 0 & 2 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \\ x_4 \\ x_5 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$

5. $\begin{aligned} x_1 + 2x_2 - x_3 + 3x_4 &= 0 \\ 2x_1 + 2x_2 - x_3 + 2x_4 &= 0 \\ x_1 + 3x_3 + 3x_4 &= 0 \end{aligned}$

6. $\begin{aligned} x_1 - x_2 + 2x_3 + 3x_4 + 4x_5 &= 0 \\ -x_1 + 2x_2 + 3x_3 + 4x_4 + 5x_5 &= 0 \\ x_1 - x_2 + 3x_3 + 5x_4 + 6x_5 &= 0 \\ 3x_1 - 4x_2 + x_3 + 2x_4 + 3x_5 &= 0 \end{aligned}$

7. $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 4 & 3 & 3 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \\ x_4 \\ x_5 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$

8. $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 3 & 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$

9. $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 2 & -2 & -1 \\ 2 & 6 & 2 & -4 & 1 \\ 1 & 4 & 0 & -3 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \\ x_4 \\ x_5 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$

10. $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -3 & -2 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & -4 & 3 & 3 & 4 \\ -2 & -4 & 6 & 4 & -3 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 5 & 1 & 9 \\ 1 & 2 & -3 & -2 & 0 & 7 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \\ x_4 \\ x_5 \\ x_6 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 11 and 12, find a basis for the null space of each given matrix A.

11. $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 2 & 3 & 2 & 0 \\ 3 & 4 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$

12. $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 3 \\ 5 & -1 & 3 & 0 & 3 \\ 4 & -2 & 5 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 3 & -4 & -5 & 6 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 13 through 16, find a basis for the solution space of the homogeneous system $(\lambda I_n - A)\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ for the given scalar λ and given matrix A.

13. $\lambda = 1$, $A = \begin{bmatrix} 3 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$

14. $\lambda = -3$, $A = \begin{bmatrix} -4 & -3 \\ 2 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$

15. $\lambda = 1$, $A = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$

16. $\lambda = 3$, $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & -2 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 17 through 20, find all real numbers λ such that the homogeneous system $(\lambda I_n - A)\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ has a nontrivial solution.

17. $A = \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 3 \\ 2 & -3 \end{bmatrix}$ **18.** $A = \begin{bmatrix} 3 & 0 \\ 2 & -2 \end{bmatrix}$

19. $A = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$

20. $A = \begin{bmatrix} -2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -2 & -3 \\ 0 & 4 & 5 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 21 and 22, determine the solution to the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ and write it in the form $\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{x}_p + \mathbf{x}_h$.

21. $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 4 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{b} = \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ -4 \end{bmatrix}$

22. $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 1 & -3 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{b} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$

23. Let $S = \{\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{x}_k\}$ be a set of solutions to a homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$. Show that every vector in span S is a solution to $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$.

24. Show that if the $n \times n$ coefficient matrix A of the homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ has a row or column of zeros, then $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ has a nontrivial solution.

25. **(a)** Show that the zero matrix is the only 3×3 matrix whose null space has dimension 3.

(b) Let A be a nonzero 3×3 matrix and suppose that $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ has a nontrivial solution. Show that the dimension of the null space of A is either 1 or 2.

26. Matrices A and B are $m \times n$, and their reduced row echelon forms are the same. What is the relationship between the null space of A and the null space of B?

4.8 Coordinates and Isomorphisms

Coordinates

If V is an n-dimensional vector space, we know that V has a basis S with n vectors in it; thus far we have not paid much attention to the order of the vectors in S. However, in the discussion of this section we speak of an **ordered basis** $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ for V; thus $S_1 = \{\mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_1, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ is a different ordered basis for V.

If $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ is an ordered basis for the n-dimensional vector space V, then by Theorem 4.8 every vector $\mathbf{v}$ in V can be uniquely expressed in the form

$$\mathbf{v} = a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n,$$

where $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_n$ are real numbers. We shall refer to

$$[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ \vdots \\ a_n \end{bmatrix}$$

as the **coordinate vector of v with respect to the ordered basis S**. The entries of $[\mathbf{v}]_S$ are called the **coordinates of v with respect to S**.

EXAMPLE 1

Consider the vector space P_1 and let $S = \{t, 1\}$ be an ordered basis for P_1. If $\mathbf{v} = p(t) = 5t - 2$, then $[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} 5 \\ -2 \end{bmatrix}$ is the coordinate vector of $\mathbf{v}$ with respect to the ordered basis S. On the other hand, if $T = \{t+1, t-1\}$ is the ordered basis, we have $5t - 2 = \frac{3}{2}(t+1) + \frac{7}{2}(t-1)$, which implies that

$$[\mathbf{v}]_T = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{3}{2} \\ \frac{7}{2} \end{bmatrix}. \quad \blacksquare$$

Notice that the coordinate vector $[\mathbf{v}]_S$ depends upon the order in which the vectors in S are listed; a change in the order of this listing may change the coordinates of $\mathbf{v}$ with respect to S.

EXAMPLE 2

Consider the vector space R^3 and let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$ be an ordered basis for R^3, where

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

If

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ -5 \end{bmatrix},$$

compute $[\mathbf{v}]_S$.

Solution

To find $[\mathbf{v}]_S$, we need to find the constants a_1, a_2, and a_3 such that

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{v},$$

which leads to the linear system whose augmented matrix is (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -5 \end{array}\right], \tag{1}$$

or equivalently,

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} \mathbf{v}_1 & \mathbf{v}_2 & \mathbf{v}_3 & \mathbf{v} \end{array}\right].$$

Transforming the matrix in (1) to reduced row echelon form, we obtain the solution (verify)

$$a_1 = 3, \quad a_2 = -1, \quad a_3 = -2,$$

so

$$[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ -1 \\ -2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

■

In Example 5 of Section 1.7 we showed that the matrix transformation $f: R^2 \to R^2$ defined by $f(\mathbf{v}) = A\mathbf{v}$, where

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} h & 0 \\ 0 & k \end{bmatrix},$$

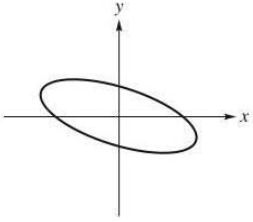


FIGURE 4.29

with h and k nonzero, maps the unit circle to an ellipse centered at the origin. (See Figure 1.20 in Section 1.7.) Using techniques from Chapter 8, we can show that for any 2×2 matrix A with real entries, the matrix transformation $f: R^2 \to R^2$ defined by $f(\mathbf{v}) = A\mathbf{v}$ maps the unit circle into an ellipse centered at the origin. With a general 2×2 matrix the ellipse may be rotated so that its major and minor axes are not parallel to the coordinate axes. (See Figure 4.29.)

Any point on the unit circle has coordinates $x = \cos(\theta)$, $y = \sin(\theta)$, and the vector $\mathbf{v}$ from the origin to (x, y) is a linear combination of the natural basis for R^2; that is,

$$\mathbf{v} = \cos(\theta)\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + \sin(\theta)\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

The coordinates of the image of the point (x, y) by the matrix transformation f are computed from

$$f(\mathbf{v}) = A\mathbf{v} = A\begin{bmatrix} \cos(\theta) \\ \sin(\theta) \end{bmatrix}.$$

If we take n successive images of the unit circle, using the matrix transformation f, then the coordinates of the point (x, y) are computed from the matrix product

$$A^n \begin{bmatrix} \cos(\theta) \\ \sin(\theta) \end{bmatrix}$$

and can be quite complicated expressions. However, a change of basis that uses particular properties of the matrix A can greatly simplify the computation of such coordinates. We illustrate this in Example 3. In Chapter 7 we explain how to determine such bases.

EXAMPLE 3

Let the matrix transformation $f: R^2 \to R^2$ be defined by $f(\mathbf{v}) = A\mathbf{v}$, where

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 0.97 & 0.12 \\ 0.03 & 0.88 \end{bmatrix}.$$

The image of the unit circle by this matrix transformation is shown in Figure 4.30.

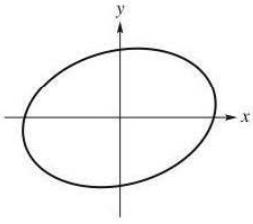


FIGURE 4.30

Let

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Observe that

$$A\mathbf{v}_1 = \mathbf{v}_1 \quad \text{and} \quad A\mathbf{v}_2 = 0.85\mathbf{v}_2;$$

furthermore, that $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$ is a linearly independent set (verify) and hence a basis for R^2. (Explain.) It follows that a vector $\mathbf{v}$ from the origin to a point $(x, y) = (\cos(\theta), \sin(\theta))$ on the unit circle is a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$, and we have (verify)

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} \cos(\theta) \\ \sin(\theta) \end{bmatrix} = \frac{\cos(\theta) + \sin(\theta)}{5}\mathbf{v}_1 + \frac{\cos(\theta) - 4\sin(\theta)}{5}\mathbf{v}_2.$$

Then $f(\mathbf{v})$ is given by

$$\begin{aligned} A\mathbf{v} &= \frac{\cos(\theta) + \sin(\theta)}{5}A\mathbf{v}_1 + \frac{\cos(\theta) - 4\sin(\theta)}{5}A\mathbf{v}_2 \\ &= \frac{\cos(\theta) + \sin(\theta)}{5}\mathbf{v}_1 + \frac{\cos(\theta) - 4\sin(\theta)}{5}0.85\mathbf{v}_2, \end{aligned}$$

so the coordinates of $f(\mathbf{v})$ with respect to the $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$ basis are

$$\left(\frac{\cos(\theta) + \sin(\theta)}{5}, \frac{\cos(\theta) - 4\sin(\theta)}{5}0.85\right).$$

The coordinates of the image (x, y) on the unit circle with respect to the $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$ basis after n applications of the matrix transformation f are given by

$$\left(\frac{\cos(\theta) + \sin(\theta)}{5}, \frac{\cos(\theta) - 4\sin(\theta)}{5}(0.85)^n\right),$$

which is quite easy to compute, since we need not perform successive matrix products. ■

Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be an ordered basis for a vector space V and let $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{w}$ be vectors in V such that

$$[\mathbf{v}]_S = [\mathbf{w}]_S.$$

We shall now show that $\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{w}$. Let

$$[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ \vdots \\ a_n \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad [\mathbf{w}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} b_1 \\ b_2 \\ \vdots \\ b_n \end{bmatrix}.$$

Since $[\mathbf{v}]_S = [\mathbf{w}]_S$, we have

$$a_i = b_i, \qquad i = 1, 2, \ldots, n.$$

Then

$$\mathbf{v} = a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{w} &= b_1\mathbf{v}_1 + b_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + b_n\mathbf{v}_n \\ &= a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n \\ &= \mathbf{v} \end{aligned}$$

Of course, if $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{w}$ are vectors in the vector space V and $\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{w}$, then $[\mathbf{v}]_S = [\mathbf{w}]_S$, where S is an ordered basis for V.

Thus we have that there is a one-to-one correspondence between a vector $\mathbf{v}$ of a vector space V and the coordinate vector $[\mathbf{v}]_S$ of $\mathbf{v}$ with respect to a fixed ordered basis S for V.

The choice of an ordered basis and the consequent assignment of a coordinate vector for every $\mathbf{v}$ in V enables us to "picture" the vector space. We illustrate this notion by using Example 1. Choose a fixed point O in the plane R^2, and draw any two arrows $\mathbf{w}_1$ and $\mathbf{w}_2$ from O that depict the basis vectors t and 1 in the ordered basis $S = \{t, 1\}$ for P_1 (see Figure 4.31). The directions of $\mathbf{w}_1$ and $\mathbf{w}_2$ determine two lines, which we call the x_1- and x_2-axes, respectively. The positive direction on the x_1-axis is in the direction of $\mathbf{w}_1$; the negative direction on the x_1-axis is

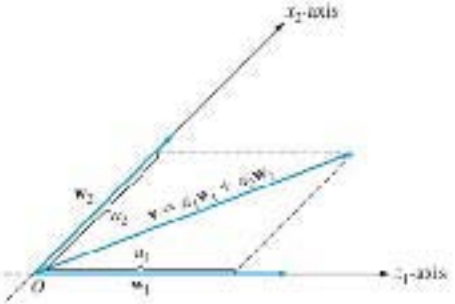


FIGURE 4.31

along $-\mathbf{w}_1$. Similarly, the positive direction on the x_2-axis is in the direction of $\mathbf{w}_2$; the negative direction on the x_2-axis is along $-\mathbf{w}_2$. The lengths of $\mathbf{w}_1$ and $\mathbf{w}_2$ determine the scales on the x_1- and x_2-axes, respectively. If $\mathbf{v}$ is a vector in P_1, we can write $\mathbf{v}$, uniquely, as $\mathbf{v} = a_1\mathbf{w}_1 + a_2\mathbf{w}_2$. We now mark off a segment of length $|a_1|$ on the x_1-axis (in the positive direction if a_1 is positive and in the negative direction if a_1 is negative) and draw a line through the endpoint of this segment parallel to $\mathbf{w}_2$. Similarly, mark off a segment of length $|a_2|$ on the x_2-axis (in the positive direction if a_2 is positive and in the negative direction if a_2 is negative) and draw a line through the endpoint of this segment parallel to $\mathbf{w}_1$. We draw a directed line segment from O to the point of intersection of these two lines. This directed line segment represents $\mathbf{v}$.

■ Isomorphisms

If $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{w}$ are vectors in an n-dimensional vector space V with an ordered basis $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$, then we can write $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{w}$, uniquely, as

$$\mathbf{v} = a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n, \quad \mathbf{w} = b_1\mathbf{v}_1 + b_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + b_n\mathbf{v}_n.$$

Thus with $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{w}$ we associate $[\mathbf{v}]_S$ and $[\mathbf{w}]_S$, respectively, elements in R^n:

$$\mathbf{v} \to [\mathbf{v}]_S$$
$$\mathbf{w} \to [\mathbf{w}]_S.$$

The sum $\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w} = (a_1 + b_1)\mathbf{v}_1 + (a_2 + b_2)\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + (a_n + b_n)\mathbf{v}_n$, which means that with $\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}$ we associate the vector

$$[\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 + b_1 \\ a_2 + b_2 \\ \vdots \\ a_n + b_n \end{bmatrix} = [\mathbf{v}]_S + [\mathbf{w}]_S.$$

Therefore,

$$\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w} \to [\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}]_S = [\mathbf{v}]_S + [\mathbf{w}]_S.$$

That is, when we add v and $\mathbf{w}$ in V, we add their associated coordinate vectors $[\mathbf{v}]_S$ and $[\mathbf{w}]_S$ to obtain the coordinate vector $[\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}]_S$ in R^n associated with $\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}$.

Similarly, if c is a real number, then

$$c\mathbf{v} = (ca_1)\mathbf{v}_1 + (ca_2)\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + (ca_n)\mathbf{v}_n,$$

which implies that

$$[c\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} ca_1 \\ ca_2 \\ \vdots \\ ca_n \end{bmatrix} = c[\mathbf{v}]_S.$$

Therefore,

$$c\mathbf{v} \to [c\mathbf{v}]_S = c[\mathbf{v}]_S,$$

and thus when $\mathbf{v}$ is multiplied by a scalar c, we multiply $[\mathbf{v}]_S$ by c to obtain the coordinate vector in R^n associated with $c\mathbf{v}$.

This discussion suggests that, from an algebraic point of view, V and R^n behave rather similarly. We now clarify this notion.

Let L be a function mapping a vector space V into a vector space W. Recall that L is **one-to-one** if $L(\mathbf{v}_1) = L(\mathbf{v}_2)$, for $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\mathbf{v}_2$ in V, implies that $\mathbf{v}_1 = \mathbf{v}_2$. Also, L is **onto** if for each $\mathbf{w}$ in W there is at least one $\mathbf{v}$ in V for which $L(\mathbf{v}) = \mathbf{w}$.* Thus the mapping $L: R^3 \to R^2$ defined by

$$L\left(\begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ a_3 \end{bmatrix}\right) = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 + a_2 \\ a_1 \end{bmatrix}$$

is onto. To see this, suppose that $\mathbf{w} = \begin{bmatrix} b_1 \\ b_2 \end{bmatrix}$; we seek $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ a_3 \end{bmatrix}$ such that

$$L(\mathbf{v}) = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 + a_2 \\ a_1 \end{bmatrix} = \mathbf{w} = \begin{bmatrix} b_1 \\ b_2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Thus we obtain the solution: $a_1 = b_2$, $a_2 = b_1 - b_2$, and a_3 is arbitrary. However, L is not one-to-one, for if $\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$ and $\mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}$, then

$$L(\mathbf{v}_1) = L(\mathbf{v}_2) = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{but} \quad \mathbf{v}_1 \neq \mathbf{v}_2.$$

DEFINITION 4.13 Let V be a real vector space with operations $\oplus$ and $\odot$, and let W be a real vector space with operations $\boxplus$ and $\boxdot$. A one-to-one function L mapping V onto W is called an **isomorphism** (from the Greek *isos*, meaning "the same," and *morphos*, meaning "structure") of V onto W if

(a) $L(\mathbf{v} \oplus \mathbf{w}) = L(\mathbf{v}) \boxplus L(\mathbf{w})$ for $\mathbf{v}$, $\mathbf{w}$ in V;

(b) $L(c \odot \mathbf{v}) = c \boxdot L(\mathbf{v})$ for $\mathbf{v}$ in V, c a real number.

In this case we say that ***V* is isomorphic to *W***.

It also follows from Definition 4.13 that if L is an isomorphism of V onto W, then

$$L(a_1 \odot \mathbf{v}_1 \oplus a_2 \odot \mathbf{v}_2 \oplus \cdots \oplus a_k \odot \mathbf{v}_k) = a_1 \boxdot L(\mathbf{v}_1) \boxplus a_2 \boxdot L(\mathbf{v}_2) \boxplus \cdots \boxplus a_k \boxdot L(\mathbf{v}_k),$$

where $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k$ are vectors in V and $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_k$ are scalars [see Exercise 27(c)].

Remark A function L mapping a vector space V into a vector space W satisfying properties (a) and (b) of Definition 4.13 is called a linear transformation. These functions will be studied in depth in Chapter 6. Thus an isomorphism of a vector

*See Appendix A for further discussion of one-to-one and onto functions.

space V onto a vector space W is a linear transformation that is one-to-one and onto.

As a result of Theorem 4.15, to follow, we can replace the expressions "V is isomorphic to W" and "W is isomorphic to V" by "V and W are isomorphic."

Isomorphic vector spaces differ only in the nature of their elements; their algebraic properties are identical. That is, if the vector spaces V and W are isomorphic, under the isomorphism L, then for each $\mathbf{v}$ in V there is a unique $\mathbf{w}$ in W so that $L(\mathbf{v}) = \mathbf{w}$ and, conversely, for each $\mathbf{w}$ in W there is a unique $\mathbf{v}$ in V so that $\mathbf{w} = L(\mathbf{v})$. If we now replace each element of V by its image under L and replace the operations $\oplus$ and $\odot$ by $\boxplus$ and $\boxdot$, respectively, we get precisely W. The most important example of isomorphic vector spaces is given in the following theorem:

Theorem 4.14 If V is an n-dimensional real vector space, then V is isomorphic to R^n.

Proof

Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be an ordered basis for V, and let $L: V \to R^n$ be defined by

$$L(\mathbf{v}) = [\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ \vdots \\ a_n \end{bmatrix},$$

where $\mathbf{v} = a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n$.

We show that L is an isomorphism. First, L is one-to-one. Let

$$[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ \vdots \\ a_n \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad [\mathbf{w}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} b_1 \\ b_2 \\ \vdots \\ b_n \end{bmatrix}$$

and suppose that $L(\mathbf{v}) = L(\mathbf{w})$. Then $[\mathbf{v}]_S = [\mathbf{w}]_S$, and from our earlier remarks it follows that $\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{w}$.

Next, L is onto, for if $\mathbf{w} = \begin{bmatrix} b_1 \\ b_2 \\ \vdots \\ b_n \end{bmatrix}$ is a given vector in R^n and we let

$$\mathbf{v} = b_1\mathbf{v}_1 + b_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + b_n\mathbf{v}_n,$$

then $L(\mathbf{v}) = \mathbf{w}$.

Finally, L satisfies Definition 4.13(a) and (b). Let $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{w}$ be vectors in V such that $[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ \vdots \\ a_n \end{bmatrix}$ and $[\mathbf{w}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} b_1 \\ b_2 \\ \vdots \\ b_n \end{bmatrix}$. Then

$$L(\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}) = [\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}]_S = [\mathbf{v}]_S + [\mathbf{w}]_S = L(\mathbf{v}) + L(\mathbf{w})$$

and

$$L(c\mathbf{v}) = \left[c\mathbf{v}\right]_S = c\left[\mathbf{v}\right]_S = cL(\mathbf{v}),$$

as we saw before. Hence V and R^n are isomorphic. ■

Another example of isomorphism is given by the vector spaces discussed in the review section at the beginning of this chapter: R^2, the vector space of directed line segments emanating from a point in the plane and the vector space of all ordered pairs of real numbers. There is a corresponding isomorphism for R^3.

Some important properties of isomorphisms are given in Theorem 4.15.

Theorem 4.15 **(a)** Every vector space V is isomorphic to itself.

(b) If V is isomorphic to W, then W is isomorphic to V.

(c) If U is isomorphic to V and V is isomorphic to W, then U is isomorphic to W.

Proof

Exercise 28. [Parts (a) and (c) are not difficult to show; (b) is slightly harder and will essentially be proved in Theorem 6.7.] ■

The following theorem shows that all vector spaces of the same dimension are, algebraically speaking, alike, and conversely, that isomorphic vector spaces have the same dimensions:

Theorem 4.16 Two finite-dimensional vector spaces are isomorphic if and only if their dimensions are equal.

Proof

Let V and W be n-dimensional vector spaces. Then V and R^n are isomorphic and W and R^n are isomorphic. From Theorem 4.15 it follows that V and W are isomorphic.

Conversely, let V and W be isomorphic finite-dimensional vector spaces; let $L: V \to W$ be an isomorphism. Assume that $\dim V = n$, and let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be a basis for V.

We now prove that the set $T = \{L(\mathbf{v}_1), L(\mathbf{v}_2), \ldots, L(\mathbf{v}_n)\}$ is a basis for W. First, T spans W. If $\mathbf{w}$ is any vector in W, then $\mathbf{w} = L(\mathbf{v})$ for some $\mathbf{v}$ in V. Since S is a basis for V, $\mathbf{v} = a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n$, where the a_i are uniquely determined real numbers, so

$$\begin{aligned} L(\mathbf{v}) &= L(a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n) \\ &= L(a_1\mathbf{v}_1) + L(a_2\mathbf{v}_2) + \cdots + L(a_n\mathbf{v}_n) \\ &= a_1L(\mathbf{v}_1) + a_2L(\mathbf{v}_2) + \cdots + a_nL(\mathbf{v}_n). \end{aligned}$$

Thus T spans W.

Now suppose that

$$a_1L(\mathbf{v}_1) + a_2L(\mathbf{v}_2) + \cdots + a_nL(\mathbf{v}_n) = \mathbf{0}_W.$$

Then $L(a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n) = \mathbf{0}_W$. From Exercise 29(a), $L(\mathbf{0}_V) = \mathbf{0}_W$. Since L is one-to-one, we get $a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_n\mathbf{v}_n = \mathbf{0}_V$. Since S is linearly independent, we conclude that $a_1 = a_2 = \cdots = a_n = 0$, which means that T is linearly independent. Hence T is a basis for W, and $\dim W = n$. ■

As a consequence of Theorem 4.16, the spaces R^n and R^m are isomorphic if and only if $n = m$. (See Exercise 30.) Moreover, the vector spaces P_n and R^{n+1} are isomorphic. (See Exercise 32.)

We can now establish the converse of Theorem 4.14, as follows:

Corollary 4.6 If V is a finite-dimensional vector space that is isomorphic to R^n, then $\dim V = n$.

Proof

This result follows from Theorem 4.16. ■

If $L: V \to W$ is an isomorphism, then since L is a one-to-one onto mapping, it has an inverse L^{-1}. (This will be shown in Theorem 6.7.) It can be shown that $L^{-1}: W \to V$ is also an isomorphism. (This will also be essentially shown in Theorem 6.7.) Moreover, if $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ is a basis for V, then $T = L(S) = \{L(\mathbf{v}_1), L(\mathbf{v}_2), \ldots, L(\mathbf{v}_n)\}$ is a basis for W, as we have seen in the proof of Theorem 4.16.

As an example of isomorphism, we note that the vector spaces P_3, R_4, and R^4 are all isomorphic, since each has dimension four.

We have shown in this section that the idea of a finite-dimensional vector space, which at first seemed fairly abstract, is not so mysterious. In fact, such a vector space does not differ much from R^n in its algebraic behavior.

■ Transition Matrices

We now look at the relationship between two coordinate vectors for the same vector $\mathbf{v}$ with respect to different bases. Thus, let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ and $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{w}_n\}$ be two ordered bases for the n-dimensional vector space V. If $\mathbf{v}$ is any vector in V, then

$$\mathbf{v} = c_1\mathbf{w}_1 + c_2\mathbf{w}_2 + \cdots + c_n\mathbf{w}_n \quad \text{and} \quad [\mathbf{v}]_T = \begin{bmatrix} c_1 \\ c_2 \\ \vdots \\ c_n \end{bmatrix}.$$

Then

$$\begin{aligned} [\mathbf{v}]_S &= [c_1\mathbf{w}_1 + c_2\mathbf{w}_2 + \cdots + c_n\mathbf{w}_n]_S \\ &= [c_1\mathbf{w}_1]_S + [c_2\mathbf{w}_2]_S + \cdots + [c_n\mathbf{w}_n]_S \\ &= c_1[\mathbf{w}_1]_S + c_2[\mathbf{w}_2]_S + \cdots + c_n[\mathbf{w}_n]_S. \end{aligned} \tag{2}$$

Let the coordinate vector of $\mathbf{w}_j$ with respect to S be denoted by

$$[\mathbf{w}_j]_S = \begin{bmatrix} a_{1j} \\ a_{2j} \\ \vdots \\ a_{nj} \end{bmatrix}.$$

The $n \times n$ matrix whose jth column is $[\mathbf{w}_j]_S$ is called the **transition matrix from the T-basis to the S-basis** and is denoted by $P_{S \leftarrow T}$. Then Equation (2) can

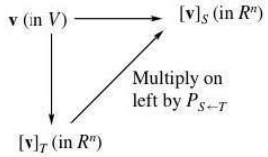


FIGURE 4.32

be written in matrix form as

$$[\mathbf{v}]_S = P_{S\leftarrow T}[\mathbf{v}]_T. \tag{3}$$

Thus, to find the transition matrix $P_{S\leftarrow T}$ from the T-basis to the S-basis, we first compute the coordinate vector of each member of the T-basis with respect to the S-basis. Forming a matrix with these vectors as columns arranged in their natural order, we obtain the transition matrix. Equation (3) says that the coordinate vector of $\mathbf{v}$ with respect to the basis S is the transition matrix $P_{S\leftarrow T}$ times the coordinate vector of $\mathbf{v}$ with respect to the basis T. Figure 4.32 illustrates Equation (3).

EXAMPLE 4

Let V be R^3 and let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$ and $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \mathbf{w}_3\}$ be ordered bases for R^3, where

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

and

$$\mathbf{w}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 6 \\ 3 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{w}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ -1 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{w}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 5 \\ 5 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

(a) Compute the transition matrix $P_{S\leftarrow T}$ from the T-basis to the S-basis.

(b) Verify Equation (3) for $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ -9 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix}$.

Solution

(a) To compute $P_{S\leftarrow T}$, we need to find a_1, a_2, a_3 such that

$$a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + a_3\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{w}_1,$$

which leads to a linear system of three equations in three unknowns, whose augmented matrix is

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} \mathbf{v}_1 & \mathbf{v}_2 & \mathbf{v}_3 & \mathbf{w}_1 \end{array}\right].$$

That is, the augmented matrix is

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 2 & 1 & 1 & 6 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 3 \end{array}\right].$$

Similarly, we need to find b_1, b_2, b_3 and c_1, c_2, c_3 such that

$$b_1\mathbf{v}_1 + b_2\mathbf{v}_2 + b_3\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{w}_2$$
$$c_1\mathbf{v}_1 + c_2\mathbf{v}_2 + c_3\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{w}_3.$$

These vector equations lead to two linear systems, each of three equations in three unknowns, whose augmented matrices are

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} \mathbf{v}_1 & \mathbf{v}_2 & \mathbf{v}_3 & \mathbf{w}_2 \end{array}\right] \quad \text{and} \quad \left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} \mathbf{v}_1 & \mathbf{v}_2 & \mathbf{v}_3 & \mathbf{w}_3 \end{array}\right],$$

or specifically,

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 2 & 1 & 1 & 4 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 3 \end{array}\right] \quad \text{and} \quad \left[\begin{array}{ccc|c} 2 & 1 & 1 & 5 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 5 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{array}\right].$$

Since the coefficient matrix of all three linear systems is $\left[\mathbf{v}_1 \quad \mathbf{v}_2 \quad \mathbf{v}_3\right]$, we can transform the three augmented matrices to reduced row echelon form simultaneously by transforming the partitioned matrix

$$\left[\mathbf{v}_1 \quad \mathbf{v}_2 \quad \mathbf{v}_3 \mid \mathbf{w}_1 \mid \mathbf{w}_2 \mid \mathbf{w}_3\right]$$

to reduced row echelon form. Thus, we transform

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c|c|c} 2 & 1 & 1 & 6 & 4 & 5 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 3 & -1 & 5 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 3 & 3 & 2 \end{array}\right]$$

to reduced row echelon form, obtaining (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c|c|c} 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right],$$

which implies that the transition matrix from the T-basis to the S-basis is

$$P_{S \leftarrow T} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

(b) If $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ -9 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix}$, then expressing $\mathbf{v}$ in terms of the T-basis, we have (verify)

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ -9 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix} = 1\begin{bmatrix} 6 \\ 3 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix} + 2\begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ -1 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix} - 2\begin{bmatrix} 5 \\ 5 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

So $\left[\mathbf{v}\right]_T = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ -2 \end{bmatrix}$. Then

$$\left[\mathbf{v}\right]_S = P_{S \leftarrow T}\left[\mathbf{v}\right]_T = \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ -2 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ -5 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

If we compute $\left[\mathbf{v}\right]_S$ directly, we find that

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ -9 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix} = 4\begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} - 5\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + 1\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{so } \left[\mathbf{v}\right]_S = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ -5 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Hence,

$$[\mathbf{v}]_S = P_{S \leftarrow T}[\mathbf{v}]_T. \qquad \blacksquare$$

We next want to show that the transition matrix $P_{S \leftarrow T}$ from the T-basis to the S-basis is nonsingular. Suppose that $P_{S \leftarrow T}[\mathbf{v}]_T = \mathbf{0}_{R^n}$ for some $\mathbf{v}$ in V. From Equation (3) we have

$$P_{S \leftarrow T}[\mathbf{v}]_T = [\mathbf{v}]_S = \mathbf{0}_{R^n}.$$

If $\mathbf{v} = b_1\mathbf{v}_1 + b_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + b_n\mathbf{v}_n$, then

$$\begin{bmatrix} b_1 \\ b_2 \\ \vdots \\ b_n \end{bmatrix} = [\mathbf{v}]_S = \mathbf{0}_{R^n} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \end{bmatrix},$$

so

$$\mathbf{v} = 0\mathbf{v}_1 + 0\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + 0\mathbf{v}_n = \mathbf{0}_V.$$

Hence, $[\mathbf{v}]_T = \mathbf{0}_{R^n}$. Thus the homogeneous system $P_{S \leftarrow T}\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ has only the trivial solution; it then follows from Theorem 2.9 that $P_{S \leftarrow T}$ is nonsingular. Of course, we then also have

$$[\mathbf{v}]_T = P_{S \leftarrow T}^{-1}[\mathbf{v}]_S.$$

That is, $P_{S \leftarrow T}^{-1}$ is then the transition matrix from the S-basis to the T-basis; the jth column of $P_{S \leftarrow T}^{-1}$ is $[\mathbf{v}_j]_T$.

Remark In Exercises 39 through 41 we ask you to show that if S and T are ordered bases for the vector space R^n, then

$$P_{S \leftarrow T} = M_S^{-1} M_T,$$

where M_S is the $n \times n$ matrix whose jth column is $\mathbf{v}_j$ and M_T is the $n \times n$ matrix whose jth column is $\mathbf{w}_j$. This formula implies that $P_{S \leftarrow T}$ is nonsingular, and it is helpful in solving some of the exercises in this section.

EXAMPLE 5

Let S and T be the ordered bases for R^3 defined in Example 4. Compute the transition matrix $Q_{T \leftarrow S}$ from the S-basis to the T-basis directly and show that $Q_{T \leftarrow S} = P_{S \leftarrow T}^{-1}$.

Solution

$Q_{T \leftarrow S}$ is the matrix whose columns are the solution vectors to the linear systems obtained from the vector equations

$$\begin{aligned} a_1\mathbf{w}_1 + a_2\mathbf{w}_2 + a_3\mathbf{w}_3 &= \mathbf{v}_1 \\ b_1\mathbf{w}_1 + b_2\mathbf{w}_2 + b_3\mathbf{w}_3 &= \mathbf{v}_2 \\ c_1\mathbf{w}_1 + c_2\mathbf{w}_2 + c_3\mathbf{w}_3 &= \mathbf{v}_3. \end{aligned}$$

As in Example 4, we can solve these linear systems simultaneously by transforming the partitioned matrix

$$[\mathbf{w}_1 \quad \mathbf{w}_2 \quad \mathbf{w}_3 \mid \mathbf{v}_1 \mid \mathbf{v}_2 \mid \mathbf{v}_3]$$

to reduced row echelon form. That is, we transform

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c|c|c} 6 & 4 & 5 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 3 & -1 & 5 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 3 & 3 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right]$$

to reduced row echelon form, obtaining (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccc|c|c|c} 1 & 0 & 0 & \frac{3}{2} & \frac{1}{2} & -\frac{5}{2} \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -\frac{1}{2} & -\frac{1}{2} & \frac{3}{2} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 2 \end{array}\right],$$

so

$$Q_{T \leftarrow S} = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{3}{2} & \frac{1}{2} & -\frac{5}{2} \\ -\frac{1}{2} & -\frac{1}{2} & \frac{3}{2} \\ -1 & 0 & 2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Multiplying $Q_{T \leftarrow S}$ by $P_{S \leftarrow T}$, we find (verify) that $Q_{T \leftarrow S} P_{S \leftarrow T} = I_3$, so we conclude that $Q_{T \leftarrow S} = P_{S \leftarrow T}^{-1}$. ■

EXAMPLE 6

Let V be P_1, and let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$ and $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2\}$ be ordered bases for P_1, where

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = t, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = t - 3, \quad \mathbf{w}_1 = t - 1, \quad \mathbf{w}_2 = t + 1.$$

(a) Compute the transition matrix $P_{S \leftarrow T}$ from the T-basis to the S-basis.

(b) Verify Equation (3) for $\mathbf{v} = 5t + 1$.

(c) Compute the transition matrix $Q_{T \leftarrow S}$ from the S-basis to the T-basis and show that $Q_{T \leftarrow S} = P_{S \leftarrow T}^{-1}$.

Solution

(a) To compute $P_{S \leftarrow T}$, we need to solve the vector equations

$$a_1 \mathbf{v}_1 + a_2 \mathbf{v}_2 = \mathbf{w}_1$$
$$b_1 \mathbf{v}_1 + b_2 \mathbf{v}_2 = \mathbf{w}_2$$

simultaneously by transforming the resulting partitioned matrix (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{cc|c|c} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -3 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right]$$

to reduced row echelon form. The result is (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{cc|c|c} 1 & 0 & \frac{2}{3} & \frac{4}{3} \\ 0 & 1 & \frac{1}{3} & -\frac{1}{3} \end{array}\right],$$

so

$$P_{S \leftarrow T} = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{2}{3} & \frac{4}{3} \\ \frac{1}{3} & -\frac{1}{3} \end{bmatrix}.$$

(b) If $\mathbf{v} = 5t + 1$, then expressing $\mathbf{v}$ in terms of the T-basis, we have (verify)

$$\mathbf{v} = 5t + 1 = 2(t - 1) + 3(t + 1),$$

so $[\mathbf{v}]_T = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$. Then

$$[\mathbf{v}]_S = P_{S \leftarrow T}[\mathbf{v}]_T = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{2}{3} & \frac{4}{3} \\ \frac{1}{3} & -\frac{1}{3} \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{16}{3} \\ -\frac{1}{3} \end{bmatrix}.$$

Computing $[\mathbf{v}]_S$ directly, we find that

$$\mathbf{v} = 5t + 1 = \tfrac{16}{3}t - \tfrac{1}{3}(t - 3), \quad \text{so } [\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{16}{3} \\ -\frac{1}{3} \end{bmatrix}.$$

Hence

$$[\mathbf{v}]_S = P_{S \leftarrow T}[\mathbf{v}]_T.$$

(c) The transition matrix $Q_{T \leftarrow S}$ from the S-basis to the T-basis is derived (verify) by transforming the partitioned matrix

$$\left[\begin{array}{cc:c:c} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & -3 \end{array}\right]$$

to reduced row echelon form, yielding (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{cc:c:c} 1 & 0 & \frac{1}{2} & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & \frac{1}{2} & -1 \end{array}\right].$$

Hence,

$$Q_{T \leftarrow S} = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{1}{2} & 2 \\ \frac{1}{2} & -1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Multiplying $Q_{T \leftarrow S}$ by $P_{S \leftarrow T}$, we find that $Q_{T \leftarrow S} P_{S \leftarrow T} = I_2$ (verify), so we conclude that $Q_{T \leftarrow S} = P_{S \leftarrow T}^{-1}$. ■

Key Terms

Ordered basis
Coordinates of a vector relative to an ordered basis
Coordinates
One-to-one function
Onto function
Isomorphism
Isomorphic vector spaces
Transition matrix

4.8 Exercises

In Exercises 1 through 6, compute the coordinate vector of $\mathbf{v}$ *with respect to each given ordered basis* S *for* V.

1. V is R^2, $S = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$, $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix}3\\-2\end{bmatrix}$.

2. V is R_3, $S = \{[1 \quad -1 \quad 0], [0 \quad 1 \quad 0], [1 \quad 0 \quad 2]\}$, $\mathbf{v} = [2 \quad -1 \quad -2]$.

3. V is P_1, $S = \{t+1, t-2\}$, $\mathbf{v} = t+4$.

4. V is P_2, $S = \{t^2 - t + 1, t + 1, t^2 + 1\}$, $\mathbf{v} = 4t^2 - 2t + 3$.

5. V is M_{22}, $S = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}1 & 0\\0 & 0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0 & 0\\1 & 0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0 & 1\\0 & 0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0 & 0\\0 & 1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$, $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix}1 & 0\\-1 & 2\end{bmatrix}$.

6. V is M_{22}, $S = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}1 & -1\\0 & 0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0 & 1\\1 & 0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1 & 0\\0 & -1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1 & 0\\-1 & 0\end{bmatrix}\right\}$, $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix}1 & 3\\-2 & 2\end{bmatrix}$.

In Exercises 7 through 12, compute the vector $\mathbf{v}$ *if the coordinate vector* $[\mathbf{v}]_S$ *is given with respect to each ordered basis* S *for* V.

7. V is R^2, $S = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}2\\1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}-1\\1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$, $[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix}1\\2\end{bmatrix}$.

8. V is R_3, $S = \{[0 \quad 1 \quad -1], [1 \quad 0 \quad 0], [1 \quad 1 \quad 1]\}$, $[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix}-1\\1\\2\end{bmatrix}$.

9. V is P_1, $S = \{t, 2t - 1\}$, $[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix}-2\\3\end{bmatrix}$.

10. V is P_2, $S = \{t^2 + 1, t + 1, t^2 + t\}$, $[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix}3\\-1\\-2\end{bmatrix}$.

11. V is M_{22}, $S = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}-1 & 0\\1 & 0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}2 & 2\\0 & 1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1 & 2\\-1 & 3\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0 & 0\\2 & 3\end{bmatrix}\right\}$, $[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix}2\\1\\-1\\3\end{bmatrix}$.

12. V is M_{22}, $S = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}1 & -2\\0 & 0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}-1 & 3\\0 & 1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1 & 0\\0 & 0\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0 & -1\\1 & 0\end{bmatrix}\right\}$, $[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix}0\\1\\0\\2\end{bmatrix}$.

In Example 3 we showed that an appropriate choice of basis could greatly simplify the computation of the values of a sequence of the form $A\mathbf{v}, A^2\mathbf{v}, A^3\mathbf{v}, \ldots$. *Exercises 13 and 14 require an approach similar to that in Example 3.*

13. Let
$$S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\} = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\-1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}1\\-2\end{bmatrix}\right\},$$
$$A = \begin{bmatrix}-0.85 & -0.55\\1.10 & 0.80\end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix}2\\6\end{bmatrix}.$$

   (a) Show that S is a basis for R^2.

   (b) Find $[\mathbf{v}]_S$.

   (c) Determine a scalar λ_1 such that $A\mathbf{v}_1 = \lambda_1\mathbf{v}_1$.

   (d) Determine a scalar λ_2 such that $A\mathbf{v}_2 = \lambda_2\mathbf{v}_2$.

   (e) Use the basis S and the results of parts (b) through (d) to determine an expression for $A^n\mathbf{v}$ that is a linear combination of $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$.

   (f) As n increases, describe the limiting behavior of the sequence $A\mathbf{v}, A^2\mathbf{v}, A^3\mathbf{v}, \ldots, A^n\mathbf{v}, \ldots$.

14. Let
$$S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\} = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\-1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}-2\\3\end{bmatrix}\right\},$$
$$A = \begin{bmatrix}-1 & -2\\3 & 4\end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix}4\\3\end{bmatrix}.$$

   Follow the directions for (a) through (f) in Exercise 13.

15. Let $S = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\2\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}0\\1\end{bmatrix}\right\}$ and $T = \left\{\begin{bmatrix}1\\1\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}2\\3\end{bmatrix}\right\}$ be ordered bases for R^2. Let $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix}1\\5\end{bmatrix}$ and $\mathbf{w} = \begin{bmatrix}5\\4\end{bmatrix}$.

   (a) Find the coordinate vectors of $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{w}$ with respect to the basis T.

   (b) What is the transition matrix $P_{S \leftarrow T}$ from the T- to the S-basis?

   (c) Find the coordinate vectors of $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{w}$ with respect to S, using $P_{S \leftarrow T}$.

(**d**) Find the coordinate vectors of $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{w}$ with respect to S directly.

(**e**) Find the transition matrix $Q_{T \leftarrow S}$ from the S- to the T-basis.

(**f**) Find the coordinate vectors of $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{w}$ with respect to T, using $Q_{T \leftarrow S}$. Compare the answers with those of (a).

16. Let

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

and

$$T = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

be ordered bases for R^3. Let

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 3 \\ 8 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{w} = \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 8 \\ -2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Follow the directions for (a) through (f) in Exercise 15.

17. Let $S = \{t^2 + 1, t - 2, t + 3\}$ and $T = \{2t^2 + t, t^2 + 3, t\}$ be ordered bases for P_2. Let $\mathbf{v} = 8t^2 - 4t + 6$ and $\mathbf{w} = 7t^2 - t + 9$. Follow the directions for (a) through (f) in Exercise 15.

18. Let

$$S = \{[1 \quad 1 \quad 1], [1 \quad 2 \quad 3], [1 \quad 0 \quad 1]\}$$

and

$$T = \{[0 \quad 1 \quad 1], [1 \quad 0 \quad 0], [1 \quad 0 \quad 1]\}$$

be ordered bases for R_3. Let

$$\mathbf{v} = [-1 \quad 4 \quad 5] \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{w} = [2 \quad 0 \quad -6].$$

Follow the directions for (a) through (f) in Exercise 15.

19. Let

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

and

$$T = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

be ordered bases for M_{22}. Let

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{w} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ -2 & 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Follow the directions for (a) through (f) in Exercise 15.

20. Let

$$S = \{[1 \quad -1], [2 \quad 1]\}$$

and

$$T = \{[3 \quad 0], [4 \quad -1]\}$$

be ordered bases for R_2. If $\mathbf{v}$ is in R_2 and $[\mathbf{v}]_T = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$, determine $[\mathbf{v}]_S$.

21. Let $S = \{t + 1, t - 2\}$ and $T = \{t - 5, t - 2\}$ be ordered bases for P_1. If $\mathbf{v}$ is in P_1 and $[\mathbf{v}]_T = \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$, determine $[\mathbf{v}]_S$.

22. Let

$$S = \{[-1 \quad 2 \quad 1], [0 \quad 1 \quad 1], [-2 \quad 2 \quad 1]\}$$

and

$$T = \{[-1 \quad 1 \quad 0], [0 \quad 1 \quad 0], [0 \quad 1 \quad 1]\}$$

be ordered bases for R_3. If $\mathbf{v}$ is in R_3 and

$$[\mathbf{v}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix},$$

determine $[\mathbf{v}]_T$.

23. If the vector $\mathbf{v}$ in P_2 has the coordinate vector $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$ with respect to the ordered basis $T = \{t^2, t - 1, 1\}$, what is $[\mathbf{v}]_S$ if $S = \{t^2 + t + 1, t + 1, 1\}$?

24. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$ and $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \mathbf{w}_3\}$ be ordered bases for R^3, where

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Suppose that the transition matrix from T to S is

$$P_{S \leftarrow T} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Determine T.

25. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$ and $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2\}$ be ordered bases for P_1, where

$$\mathbf{w}_1 = t, \quad \mathbf{w}_2 = t - 1.$$

If the transition matrix from S to T is $\begin{bmatrix} 2 & 3 \\ -1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$, determine S.

26. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$ and $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2\}$ be ordered bases for R^2, where

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

If the transition matrix from S to T is $\begin{bmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$, determine T.

27. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$ and $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2\}$ be ordered bases for P_1, where

$$\mathbf{w}_1 = t - 1, \quad \mathbf{w}_2 = t + 1.$$

If the transition matrix from T to S is $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$, determine S.

28. Prove parts (a) and (c) of Theorem 4.15.

29. Let $L: V \to W$ be an isomorphism of vector space V onto vector space W.

(a) Prove that $L(\mathbf{0}_V) = \mathbf{0}_W$.

(b) Show that $L(\mathbf{v} - \mathbf{w}) = L(\mathbf{v}) - L(\mathbf{w})$.

(c) Show that

$$L(a_1\mathbf{v}_1 + a_2\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_k\mathbf{v}_k) = a_1L(\mathbf{v}_1) + a_2L(\mathbf{v}_2) + \cdots + a_kL(\mathbf{v}_k).$$

30. Prove that R^n and R^m are isomorphic if and only if $n = m$.

31. Find an isomorphism $L: R_n \to R^n$.

32. Find an isomorphism $L: P_2 \to R^3$. More generally, show that P_n and R^{n+1} are isomorphic.

33. **(a)** Show that M_{22} is isomorphic to R^4.

(b) What is $\dim M_{22}$?

34. Let V be the subspace of the vector space of all real-valued continuous functions that has basis $S = \{e^t, e^{-t}\}$. Show that V and R^2 are isomorphic.

35. Let V be the subspace of the vector space of all real-valued functions that is *spanned* by the set

$$S = \{\cos^2 t, \sin^2 t, \cos 2t\}.$$

Show that V and R_2 are isomorphic.

36. Let V and W be isomorphic vector spaces. Prove that if V_1 is a subspace of V, then V_1 is isomorphic to a subspace W_1 of W.

37. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be an ordered basis for the n-dimensional vector space V, and let $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{w}$ be two vectors in V. Show that $\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{w}$ if and only if $[\mathbf{v}]_S = [\mathbf{w}]_S$.

38. Show that if S is an ordered basis for an n-dimensional vector space V, $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{w}$ are vectors in V, and c is a scalar, then

$$[\mathbf{v} + \mathbf{w}]_S = [\mathbf{v}]_S + [\mathbf{w}]_S$$

and

$$[c\mathbf{v}]_S = c[\mathbf{v}]_S.$$

In Exercises 39 through 41, let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ *and* $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{w}_n\}$ *be ordered bases for the vector space* R^n.

39. Let M_S be the $n \times n$ matrix whose jth column is $\mathbf{v}_j$ and let M_T be the $n \times n$ matrix whose jth column is $\mathbf{w}_j$. Prove that M_S and M_T are nonsingular. (*Hint*: Consider the homogeneous systems $M_S\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ and $M_T\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$.)

40. If $\mathbf{v}$ is a vector in V, show that

$$\mathbf{v} = M_S[\mathbf{v}]_S \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v} = M_T[\mathbf{v}]_T.$$

41. **(a)** Use Equation (3) and Exercises 39 and 40 to show that

$$P_{S \leftarrow T} = M_S^{-1}M_T.$$

(b) Show that $P_{S \leftarrow T}$ is nonsingular.

(c) Verify the result in part (a) of Example 4.

42. Let S be an ordered basis for n-dimensional vector space V. Show that if $\{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{w}_k\}$ is a linearly independent set of vectors in V, then

$$\{[\mathbf{w}_1]_S, [\mathbf{w}_2]_S, \ldots, [\mathbf{w}_k]_S\}$$

is a linearly independent set of vectors in R^n.

43. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be an ordered basis for an n-dimensional vector space V. Show that

$$\{[\mathbf{v}_1]_S, [\mathbf{v}_2]_S, \ldots, [\mathbf{v}_n]_S\}$$

is an ordered basis for R^n.

4.9 Rank of a Matrix

In this section we obtain another effective method for finding a basis for a vector space V spanned by a given set of vectors $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$. In Section 4.6 we developed a technique for choosing a basis for V that is a subset of S (Theorem 4.9). The method to be developed in this section produces a basis for V that is not guaranteed to be a subset of S. We shall also attach a unique number to a matrix A that we later show gives us information about the dimension of the solution space of a homogeneous system with coefficient matrix A.

DEFINITION 4.14

Let

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} & \cdots & a_{1n} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & \cdots & a_{2n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & & \vdots \\ a_{m1} & a_{m2} & \cdots & a_{mn} \end{bmatrix}$$

be an $m \times n$ matrix. The rows of A, considered as vectors in R_n, span a subspace of R_n called the **row space** of A. Similarly, the columns of A, considered as vectors in R^m, span a subspace of R^m called the **column space** of A.

Theorem 4.17 If A and B are two $m \times n$ row (column) equivalent matrices, then the row (column) spaces of A and B are equal.

Proof

If A and B are row equivalent, then the rows of B are derived from the rows of A by a finite number of the three elementary row operations. Thus each row of B is a linear combination of the rows of A. Hence the row space of B is contained in the row space of A. If we apply the inverse elementary row operations to B, we get A, so the row space of A is contained in the row space of B. Hence the row spaces of A and B are identical. The proof for the column spaces is similar. ■

We can use this theorem to find a basis for a subspace spanned by a given set of vectors. We illustrate this method with the following example:

EXAMPLE 1 Find a basis for the subspace V of R_5 that is spanned by $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4\}$, where

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = [1 \quad -2 \quad 0 \quad 3 \quad -4], \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = [3 \quad 2 \quad 8 \quad 1 \quad 4],$$
$$\mathbf{v}_3 = [2 \quad 3 \quad 7 \quad 2 \quad 3], \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_4 = [-1 \quad 2 \quad 0 \quad 4 \quad -3].$$

Solution

Note that V is the row space of the matrix A whose rows are the given vectors.

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -2 & 0 & 3 & -4 \\ 3 & 2 & 8 & 1 & 4 \\ 2 & 3 & 7 & 2 & 3 \\ -1 & 2 & 0 & 4 & -3 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Using elementary row operations, we find that A is row equivalent to the matrix (verify)

$$B = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix},$$

which is in reduced row echelon form. The row spaces of A and B are identical, and a basis for the row space of B consists of

$$\mathbf{w}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{w}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix},$$
$$\text{and} \quad \mathbf{w}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

(See Exercise 25 in Section 4.5.) Hence, $\{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \mathbf{w}_3\}$ is also a basis for V. ■

It is not necessary to find a matrix B in reduced row echelon form that is row equivalent to A. All that is required is that we have a matrix B which is row equivalent to A and such that we can easily obtain a basis for the row space of B. Often, we do not have to reduce A all the way to reduced row echelon form to get such a matrix B. We can show that if A is row equivalent to a matrix B which is in row echelon form, then the nonzero rows of B form a basis for the row space of A.

Of course, the basis produced by the procedure used in Example 1 may not be a subset of the given spanning set. The method used in Example 6 of Section 4.6 always gives a basis that is a subset of the spanning set. However, the basis for a subspace V of R^n that is obtained by the procedure used in Example 1 is analogous in its simplicity to the natural basis for R^n. Thus if

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ \vdots \\ a_n \end{bmatrix}$$

is a vector in V and $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ is a basis for V obtained by the method of Example 1 where the leading 1's occur in columns $j_1, j_2, \ldots, j_k$, then it can be shown (Exercise 42) that

$$\mathbf{v} = a_{j_1}\mathbf{v}_1 + a_{j_2}\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_{j_k}\mathbf{v}_k.$$

EXAMPLE 2

Let V be the subspace of Example 1. Given that the vector

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 5 & 4 & 14 & 6 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$$

is in V, write $\mathbf{v}$ as a linear combination of the basis determined in Example 1.

Solution

We have $j_1 = 1$, $j_2 = 2$, and $j_3 = 4$, so $\mathbf{v} = 5\mathbf{w}_1 + 4\mathbf{w}_2 + 6\mathbf{w}_3$. ■

Remark The following example illustrates how to use the procedure given in Example 1 to find a basis for a subspace of a vector space that is not R^n or R_n:

EXAMPLE 3

Let V be the subspace of P_4 spanned by $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3, \mathbf{v}_4\}$, where $\mathbf{v}_1 = t^4 + t^2 + 2t + 1$, $\mathbf{v}_2 = t^4 + t^2 + 2t + 2$, $\mathbf{v}_3 = 2t^4 + t^3 + t + 2$, and $\mathbf{v}_4 = t^4 + t^3 - t^2 - t$. Find a basis for V.

Solution

Since P_4 is isomorphic to R_5 under the isomorphism L defined by

$$L(at^4 + bt^3 + ct^2 + dt + e) = \begin{bmatrix} a & b & c & d & e \end{bmatrix},$$

then $L(V)$ is isomorphic to a subspace W of R_5. (See Exercise 36.) The subspace W is spanned by $\{L(\mathbf{v}_1), L(\mathbf{v}_2), L(\mathbf{v}_3), L(\mathbf{v}_4)\}$, as we have seen in the proof of Theorem 4.16. We now find a basis for W by proceeding as in Example 1. Thus W is the row space of the matrix

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 & 0 \end{bmatrix},$$

and A is row equivalent to (verify)

$$B = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & -3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

A basis for W is therefore $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \mathbf{w}_3\}$, where $\mathbf{w}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{w}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & -2 & -3 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$, and $\mathbf{w}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$. A basis for V is then

$$\{L^{-1}(\mathbf{w}_1), L^{-1}(\mathbf{w}_2), L^{-1}(\mathbf{w}_3)\} = \{t^4 + t^2 + 2t, t^3 - 2t^2 - 3t, 1\}. \quad \blacksquare$$

DEFINITION 4.15

The dimension of the row (column) space of A is called the **row (column) rank** of A.

If A and B are row equivalent, then row rank A = row rank B; and if A and B are column equivalent, then column rank A = column rank B. Therefore, if we start out with an $m \times n$ matrix A and find a matrix B in reduced row echelon form that is row equivalent to A, then A and B have equal row ranks. But the row rank of B is clearly the number of nonzero rows. Thus we have a good method for finding the row rank of a given matrix A.

EXAMPLE 4

Find a basis for the row space of the matrix A defined in the solution of Example 1 that contains only row vectors from A. Also, compute the row rank of A.

Solution

Using the procedure in the alternative proof of Theorem 4.9, we form the equation

$$a_1\begin{bmatrix}1 & -2 & 0 & 3 & -4\end{bmatrix}+a_2\begin{bmatrix}3 & 2 & 8 & 1 & 4\end{bmatrix}+a_3\begin{bmatrix}2 & 3 & 7 & 2 & 3\end{bmatrix}$$
$$+a_4\begin{bmatrix}-1 & 2 & 0 & 4 & -3\end{bmatrix}=\begin{bmatrix}0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0\end{bmatrix}$$

$$\left[\begin{array}{rrrr|c} 1 & 3 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 3 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 8 & 7 & 0 & 0 \\ 3 & 1 & 2 & 4 & 0 \\ -4 & 4 & 3 & -3 & 0 \end{array}\right] = \left[A^T \mid \mathbf{0}\right]; \tag{1}$$

that is, the coefficient matrix is A^T. Transforming the augmented matrix $\left[A^T \mid \mathbf{0}\right]$ in (1) to reduced row echelon form, we obtain (verify)

$$\left[\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & \frac{11}{24} & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -\frac{49}{24} & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & \frac{7}{3} & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right]. \tag{2}$$

Since the leading 1's in (2) occur in columns 1, 2, and 3, we conclude that the first three rows of A form a basis for the row space of A. That is,

$$\left\{\begin{bmatrix}1 & -2 & 0 & 3 & -4\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}3 & 2 & 8 & 1 & 4\end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix}2 & 3 & 7 & 2 & 3\end{bmatrix}\right\}$$

is a basis for the row space of A. The row rank of A is 3. ■

EXAMPLE 5 Find a basis for the column space of the matrix A defined in the solution of Example 1, and compute the column rank of A.

Solution 1

Writing the columns of A as row vectors, we obtain the matrix A^T, which when transformed to reduced row echelon form is (as we saw in Example 4)

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & \frac{11}{24} \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -\frac{49}{24} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & \frac{7}{3} \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Thus, the vectors $\begin{bmatrix}1 & 0 & 0 & \frac{11}{24}\end{bmatrix}$, $\begin{bmatrix}0 & 1 & 0 & -\frac{49}{24}\end{bmatrix}$, and $\begin{bmatrix}0 & 0 & 1 & \frac{7}{3}\end{bmatrix}$ form a

basis for the row space of A^T. Hence the vectors

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ \frac{11}{24} \end{bmatrix}, \quad \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ -\frac{49}{24} \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ \frac{7}{3} \end{bmatrix}$$

form a basis for the column space of A, and we conclude that the column rank of A is 3.

Solution 2

If we want to find a basis for the column space of A that contains only the column vectors from A, we follow the procedure developed in the proof of Theorem 4.9, forming the equation

$$a_1 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 3 \\ 2 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix} + a_2 \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 2 \\ 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} + a_3 \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 8 \\ 7 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + a_4 \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 1 \\ 2 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix} + a_5 \begin{bmatrix} -4 \\ 4 \\ 3 \\ -3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

whose augmented matrix is $\left[\, A \mid \mathbf{0} \,\right]$. Transforming this matrix to reduced row echelon form, we obtain (as in Example 1)

$$\left[\begin{array}{ccccc|c} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right].$$

Since the leading 1's occur in columns 1, 2, and 4, we conclude that the first, second, and fourth columns of A form a basis for the column space of A. That is,

$$\left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 3 \\ 2 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 2 \\ 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 1 \\ 2 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

is a basis for the column space of A. The column rank of A is 3. ■

We may also conclude that if A is an $m \times n$ matrix and P is a nonsingular $m \times m$ matrix, then row rank (PA) = row rank A, for A and PA are row equivalent (Exercise 23 in Section 2.3). Similarly, if Q is a nonsingular $n \times n$ matrix, then column rank (AQ) = column rank A. Moreover, since dimension $R_n = n$, we see that row rank $A \leq n$. Also, since the row space of A is spanned by m vectors, row rank $A \leq m$. Thus row rank $A \leq$ minimum $\{m, n\}$.

In Examples 4 and 5 we observe that the row and column ranks of A are equal. This is always true and is a very important result in linear algebra. We now turn to the proof of this theorem.

Theorem 4.18 The row rank and column rank of the $m \times n$ matrix $A = [a_{ij}]$ are equal.

Proof

Let $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_m$ be the row vectors of A, where

$$\mathbf{v}_i = [a_{i1} \quad a_{i2} \quad \cdots \quad a_{in}], \qquad i = 1, 2, \ldots, m.$$

Let row rank $A = r$ and let the set of vectors $\{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{w}_r\}$ form a basis for the row space of A, where $\mathbf{w}_i = [b_{i1} \quad b_{i2} \quad \cdots \quad b_{in}]$ for $i = 1, 2, \ldots, r$. Now each of the row vectors is a linear combination of $\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{w}_r$:

$$\begin{aligned}
\mathbf{v}_1 &= c_{11}\mathbf{w}_1 + c_{12}\mathbf{w}_2 + \cdots + c_{1r}\mathbf{w}_r \\
\mathbf{v}_2 &= c_{21}\mathbf{w}_1 + c_{22}\mathbf{w}_2 + \cdots + c_{2r}\mathbf{w}_r \\
&\vdots \\
\mathbf{v}_m &= c_{m1}\mathbf{w}_1 + c_{m2}\mathbf{w}_2 + \cdots + c_{mr}\mathbf{w}_r,
\end{aligned}$$

where the c_{ij} are uniquely determined real numbers. Recalling that two matrices are equal if and only if the corresponding entries are equal, we equate the entries of these vector equations to get

$$\begin{aligned}
a_{1j} &= c_{11}b_{1j} + c_{12}b_{2j} + \cdots + c_{1r}b_{rj} \\
a_{2j} &= c_{21}b_{1j} + c_{22}b_{2j} + \cdots + c_{2r}b_{rj} \\
&\vdots \\
a_{mj} &= c_{m1}b_{1j} + c_{m2}b_{2j} + \cdots + c_{mr}b_{rj}
\end{aligned}$$

or

$$\begin{bmatrix} a_{1j} \\ a_{2j} \\ \vdots \\ a_{mj} \end{bmatrix} = b_{1j} \begin{bmatrix} c_{11} \\ c_{21} \\ \vdots \\ c_{m1} \end{bmatrix} + b_{2j} \begin{bmatrix} c_{12} \\ c_{22} \\ \vdots \\ c_{m2} \end{bmatrix} + \cdots + b_{rj} \begin{bmatrix} c_{1r} \\ c_{2r} \\ \vdots \\ c_{mr} \end{bmatrix}$$

for $j = 1, 2, \ldots, n$.

Since every column of A is a linear combination of r vectors, the dimension of the column space of A is at most r, or column rank $A \leq r =$ row rank A. Similarly, we get row rank $A \leq$ column rank A. Hence, the row and column ranks of A are equal.

Alternative Proof: Let $\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{x}_n$ denote the columns of A. To determine the dimension of the column space of A, we use the procedure in the alternative proof of Theorem 4.9. Thus we consider the equation

$$c_1\mathbf{x}_1 + c_2\mathbf{x}_2 + \cdots + c_n\mathbf{x}_n = \mathbf{0}.$$

We now transform the augmented matrix, $[A \mid \mathbf{0}]$, of this homogeneous system to reduced row echelon form. The vectors corresponding to the columns containing the leading 1's form a basis for the column space of A. Thus the column rank of A is the number of leading 1's. But this number is also the number of nonzero rows in the reduced row echelon form matrix that is row equivalent to A, so it is the row rank of A. Thus row rank $A =$ column rank A. ■

Since the row and column ranks of a matrix are equal, we now merely refer to the **rank** of a matrix. Note that rank $I_n = n$. Theorem 2.13 states that A is equivalent to B if and only if there exist nonsingular matrices P and Q such that $B = PAQ$. If A is equivalent to B, then rank A = rank B, for rank B = rank(PAQ) = rank(PA) = rank A.

We also recall from Section 2.4 that if A is an $m \times n$ matrix, then A is equivalent to a matrix $C = \begin{bmatrix} I_r & O \\ O & O \end{bmatrix}$. Now rank A = rank $C = r$. We use these facts to establish the result that if A and B are $m \times n$ matrices of equal rank, then A and B are equivalent. Thus let rank $A = r$ = rank B. Then there exist nonsingular matrices P_1, Q_1, P_2, and Q_2 such that

$$P_1 A Q_1 = \begin{bmatrix} I_r & O \\ O & O \end{bmatrix} = P_2 B Q_2.$$

Then $P_2^{-1} P_1 A Q_1 Q_2^{-1} = B$. Letting $P = P_2^{-1} P_1$ and $Q = Q_1 Q_2^{-1}$, we find that P and Q are nonsingular and $B = PAQ$. Hence A and B are equivalent.

If A is an $m \times n$ matrix, we have defined (see Section 4.7) the nullity of A as the dimension of the null space of A, that is, the dimension of the solution space of $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$. If A is transformed to a matrix B in reduced row echelon form, having r nonzero rows, then we know that the dimension of the solution space of $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ is $n - r$. Since r is also the rank of A, we have obtained a fundamental relationship between the rank and nullity of A, which we state in the following theorem:

Theorem 4.19 If A is an $m \times n$ matrix, then rank A + nullity $A = n$. ■

EXAMPLE 6 Let

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 4 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 6 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix},$$

as it was defined in Example 1 of Section 4.7. When A is transformed to reduced row echelon form, we get

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Then rank $A = 3$ and nullity $A = 2$. This agrees with the result obtained in solving Example 1 of Section 4.7, where we found that the dimension of the solution space of $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ is 2. Thus, Theorem 4.19 has been verified. ■

The following example illustrates geometrically some of the ideas discussed previously:

EXAMPLE 7

Let

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 3 & -1 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 7 & 1 & 8 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Transforming A to reduced row echelon form, we find that

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{(verify)},$$

so we conclude the following:

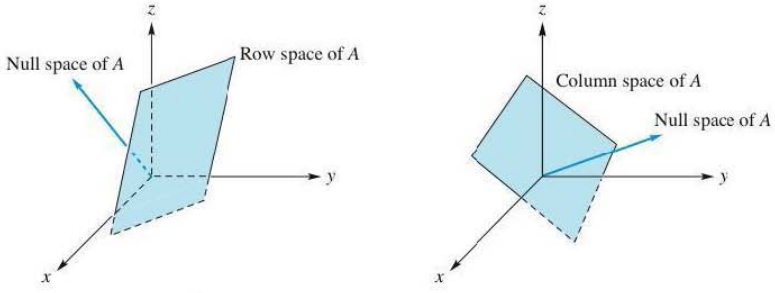
- Rank $A = 2$.
- Dimension of row space of $A = 2$, so the row space of A is a two-dimensional subspace of R_3, that is, a plane passing through the origin.

From the reduced row echelon form matrix that A has been transformed to, we see that every solution to the homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ is of the form

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} -r \\ -r \\ r \end{bmatrix},$$

where r is an arbitrary constant (verify), so the solution space of this homogeneous system, or the null space of A, is a line passing through the origin. Moreover, the dimension of the null space of A, or the nullity of A, is 1. Thus Theorem 4.19 has been verified.

Of course, we already know that the dimension of the column space of A is also 2. We could produce this result by finding a basis consisting of two vectors for the column space of A. Thus, the column space of A is also a two-dimensional subspace of R^3—that is, a plane passing through the origin. These results are illustrated in Figure 4.33. ■



(a) R^3 (b) R^3

FIGURE 4.33

In Chapter 5 we investigate the relationship between the subspaces associated with a matrix. However, using Example 7, we can make the following observations, which provide a way to visualize the subspaces associated with a matrix:

- Since $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$, we have

$$\mathbf{row}_j(A)\mathbf{x} = 0, \quad j = 1, 2, 3,$$

or equivalently,

$$(\mathbf{row}_j(A))^T \cdot \mathbf{x} = 0, \quad j = 1, 2, 3.$$

- If $\mathbf{v}$ is any vector in the row space of A, then $\mathbf{v}$ is a linear combination of the rows of A. Thus we can find scalars c_1, c_2, and c_3 so that

$$\mathbf{v} = c_1\,\mathbf{row}_1(A) + c_2\,\mathbf{row}_2(A) + c_3\,\mathbf{row}_3(A).$$

It follows that

$$\mathbf{v}^T \cdot \mathbf{x} = 0 \quad \text{(verify)}.$$

In Chapter 5 we show that a geometric interpretation of this relationship between the row space of A and the null space of A is expressed by saying these two subspaces are perpendicular (orthogonal). Thus, the plane representing the row space of A and the arrow representing the null space of A intersect in a right angle in Figure 4.33(a).

- The reduced row echelon form of A^T is

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{(verify)},$$

so the row space of A^T is also a plane in R^3 passing through the origin. (It follows that the row space of A^T is the column space of A.) The null space of A^T consists of all vectors $\mathbf{x}$ of the form (verify)

$$\mathbf{x} = \begin{bmatrix} -r \\ -2r \\ r \end{bmatrix},$$

where r is an arbitrary constant. As in the discussion for the matrix A, the null space of A^T is perpendicular to the row space of A^T. See Figure 4.33(b).

- Observe that the row and null space associated with A are different than those associated with A^T.

■ Rank and Singularity

The rank of a square matrix can be used to determine whether the matrix is singular or nonsingular. We first prove the following theorem:

Theorem 4.20 If A is an $n \times n$ matrix, then rank $A = n$ if and only if A is row equivalent to I_n.

Proof

If rank $A = n$, then A is row equivalent to a matrix B in reduced row echelon form, and rank $B = n$. Since rank $B = n$, we conclude that B has no zero rows, and this implies (by Exercise 9 of Section 2.1) that $B = I_n$. Hence, A is row equivalent to I_n.

Conversely, if A is row equivalent to I_n, then rank A = rank $I_n = n$. ■

Corollary 4.7 A is nonsingular if and only if rank $A = n$.

Proof

This follows from Theorem 4.20 and Corollary 2.2. ■

From a practical point of view, this result is not too useful, since most of the time we want to know not only whether A is nonsingular, but also its inverse. The method developed in Chapter 1 enables us to find A^{-1}, if it exists, and tells us if it does not exist. Thus we do not have to learn first if A^{-1} exists and then go through another procedure to obtain it.

Corollary 4.8 If A is an $n \times n$ matrix, then rank $A = n$ if and only if $\det(A) \neq 0$.

Proof

By Corollary 4.7 we know that A is nonsingular if and only if rank $A = n$; and by Theorem 3.8, A is nonsingular if and only if $\det(A) \neq 0$. ■

This result also is not very useful from a computational point of view, since it is simpler to find rank A directly than by computing $\det(A)$.

Corollary 4.9 The homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$, where A is $n \times n$, has a nontrivial solution if and only if rank $A < n$.

Proof

This follows from Corollary 4.7 and from the fact that $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ has a nontrivial solution if and only if A is singular (Theorem 2.9). ■

Corollary 4.10 Let A be an $n \times n$ matrix. The linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has a unique solution for every $n \times 1$ matrix $\mathbf{b}$ if and only if rank $A = n$.

Proof

Exercise 43. ■

Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be a set of n vectors in R_n, and let A be the matrix whose jth row is $\mathbf{v}_j$. It can be shown (Exercise 37) that S is linearly independent if and only if rank $A = n$ and if and only if $\det(A) \neq 0$. Similarly, let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be a set of n vectors in R^n, and let A be the matrix whose jth column is $\mathbf{v}_j$. It can then be shown (Exercise 38) that S is linearly independent if and only if rank $A = n$ and if and only if $\det(A) \neq 0$. Moreover, it follows (Exercise 49) that a set $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ of vectors in R^n (R_n) spans R^n (R_n) if and only if the rank of the matrix A whose jth column (jth row) is $\mathbf{v}_j$ if and only if $\det(A) \neq 0$.

EXAMPLE 8 Is $S = \{[1 \quad 2 \quad 3], [0 \quad 1 \quad 2], [3 \quad 0 \quad -1]\}$ a linearly independent set of vectors in R_3?

Solution

We form the matrix A whose rows are the vectors in S:

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 3 & 0 & -1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Since $\det(A) = 3$ (verify), we conclude that S is linearly independent. The result also follows from the observation that $\det(A) = 2$. ■

EXAMPLE 9

To find out if $S = \{t^2 + t, t + 1, t - 1\}$ is a basis for P_2, we note that P_2 is a three-dimensional vector space isomorphic to R^3 under the mapping $L: P_2 \to R^3$ defined by $L(at^2 + bt + c) = \begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{bmatrix}$. Therefore S is a basis for P_2 if and only if $T = \{L(t^2 + t), L(t + 1), L(t - 1)\}$ is a basis for R^3. To decide whether this is so, proceed as follows. Let A be the matrix whose columns are $L(t^2 + t)$, $L(t + 1)$, $L(t - 1)$, respectively. Now

$$L(t^2 + t) = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad L(t + 1) = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad L(t - 1) = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix},$$

so

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Since $\operatorname{rank} A = 3$ (verify) or $\det(A) = -2$ (verify), we conclude that T is linearly independent. Hence S is linearly independent, and since $\dim P_2 = 3$, S is a basis for P_2. ■

■ Applications of Rank to the Linear System $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$

In Corollary 4.9 we have seen that the rank of A provides us with information about the existence of a nontrivial solution to the homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$. We now obtain some results that use the rank of A to provide information about the solutions to the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$, where $\mathbf{b}$ is an arbitrary $n \times 1$ matrix. When $\mathbf{b} \neq \mathbf{0}$, the linear system is said to be **nonhomogeneous**.

Theorem 4.21 The linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has a solution if and only if $\operatorname{rank} A = \operatorname{rank} [A \mid \mathbf{b}]$, that is, if and only if the ranks of the coefficient and augmented matrices are equal.

Proof

First, observe that if $A = [a_{ij}]$ is $m \times n$, then the given linear system may be written as

$$x_1 \begin{bmatrix} a_{11} \\ a_{21} \\ \vdots \\ a_{m1} \end{bmatrix} + x_2 \begin{bmatrix} a_{12} \\ a_{22} \\ \vdots \\ a_{m2} \end{bmatrix} + \cdots + x_n \begin{bmatrix} a_{1n} \\ a_{2n} \\ \vdots \\ a_{mn} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} b_1 \\ b_2 \\ \vdots \\ b_m \end{bmatrix}. \tag{3}$$

Suppose now that $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has a solution. Then there exist values of $x_1, x_2, \ldots, x_n$ that satisfy Equation (3). Thus $\mathbf{b}$ is a linear combination of the columns of A and so belongs to the column space of A. Hence rank $A = \text{rank}\left[A \mid \mathbf{b}\right]$.

Conversely, suppose that rank $A = \text{rank}\left[A \mid \mathbf{b}\right]$. Then $\mathbf{b}$ is in the column space of A, which means that we can find values of $x_1, x_2, \ldots, x_n$ that satisfy Equation (3). Hence $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has a solution. ■

EXAMPLE 10 Consider the linear system

$$\begin{bmatrix} 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Since rank $A = \text{rank}\left[A \mid \mathbf{b}\right] = 3$ (verify), the linear system has a solution. ■

EXAMPLE 11 The linear system

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 1 & -3 & 4 \\ 2 & -1 & 7 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ 5 \\ 6 \end{bmatrix}$$

has no solution, because rank $A = 2$ and rank $\left[A \mid \mathbf{b}\right] = 3$ (verify). ■

The following statements are equivalent for an $n \times n$ matrix A:

1. A is nonsingular.
2. $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ has only the trivial solution.
3. A is row (column) equivalent to I_n.
4. For every vector $\mathbf{b}$ in R^n, the system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has a unique solution.
5. A is a product of elementary matrices.
6. $\det(A) \neq 0$.
7. The rank of A is n.
8. The nullity of A is zero.
9. The rows of A form a linearly independent set of vectors in R_n.
10. The columns of A form a linearly independent set of vectors in R^n.

Key Terms

Row space of a matrix
Column space of a matrix
Row (column) rank
Rank
Singular/nonsingular matrices
Nonhomogeneous linear system
Augmented matrix

4.9 Exercises

1. Find a basis for the subspace V of R^3 spanned by

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ -1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

and write each of the following vectors in terms of the basis vectors:

(a) $\begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 4 \\ 12 \end{bmatrix}$ (b) $\begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$ (c) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 6 \end{bmatrix}$

2. Find a basis for the subspace of P_3 spanned by

$$S = \{t^3 + t^2 + 2t + 1, t^3 - 3t + 1, t^2 + t + 2, t + 1, t^3 + 1\}.$$

3. Find a basis for the subspace of M_{22} spanned by

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 3 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 3 & 2 \\ 1 & 4 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 5 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}.$$

4. Find a basis for the subspace of R_2 spanned by

$$S = \{[1 \quad 2], [2 \quad 3], [3 \quad 1], [-4 \quad 3]\}.$$

In Exercises 5 and 6, find a basis for the row space of A consisting of vectors that (a) are not necessarily row vectors of A; and (b) are row vectors of A.

5. $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & 9 & -1 \\ -3 & 8 & 3 \\ -2 & 3 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$

6. $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -1 & 3 \\ 3 & 5 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & -2 & 7 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 7 and 8, find a basis for the column space of A consisting of vectors that (a) are not necessarily column vectors of A; and (b) are column vectors of A.

7. $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -2 & 7 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 4 & 0 \\ 3 & 2 & -3 & 5 \\ 2 & 1 & -1 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$

8. $A = \begin{bmatrix} -2 & 2 & 3 & 7 & 1 \\ -2 & 2 & 4 & 8 & 0 \\ -3 & 3 & 2 & 8 & 4 \\ 4 & -2 & 1 & -5 & -7 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 9 and 10, find the row and column ranks of the given matrices.

9. (a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 & 2 & 1 \\ 3 & 1 & -5 & -2 & 1 \\ 7 & 8 & -1 & 2 & 5 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 3 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 2 & 1 & -5 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 3 & 2 & 5 & 1 & -2 & 1 \\ 5 & 8 & 9 & 1 & -2 & 2 \\ 9 & 9 & 4 & 2 & 0 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$

10. (a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 5 & 4 & 0 & -1 \\ 2 & -1 & 2 & 4 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 2 & -4 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 5 & -1 & -3 & 7 & 1 \\ 3 & -9 & 1 & 0 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$

11. Let A be an $m \times n$ matrix in row echelon form. Prove that rank A = the number of nonzero rows of A.

12. For each of the following matrices, verify Theorem 4.18 by computing the row and column ranks:

(a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 3 & 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & -2 & -1 \\ 2 & -1 & 3 \\ 7 & -8 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$ (c) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & -2 & -1 \\ 2 & -1 & 3 \\ 7 & -8 & 3 \\ 5 & -7 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 13 and 14, compute the rank and nullity of each given matrix and verify Theorem 4.19.

13. (a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 6 & -8 & 1 \\ 5 & 3 & -2 & 10 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 3 \\ 3 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 2 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$

14. (a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 3 & -2 & 4 \\ -1 & 4 & -5 & 10 \\ 3 & 2 & 1 & -2 \\ 3 & -5 & 8 & -16 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$

15. Which of the following matrices are equivalent?

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 & -4 & -5 \\ 7 & 8 & -5 & -1 \\ 10 & 14 & -2 & 3 \end{bmatrix},$$

$$B = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 & -4 & -5 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix},$$

$$C = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 5 & 1 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ -3 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 4 & 7 & -4 & 3 \end{bmatrix},$$

$$D = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -4 & 3 \\ 4 & 7 & -4 & 1 \\ 7 & 12 & -4 & -1 \\ 2 & 3 & 4 & -5 \end{bmatrix},$$

$$E = \begin{bmatrix} 4 & 3 & -1 & -5 \\ -2 & -6 & -7 & 10 \\ -2 & -3 & -2 & 5 \\ 0 & -6 & -10 & 10 \end{bmatrix}$$

In Exercises 16 and 17, determine which of the given linear systems are consistent by comparing the ranks of the coefficient and augmented matrices.

16. (a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 5 & -2 \\ 2 & 3 & -2 & 4 \\ 5 & 1 & 0 & 2 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \\ x_4 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 5 & -2 \\ 2 & 3 & -2 & 4 \\ 5 & 1 & 0 & 2 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \\ x_4 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ -13 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}$

17. (a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & -2 & -3 & 4 \\ 4 & -1 & -5 & 6 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & -2 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \\ x_4 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 5 & 1 & 5 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 6 \\ 2 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 18 and 19, use Corollary 4.7 to find which of the given matrices are nonsingular.

18. (a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -3 \\ -1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 8 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -3 \\ -1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$

19. (a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 \\ -1 & 3 & 4 \\ -5 & 7 & 8 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 4 & -1 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 2 \\ -1 & 3 & 2 & 1 \\ -2 & 6 & 12 & -4 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 20 and 21, use Corollary 4.8 to find out whether rank $A = 3$ *for each given matrix.*

20. (a) $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 \\ -3 & 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 3 & -4 \\ -2 & 1 & 2 \\ -9 & 15 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$

21. (a) $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $A = \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 1 & 2 & -2 \\ -1 & -3 & 5 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 22 and 23, use Corollary 4.9 to find which of the given homogeneous systems have a nontrivial solution.

22. (a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 3 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & 3 & -1 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \\ x_4 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$

23. (a) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 2 & -1 & 3 \\ 5 & -4 & 3 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & 6 & 5 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 24 and 25, find rank A by obtaining a matrix of the form $\begin{bmatrix} I_r & O \\ O & O \end{bmatrix}$ *that is equivalent to A.*

24. (a) $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & -2 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & -2 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 6 & 7 \\ 2 & 1 & 3 & 6 & 5 \end{bmatrix}$

25. (a) $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & -2 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 4 & -1 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & -5 & 6 & 8 \\ 4 & 0 & 4 & 6 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 26 and 27, use Corollary 4.10 to determine whether the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ *has a unique solution for every* 3×1 *matrix* $\mathbf{b}$.

26. $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 8 & -7 \\ 3 & -2 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$

27. $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 3 & 2 & 3 \\ 1 & -2 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$

In Exercises 28 through 33, solve using the concept of rank.

28. Is

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

a linearly independent set of vectors in R^3?

29. Is

$$S = \{[4 \quad 1 \quad 2], [2 \quad 5 \quad -5], [2 \quad -1 \quad 3]\}$$

a linearly independent set of vectors in R_3?

30. Does the set

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ -1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

span R^3?

31. Is $S = \{t^3 + t + 1, 2t^2 + 3, t - 1, 2t^3 - 2t^2\}$ a basis for P_3?

32. Is

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 3 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 3 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

a basis for M_{22}?

33. For what values of c is the set $\{t + 3, 2t + c^2 + 2\}$ linearly independent?

34. (a) If A is a 3×4 matrix, what is the largest possible value for rank A?

(b) If A is a 4×6 matrix, show that the columns of A are linearly dependent.

(c) If A is a 5×3 matrix, show that the rows of A are linearly dependent.

35. Let A be a 7×3 matrix whose rank is 3.

(a) Are the rows of A linearly dependent or linearly independent? Justify your answer.

(b) Are the columns of A linearly dependent or linearly independent? Justify your answer.

36. Let A be a 3×5 matrix.

(a) Give *all* possible values for the rank of A.

(b) If the rank of A is 3, what is the dimension of its column space?

(c) If the rank of A is 3, what is the dimension of the solution space of the homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$?

37. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be a set of n vectors in R_n, and let A be the matrix whose jth row is $\mathbf{v}_j$. Show that S is linearly independent if and only if rank $A = n$.

38. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ be a set of n vectors in R^n, and let A be the matrix whose jth column is $\mathbf{v}_j$. Show that S is linearly independent if and only if rank $A = n$.

39. Let A be an $n \times n$ matrix. Show that the homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ has a nontrivial solution if and only if the columns of A are linearly dependent.

40. Let A be an $n \times n$ matrix. Show that rank $A = n$ if and only if the columns of A are linearly independent.

41. Let A be an $n \times n$ matrix. Prove that the rows of A are linearly independent if and only if the columns of A span R^n.

42. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ be a basis for a subspace V of R_n that is obtained by the method of Example 1. If

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 & a_2 & \cdots & a_n \end{bmatrix}$$

belongs to V and the leading 1's in the reduced row echelon form from the method in Example 1 occur in columns $j_1, j_2, \ldots, j_k$, then show that

$$\mathbf{v} = a_{j_1}\mathbf{v}_1 + a_{j_2}\mathbf{v}_2 + \cdots + a_{j_k}\mathbf{v}_k.$$

43. Prove Corollary 4.10.

44. Let A be an $m \times n$ matrix. Show that the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has a solution for every $m \times 1$ matrix $\mathbf{b}$ if and only if rank $A = m$.

45. Let A be an $m \times n$ matrix with $m \neq n$. Show that either the rows or the columns of A are linearly dependent.

46. Suppose that the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$, where A is $m \times n$, is consistent (i.e., has a solution). Prove that the solution is unique if and only if rank $A = n$.

47. What can you say about the dimension of the solution space of a homogeneous system of 8 equations in 10 unknowns?

48. Is it possible that all nontrivial solutions of a homogeneous system of 5 equations in 7 unknowns be multiples of each other? Explain.

49. Show that a set $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_n\}$ of vectors in R^n (R_n) spans R^n (R_n) if and only if the rank of the matrix whose jth column (jth row) is $\mathbf{v}_j$ is n.

50. Determine whether your software has a command for computing the rank of a matrix. If it does, experiment with the command on matrices A in Examples 4 and 5 and Exercises 13 and 14.

51. Assuming that exact arithmetic is used, rank A is the number of nonzero rows in the reduced row echelon form of A. Compare the results by using your rank command and the reduced row echelon form approach on the following matrices:

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \times 10^{-j} \end{bmatrix}, \qquad j = 5, 10, 16.$$

(See Exercise 31 in Section 4.5.)

Supplementary Exercises

1. Let $C[a, b]$ denote the set of all real-valued continuous functions defined on $[a, b]$. If f and g are in $C[a, b]$, we define $f \oplus g$ by $(f \oplus g)(t) = f(t) + g(t)$, for t in $[a, b]$. If f is in $C[a, b]$ and c is a scalar, we define $c \odot f$ by $(c \odot f)(t) = cf(t)$, for t in $[a, b]$.

(a) Show that $C[a, b]$ is a real vector space.

(b) Let $W(k)$ be the set of all functions in $C[a, b]$ with $f(a) = k$. For what values of k will $W(k)$ be a subspace of $C[a, b]$?

(c) Let $t_1, t_2, \ldots, t_n$ be a fixed set of points in $[a, b]$. Show that the subset of all functions f in $C[a, b]$ that have roots at $t_1, t_2, \ldots, t_n$, that is, $f(t_i) = 0$ for $i = 1, 2, \ldots, n$, forms a subspace.

2. In R^4, let W be the subset of all vectors

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 \\ a_2 \\ a_3 \\ a_4 \end{bmatrix}$$

that satisfy $a_4 - a_3 = a_2 - a_1$.

(a) Show that W is a subspace of R^4.

(b) Show that

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

spans W.

(c) Find a subset of S that is a basis for W.

(d) Express $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 4 \\ 2 \\ 6 \end{bmatrix}$ as a linear combination of the basis obtained in part (c).

3. Consider

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ -2 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 5 \\ 2 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 0 \\ 2 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Determine whether each vector $\mathbf{v}$ belongs to span $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$.

(a) $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 7 \\ 4 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$ (b) $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 5 \\ 6 \\ 2 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$ (c) $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ -8 \\ -6 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix}$

4. Let A be a fixed $n \times n$ matrix and let the set of all $n \times n$ matrices B such that $AB = BA$ be denoted by $C(A)$. Is $C(A)$ a subspace of M_{nn}?

5. Let W and U be subspaces of vector space V.
   (a) Show that $W \cup U$, the set of all vectors $\mathbf{v}$ that are either in W or in U, is not always a subspace of V.
   (b) When is $W \cup U$ a subspace of V?
   (c) Show that $W \cap U$, the set of all vectors $\mathbf{v}$ that are in both W and U, is a subspace of V.

6. Prove that a subspace W of R^3 coincides with R^3 if and only if it contains the vectors $\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$, $\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$, and $\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$.

7. Let A be a fixed $m \times n$ matrix and define W to be the subset of all $m \times 1$ matrices $\mathbf{b}$ in R^m for which the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has a solution.
   (a) Is W a subspace of R^m?
   (b) What is the relationship between W and the column space of A?

8. Consider vector space R_2.
   (a) For what values of m and b will all vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} x & mx + b \end{bmatrix}$ be a subspace of R_2?
   (b) For what value of r will the set of all vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} x & rx^2 \end{bmatrix}$ be a subspace of R_2?

9. Let W be a nonempty subset of a vector space V. Prove that W is a subspace of V if and only if $r\mathbf{u} + s\mathbf{v}$ is in W for any vectors $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ in W and any scalars r and s.

10. Let A be an $n \times n$ matrix and λ a scalar. Show that the set W consisting of all vectors $\mathbf{x}$ in R^n such that $A\mathbf{x} = \lambda\mathbf{x}$ is a subspace of R^n.

11. For what values of a is the vector $\begin{bmatrix} a^2 \\ -3a \\ -2 \end{bmatrix}$ in $\text{span}\left\{\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 3 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix}\right\}$?

12. For what values of a is the vector $\begin{bmatrix} a^2 \\ a \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$ in $\text{span}\left\{\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}\right\}$?

13. For what values of k will the set S form a basis for R^6?

$$S = \left\{\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ -2 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 2 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 5 \\ k \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 2 \\ 1 \\ k \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ -2 \\ 4 \\ -3 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 3 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}\right\}$$

14. Consider the subspace of R^4 given by

$$W = \text{span}\left\{\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 2 \\ 4 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}\right\}.$$

   (a) Determine a subset S of the spanning set that is a basis for W.
   (b) Find a basis T for W that is not a subset of the spanning set.
   (c) Find the coordinate vector of $\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ -1 \\ -5 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$ with respect to each of the bases from parts (a) and (b).

15. Prove that if $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ is a basis for a subspace W of vector space V, then there is a basis for V that includes the set S. (*Hint*: Use Theorem 4.11.)

16. Let $V = \text{span}\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$, where

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Find a basis S for R^3 that includes $\mathbf{v}_1$ and $\mathbf{v}_2$. (*Hint*: Use the technique developed in the Alternative Constructive Proof of Theorem 4.9.)

17. Describe the set of all vectors $\mathbf{b}$ in R^3 for which the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ is consistent.

   (a) $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 1 & -7 & 2 & -2 \end{bmatrix}$

   (b) $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 3 & 1 \\ 2 & 4 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$

18. Find a basis for the solution space of the homogeneous system $(\lambda I_3 - A)\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ for each given scalar λ and given matrix A.

(a) $\lambda = 1, A = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $\lambda = 3, A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & -2 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \end{bmatrix}$

19. Show that rank A = rank A^T for any $m \times n$ matrix A.

20. Let A and B be $m \times n$ matrices that are row equivalent.

(a) Prove that rank A = rank B.

(b) Prove that for $\mathbf{x}$ in R^n, $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ if and only if $B\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$.

21. Let A be $m \times n$ and B be $n \times k$.

(a) Prove that $\text{rank}(AB) \leq \min\{\text{rank } A, \text{rank } B\}$.

(b) Find A and B such that $\text{rank}(AB) < \min\{\text{rank } A, \text{rank } B\}$.

(c) If $k = n$ and B is nonsingular, prove that $\text{rank}(AB) = \text{rank } A$.

(d) If $m = n$ and A is nonsingular, prove that $\text{rank}(AB) = \text{rank } B$.

(e) For nonsingular matrices P and Q, what is $\text{rank}(PAQ)$?

22. For an $m \times n$ matrix A, let the set of all vectors $\mathbf{x}$ in R^n such that $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ be denoted by $\text{NS}(A)$, which in Example 10 of Section 4.3 has been shown to be a subspace of R^n, called the null space of A.

(a) Prove that rank A + dim $\text{NS}(A) = n$.

(b) For $m = n$, prove that A is nonsingular if and only if dim $\text{NS}(A) = 0$.

23. Let A be an $m \times n$ matrix and B a nonsingular $m \times m$ matrix. Prove that $\text{NS}(BA) = \text{NS}(A)$. (See Exercise 22.)

24. Find dim $\text{NS}(A)$ (see Exercise 22) for each of the following matrices:

(a) $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & 0 & 3 \\ 0 & 4 & -1 \end{bmatrix}$

(b) $A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 4 & 1 \\ 2 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 4 & 10 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$

25. Any nonsingular 3×3 matrix P represents a transition matrix from some ordered basis $T = \{\mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2, \mathbf{w}_3\}$ to some other ordered basis $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$. Let

$$P = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 3 \end{bmatrix}.$$

(a) If $\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$, and $\mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$, find T.

(b) If $\mathbf{w}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$, $\mathbf{w}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}$, and $\mathbf{w}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$, find S.

26. In Supplementary Exercises 30 through 32 for Chapter 1, we defined the outer product of two $n \times 1$ column matrices X and Y as XY^T. Determine the rank of an outer product.

27. Suppose that A is an $n \times n$ matrix and that there is no nonzero vector $\mathbf{x}$ in R^n such that $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{x}$. Show that $A - I_n$ is nonsingular.

28. Let A be an $m \times n$ matrix. Prove that if $A^T A$ is nonsingular, then rank $A = n$.

29. Prove or find a counterexample to disprove each of the following:

(a) $\text{rank}(A + B) \leq \max\{\text{rank } A, \text{rank } B\}$

(b) $\text{rank}(A + B) \geq \min\{\text{rank } A, \text{rank } B\}$

(c) $\text{rank}(A + B) = \text{rank } A + \text{rank } B$

30. Let A be an $n \times n$ matrix and $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ a linearly dependent set of vectors in R^n. Are $A\mathbf{v}_1, A\mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, A\mathbf{v}_k$ linearly dependent or linearly independent vectors in R^n? Justify your answer.

31. Let A be an $m \times n$ matrix. Show that the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has at most one solution for every $m \times 1$ matrix $\mathbf{b}$ if and only if the associated homogeneous system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ has only the trivial solution.

32. Let A be an $m \times n$ matrix. Show that the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has at most one solution for every $m \times 1$ matrix $\mathbf{b}$ if and only if the columns of A are linearly independent.

33. What can you say about the solutions to the consistent nonhomogeneous linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ if the rank of A is less than the number of unknowns?

34. Let W_1 and W_2 be subspaces of a vector space V. Let $W_1 + W_2$ be the set of all vectors $\mathbf{v}$ in V such that $\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{w}_1 + \mathbf{w}_2$, where $\mathbf{w}_1$ is in W_1 and $\mathbf{w}_2$ is in W_2. Show that $W_1 + W_2$ is a subspace of V.

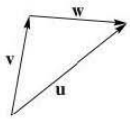
35. Let W_1 and W_2 be subspaces of a vector space V with $W_1 \cap W_2 = \{\mathbf{0}\}$. Let $W_1 + W_2$ be as defined in Exercise 34. Suppose that $V = W_1 + W_2$. Prove that every vector in V can be uniquely written as $\mathbf{w}_1 + \mathbf{w}_2$, where $\mathbf{w}_1$ is in W_1 and $\mathbf{w}_2$ is in W_2. In this case we write $V = W_1 \oplus W_2$ and say that V is the **direct sum** of the subspaces W_1 and W_2.

36. Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ be a set of vectors in a vector space V, and let W be a subspace of V containing S. Show that W contains span S.

Chapter Review

True or False

1. In the accompanying figure, $\mathbf{w} = \mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}$.



2. If V is a real vector space, then for every vector $\mathbf{u}$ in V, the scalar 0 times $\mathbf{u}$ gives the zero vector in V.
3. Let V be the vector space R^2. Then the set of all vectors with head and tail on the line $y = 2x + 1$ is a subspace of R^2.
4. If W is a subspace of the vector space V, then every linear combination of vectors from V is also in W.
5. The span of a set S is the same as the set of all linear combinations of the vectors in S.
6. Every subspace of R^3 contains infinitely many vectors.
7. If A is an $m \times n$ matrix, then the set of all solutions to $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$ is a subspace of R^n.
8. If the set S spans a subspace W of a vector space V, then every vector in W can be written as a linear combination of the vectors from S.
9. Two vectors are linearly dependent, provided that one is a scalar multiple of the other.
10. Any subset of a linearly independent set is linearly dependent.
11. Any set containing the zero vector is linearly independent.
12. A basis for a vector space V is a linearly independent set that spans V.
13. R^n contains infinitely many vectors, so we say it is infinite-dimensional.
14. Two bases for a subspace of R^n must contain the same number of vectors.
15. Every set that spans a subspace contains a basis for the subspace.
16. The dimension of the null space of matrix A is the number of arbitrary constants in the solution to the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$.
17. If a nonhomogeneous 3×3 linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has a solution $\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{x}_h + \mathbf{x}_p$ where $\mathbf{x}_h$ contains two arbitrary constants, then the set of solutions is a plane that does not go through the origin.
18. If $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_3\}$ is a basis for a vector space V and $\mathbf{u}$ in V has
$$[\mathbf{u}]_S = \begin{bmatrix} k_1 \\ k_2 \\ k_3 \end{bmatrix},$$
then $\mathbf{u} = k_1\mathbf{v}_1 + k_2\mathbf{v}_2 + k_3\mathbf{v}_3$.
19. rank A is the number of zero rows in the row echelon form of A.
20. If A is 4×4 with rank $A = 4$, then $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has exactly four solutions.
21. If the $n \times n$ matrix A is singular, then rank $A \leq n - 1$.
22. If A is $n \times n$ with rank $A = n - 1$, then A is singular.

Quiz

1. Let V be the set of all 2×1 real matrices with operations
$$\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \end{bmatrix} \oplus \begin{bmatrix} c \\ d \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} ad \\ bc \end{bmatrix}$$
and
$$k \odot \begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} ka \\ kb \end{bmatrix}, \quad \text{for } k \text{ real.}$$
Is V a vector space? Explain.
2. Let V be the set of all 2×2 real matrices with operations standard matrix addition and
$$k \odot \begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} k(a+b) \\ k(a+b) \end{bmatrix}.$$
Is V a vector space? Explain.
3. Is the set of all vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ -a \end{bmatrix}$, where a and b are any real numbers, a subspace W of R^3? Explain. If it is, find a basis for W.
4. Is the set of all vectors of the form $\begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{bmatrix}$, where a, b, and c are any real numbers with $a + b + c > 0$, a subspace W of R^3? Explain. If it is, find a basis for W.
5. Let W be the set of all vectors $p(t)$ in P_2 such that $p(0) = 0$. Show that W is a subspace of P_2 and find a basis for W.

6. Let

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ -1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 4 \\ -6 \end{bmatrix} \right\}.$$

Determine whether span $S = R^3$.

7. Let

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 8 \\ -2 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}.$$

Show that span $S = R^3$ and find a basis for R^3 consisting of vectors from S.

8. Find a basis for the null space of

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 2 & 3 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

9. Determine a basis for the row space of

$$\begin{bmatrix} 2 & 3 & -2 \\ 1 & -1 & 4 \\ -1 & 2 & -6 \end{bmatrix}.$$

10. If A is 3×3 with rank $A = 2$, show that the dimension of the null space of A is 1.

11. Determine the solution to the linear system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ and write it in the form $\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{x}_p + \mathbf{x}_h$, for

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -1 & 3 \\ -2 & 2 & -3 & 3 \\ 0 & 6 & -1 & 3 \\ -1 & 4 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{b} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \\ 7 \\ 5 \end{bmatrix}.$$

12. Determine all values of c so that the set $\{t+3, 2t+c^2+2\}$ is linearly independent.

Discussion Exercises

1. Let a_j and b_j, $j = 1, 2, 3, 4, 5$, and c_j, d_j, and e_j, $j = 1, 2$ be any real numbers. Construct the matrix

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} a_1 & a_2 & a_3 & a_4 & a_5 \\ b_1 & b_2 & b_3 & b_4 & b_5 \\ 0 & c_1 & 0 & c_2 & 0 \\ 0 & d_1 & 0 & d_2 & 0 \\ 0 & e_1 & 0 & e_2 & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Discuss how to show that $\det(A) = 0$, without actually computing the determinant.

2. Let k be any real number except 1 and -2. Show that

$$S = \left\{ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ k \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} k \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ k \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \right\}$$

is a basis for R^3.

3. Let $S = \{[k \quad 1 \quad 0], [1 \quad k \quad 1], [0 \quad 1 \quad k]\}$. Determine all the real values of k so that S is a linearly dependent set.

4. Let W be the set of all $n \times n$ matrices A such that $A^{-1} = A^T$. Prove or disprove that W is a subspace of M_{nn}.

5. An $n \times n$ matrix A is called **involutory** if $A^2 = I_n$. Prove or disprove that the set of all $n \times n$ involutory matrices is a subspace of M_{nn}.

6. In Section 1.5 we discussed the Fibonacci sequence and illustrated its computation by using a recurrence relation that was expressed as a matrix product

$$\mathbf{w}_{n-1} = A^{n-1}\mathbf{w}_0,$$

where

$$\mathbf{w}_0 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Let $S = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2\}$, where

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{1+\sqrt{5}}{2} \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{1-\sqrt{5}}{2} \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

(a) Show that S is a basis for R^2.

(b) Show that $A\mathbf{v}_1$ is a scalar multiple of $\mathbf{v}_1$, $\lambda_1\mathbf{v}_1$, and determine the scalar λ_1.

(c) Show that $A\mathbf{v}_2$ is a scalar multiple of $\mathbf{v}_2$, $\lambda_2\mathbf{v}_2$, and determine the scalar λ_2.

(d) Find scalars c_1 and c_2 so that $\mathbf{w}_0 = c_1\mathbf{v}_1 + c_2\mathbf{v}_2$.

(e) Form the expression $\mathbf{w}_{n-1} = A^{n-1}\mathbf{w}_0$ by using the result of part (d) and simplify as much as possible.

(f) Use the result from part (e) to obtain an expression for u_n in terms of the powers of λ_1 and λ_2. Explain all the steps in your computation.